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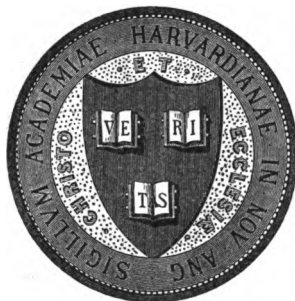
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MAXWELL'S SCHOOL GRAMMAR





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SCHOOL GRAMMAR

BY

WILLIAM H. MAXWELL, M.A., LL.D.

CITY SUPERINTENDENT OF SCHOOLS
THE CITY OF NEW YORK



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MAXWELL'S SCHOOL GRAMMAR.

W. P. I

PREFACE

THIS book is intended for those students who desire a more complete treatment of English grammar than is presented in the author's "Elementary Grammar." It contains all the material necessary either for an elementary course or a high school course ; to meet the demands of students, whether they leave school at any time after the eighth year or whether they are preparing for college entrance examinations. It will be found to cover fully the requirements of the Syllabus in English issued by the New York State Department of Education.

Particular attention is invited to the scientific order of topics, to the absence of unnecessary detail in explanations, to the method of combining analysis and parsing, to the practical character of the exercises, to the systematic reviews of etymology, syntax, and analysis, and to the classification of common errors in speech. All the valuable features of my "Advanced Lessons in English Grammar" have been retained in this book.

The nomenclature of English grammar is still far from settled. I have adopted that which seems to me the simplest and most consistent, and in Appendix C have presented a table of equivalent terms employed by other grammarians.

In preparing this book I have had the assistance of Miss Emma L. Johnston, Principal of the Brooklyn Training School for Teachers, whose technical knowledge and literary taste rendered her coöperation invaluable.

W. H. M.

SUGGESTIONS TO TEACHERS

1. As far as possible, have each lesson read aloud in class.
2. Do not waste time in so-called "development" lessons. Train your pupils to depend upon the book alone for explanations, definitions, etc. The ability to get for himself from books a knowledge of principles and rules should be not the least of the results flowing from the use of this text-book in the classroom.
3. Have your pupils commit the definitions to memory so thoroughly that they will remain a permanent possession.
4. Accustom your pupils to make constant use of the table of contents and of the index.
5. Teach them to use the book as a book of reference when correcting their own compositions and when studying literature critically.
6. In case students take up this book without having studied an elementary treatise, the teacher should use discretion in omitting, during a first reading, such of the details printed in smaller type as appear too difficult.

W. H. M.

CONTENTS

	PAGE
I. THE DIVISIONS OF GRAMMAR	7
Orthoepy	7
Orthography	8
Etymology	9
Syntax	9
Prosody	10
II. THE PARTS OF SPEECH	11
The Noun	11
The Verb	12
The Pronoun	14
The Adjective	16
The Adverb	18
The Preposition	20
The Conjunction	23
The Interjection	26
III. ELEMENTS OF THE SENTENCE	29
Sentences classified according to Use	29
Subject and Predicate	31
The Complement of a Verb	35
Adjective Modifiers	39
Adverbial Modifiers	42
Independent Elements	44
Review of Phrases and Clauses	45
IV. CLASSIFICATION OF SENTENCES	51
Analysis and Synthesis	51
The Simple Sentence	52
The Complex Sentence	58
The Compound Sentence	68
V. ETYMOLOGY	67
The Noun	67
Classes of Nouns	67
Inflections of Nouns	71
Gender	78
Case	82
The Declension of Nouns	87
Person	88
Substitutes for Nouns	89
Parsing the Noun	89

	PAGE
The Pronoun	91
Personal Pronouns	92
Interrogative Pronouns	99
Relative Pronouns	102
Adjective Pronouns	111
The Adjective	118
Classes	118
Degrees of Comparison	123
Substitutes for the Adjective	127
Parsing the Adjective	128
The Verb	129
Classes of Verbs	130
Voice	134
Mode	136
Tense	141
Number and Person	146
Verbals, — Infinitives and Participles	150
Verb Phrases	161
Conjugation	167
List of Irregular Verbs	181
Parsing the Verb	187
The Adverb	189
Classes	189
Comparison	192
Substitutes for the Adverb	193
Parsing	194
The Preposition	195
Parsing	199
The Conjunction	201
Classes	201
Parsing	204
VI. SYNTAX	209
Concord	209
Government	224
Modification	225
Order of Words	227
Ellipsis	237
Rules for Capitals	240
Rules for Punctuation	243
VII. GENERAL REVIEW	251
Etymology and Syntax	251
Common Errors in Speech Classified	255
VIII. PROSODY	263
APPENDIX A. HISTORICAL SKETCH OF THE ENGLISH LANGUAGE	275
APPENDIX B. FORMATION OF WORDS	284
APPENDIX C. EQUIVALENT TERMS	306
INDEX	309

SCHOOL GRAMMAR

I. THE DIVISIONS OF GRAMMAR

Language is the name given to any means of expressing thoughts or feelings.

The most important varieties of language are *spoken language* and *written language*.

Spoken language and written language are made up of *words*, and words are united in *groups* called *sentences*.

Grammar tells us how words are formed, how they are classified, how they are joined to form sentences, how sentences are classified, and the relations that both words and sentences bear one to another.

Hence, grammar has to do,

1. With words separately considered ; that is, not united to express thought.

2. With words joined in sentences.

A **spoken word** is a sound, or a combination of sounds, having a meaning.

DEFINITION. — **Orthoepy** is that part of grammar which treats of the correct pronunciation of words.

The subject of orthoepy will not be treated in this book, since it may be studied from dictionaries.

When a word is written or printed, certain characters called *letters* are used to represent the sounds of the spoken word.

DEFINITION. — **Orthography** is that part of grammar which treats of the correct representation by letters of the sounds that make up a word.

As the subject of orthography is fully treated in dictionaries, it will not be taken up in this book. The rules for the use of capital letters will be found on pages 240-242.

In the study of grammar, words are first classified according to the way in which they are used in sentences. This has led to the division of all the words in our language into eight classes, called **parts of speech**. It will be found, however, that nearly all of these classes or parts of speech may be further subdivided. This process of arranging the words of a language in classes is called **classification**.

Again, if you will look carefully at a sentence, such as *Charles rode on his father's horse*, you will notice that three of the words, *rode*, *his*, and *father's*, are modifications of other words, and that each modification is made in order to express a variation of meaning. *Rode* is a modification of *ride*, made in order to indicate that the event took place in past time. *His* is a modification of *he*, and *father's* of *father*, in both cases made in order to show possession. All such changes are called **inflections**.

Then again, in studying words, we may consider

not only the classes into which they are divided, and the changes they undergo in order to express our meaning, but also their *growth* and *structure*.

Some words are **prime**; that is, they can not be traced back to any simpler words in the language; as, *man*, *bush*, *tree*.

Others are **compound**; that is, are composed of two or more simple words; as, *rose-bush*, *apple-tree*.

Others are **derivative**; that is, are built up by adding prefixes (syllables placed before) or suffixes (endings) to simple words; as, *befriend* and *friendship*, from *friend*.

Word formation deals with the study of the growth and structure of words.

Summing up, we may say that words are studied as to their *classification*, as to their *inflection*, and as to their *formation*. These are the main divisions of that part of grammar known as **Etymology**.

DEFINITION. — **Etymology** is that part of grammar which treats of the classification, inflection, and formation of words.

But grammar, as we have learned, treats not only of individual words, but also of the joining of words in sentences.

DEFINITION. — **Syntax** is that part of grammar which treats of the way in which words are joined in sentences.

Syntax lays down the rules that govern the formation of all sentences, whether in prose or in verse.

In addition, however, to the rules of syntax, there are special rules for the arrangement of words in the musically measured sentences used in poetry.

DEFINITION. — **Prosody** is that part of grammar which treats of the rules that govern verse. .

II. THE PARTS OF SPEECH

THE NOUN

All the words in our language are arranged in classes called **parts of speech**. The *use* that is made of any particular word determines the class to which it belongs. If we examine the sentences employed in speaking and writing, we find that the different uses that can be made of words are not many.

One of the largest and most important classes of words is made up of the names of the things that we speak and write about. The words *boy*, *house*, *memory*, *kindness*, etc., are examples of this class. Such words are called **nouns**,—a word that means *names*.

In the following sentences the nouns are in full-faced type :

Flowers and ferns grew on the bank of the lake.

The prince was clad in a garment of velvet that glistened with gems.

The next gale that sweeps from the north will bring to our ears the clash of resounding arms.

The war of the Colonies against England excited much sympathy in Europe.

DEFINITION.—A **noun** is a word used as the name of something.

EXERCISE 1. — *Use the following words as nouns :*

walk	dream	weather	dust	watch
lock	leaves	ground	stand	button
chain	soil	dress	fish	plant

THE VERB

Every sentence has two parts. One part consists of the word or words used to denote that about which something is said ; it is called the *subject* of the sentence. The other part consists of the word or words used to denote that which is said of the subject ; this is called the *predicate* of the sentence.

In the following sentences the predicates are printed in full-faced type, the subjects in italics :

The minstrel **was infirm and old.**

Into the jaws of death **rode** *the six hundred.*

Every predicate consists of or contains a part of speech called the **verb**. That the verb is considered to be the most important of all the parts of speech is indicated by its name *verb*, from *verbum*, which signifies *word*.

In a sentence of the kind that tells *what things do* the verb expresses action. Such a verb may consist of one word or more than one.

The wind **blew.** *The cock* **is crowing.** *The horse* **has eaten** *the oats.*

In a sentence of the kind that tells *what is done to things* the verb expresses action and consists of two words at least.

*The kites **were tossed** on high. The children **were being dressed** for school. The boy **has been promoted** twice this year.*

In sentences that tell *what the qualities of things are* or *what things are* the verb expresses mere state of being.

*The rose **is** red. Longfellow **was** a poet.*

Whether a verb expresses action or mere state of being, it is always a word used to say something about some person or thing.

DEFINITION. — A **verb** is a word used to say something about some person or thing.

EXERCISE 2. — *Tell of each of the italicized words whether it is a noun or a verb.*

1. The warrior *arms* himself quickly.
2. Lay down your *arms*.
3. *Fly* to cover.
4. Cover the jar to keep out that *fly*.
5. The boat has lost its *sail*.
6. Let us *sail* across the lake.
7. How much will it cost to *paper* the walls of this room?
8. The *paper* is fifty cents a roll.

EXERCISE 3. — *Use as a verb each word given in Exercise 1.*

EXERCISE 4. — *In the following sentences the predicates are printed in italics. Find the verb in each predicate.*

1. The meteor of the ocean air
Shall sweep the clouds no more.
2. The minstrel *was infirm and old.*

3. The river *is flowing toward the sea.*
4. The bricklayers *had left a very small hole near the top of the granary.*
5. The prince *was dressed in a gorgeous robe.*
6. The poor little dog *had been hurt by a wagon.*
7. *By the shining Big-Sea-Water,*
Stood the wigwam of Nokomis.
8. *O'er the dark wave I flew*
With the marauders.
9. *Snug and safe is this nest of ours.*

THE PRONOUN

There is a part of speech employed as a substitute for the noun. It is called the **pronoun**. *Pro* means *for* or *instead of*. By using the pronoun, we are able to avoid the awkwardness of speech that would come from frequently repeating a noun. For example, without the pronoun we could not easily avoid such sentences as,

Mary said that Mary would study Mary's lessons.

The boys promised the boys' teacher that the boys would obey the teacher's requests.

With the aid of pronouns, these sentences are much improved:

*Mary said that **she** would study **her** lessons.*

*The boys promised **their** teacher that **they** would obey **his** requests.*

Another great advantage arising from the use of the pronoun is that a single pronoun may denote a multitude of persons or things, all having different names,

or even names that are not known by the speaker. Thus the pupils in a school, or the persons in a crowd on the street, may be denoted by such pronouns as *you, your, they, their, them, all, these, we, who, whom, which*, etc.

*Have all finished **their** examples ?*

***These** are citizens, but **those** are soldiers.*

DEFINITION. — A **pronoun** is a word that denotes persons or things without naming them.

EXERCISE 5. — *Fill the blanks with pronouns, and then make a list of the pronouns.*

1. — am monarch of all — survey.
— right there is none to dispute.
2. Give — liberty or give — death.
3. Over the river and through the wood,
To grandfather's house — go.
4. — Father who art in heaven, hallowed be —
name.
5. Let — have peace.
6. Speak clearly if — speak at all;
Carve every word before — let it fall.
7. Friends, Romans, countrymen, lend — — ears.
8. Every man should think that — is responsible for
— own actions and that no one can relieve — of this
responsibility.
9. In — attic window the staff — set
To show that one heart was loyal yet.
10. The falcon's bill has a deep notch in —.
11. Then the little Hiawatha
Learned of every bird — language.

12. Flash'd all — sabers bare,
Flashed as — turned in air.
13. Cannon to right of —,
Cannon to left of —.

THE ADJECTIVE

Things that have the same name are often very different from one another. For example, the word *apple* is the name of a class of things so much alike that we may call them all by the same name; yet it is difficult to find two that are exactly alike in every respect. They have differences in color, size, taste, etc., and these differences are denoted by such words as *red*, *yellow*, *large*, *sweet*, *smooth*, *ripe*, etc. Again, they are distinguished by words denoting their situation, number, etc.; as when we say, *this apple*, *that apple*, *these apples*, *any apple*, *two apples*, *some apples*, *many apples*, *the apple*, *an apple*, etc.

By using with a noun such a word as *red*, *this*, *two*, etc., we limit or confine the application of the noun so that it includes only the thing or things we mean and not the whole class of things denoted by the noun. Such words are called **adjectives**. In the same way an adjective may be used with a pronoun, as in the exclamation, *me miserable!*

The word *adjective* means *joined to*. This class of words gets its name from the fact that the adjective generally stands next to the noun to which it belongs. Thus, *good boys*, *luscious grapes*, *a girl*. Frequently,

however, the adjective is separated from the noun to which it belongs by some other word or words.

The boys are good. The man looked sick.

The adjectives in the following sentences are in full-faced type:

A tall, stately lily grew beside a pretty bed of modest little violets.

A beautiful bird sat on a lofty bough, and sang a melodious song.

The wise old owl dozed in an ancient tower, ruined and ivy-covered.

DEFINITION.—An **adjective** is a word used with a noun or a pronoun to describe or limit its meaning.

EXERCISE 6. — *Point out all the nouns and adjectives. Tell to what noun each adjective belongs.*

1. The thirsty, weary traveler drank of the cool, clear waters of the spring.

2. A wonderful castle, tall and grand, was built on a hill beside the beautiful Rhine.

3. People in cold countries wear garments of thick, warm fur.

4. The peddler, a lame, unshaven fellow, had a tattered blue umbrella and a basket of old newspapers and worn pamphlets.

5. On the banks of the Xenil, the dark Spanish maiden
Comes up with the fruit of the tangled vine laden.

6. On the wide lawn, the snow lay white and deep.

7. The Danish king could not repel the ocean tide.

8. The belfry tower of the Old North Church rose above the graves on the hill, lonely and spectral and somber and still.

9. Above the mist rose the snowy summits of sharp needles of rock, which seemed to float in the air, like fairies.

EXERCISE 7. — *Tell of each italicized word whether it is a noun, a verb, or an adjective.*

1. Do not *cross* a bridge before you come to it.
2. How the *cross* glitters !
3. The little boy was *cross* and unhappy.
4. Can you *still* the waves ?
5. The woods were *still* at noon.
6. There is a *still* in this building.
7. Put an *iron* on the stove.
8. Now you may *iron* the clothes.
9. Stone walls do not a prison make, nor *iron* bars a cage.
10. Give the queen a hearty *welcome*.
11. *Welcome* her, thunders of fort and of fleet !
12. The sound of the bell is *welcome*.

THE ADVERB

We have seen that an adjective is joined to a noun to describe or limit its meaning. Just as the noun *apple* is applied to a great many things that resemble one another, and differ in color, number, etc., so the verb *go* denotes action of which there are many varieties with respect to the time, manner, and place of its performance.

The men go { *slowly.*
rapidly.
cheerfully.
daily.
now.
there.

The car goes { *easily.*
smoothly.
downward.
yonder.
constantly.
soon.

A word thus used with a verb to denote the time, place, manner, or some other characteristic of the

action expressed by the verb, is called an **adverb**. The nearness of the adverb to the verb is implied in the name *adverb*, meaning *near* or *at the verb*.

The adverb is joined also to the adjective, generally to denote the degree or measure in which the meaning expressed by the adjective is to be understood.

The girls are $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{not} \\ \text{nearly} \\ \text{quite} \end{array} \right\}$ *ready.* *James is* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{extremely} \\ \text{very} \\ \text{slightly} \end{array} \right\}$ *sick.*

Again, an adverb is often joined to another adverb to indicate the degree or measure of the meaning of the latter.

The ship sailed **very** *swiftly.* *He spoke* **somewhat** *hopefully.*

The adjective and the adverb are said to *modify* the meaning of the words to which they belong; that is, they *change* or *measure* the meaning of those words. Hence they are sometimes called *modifiers*.

DEFINITION. — An **adverb** is a word used to modify the meaning of a verb, an adjective, or another adverb.

EXERCISE 8. — *Point out the verbs and the adverbs in the following sentences, and tell the word whose meaning each adverb modifies:*

1. The judge rode slowly down the lane.
2. The brook ripples and dances merrily on its way to the ocean.
3. The moon shone softly through the trees.
4. The lady sang very sweetly a song I had often heard in my childhood.

5. The traveler rapidly climbed the hill and soon was gazing eagerly into the beautiful valley.
6. The lark flies swiftly and soars very high.
7. Many very poor people live respectably and comfortably.
8. The ship that sailed away so gayly never came back.
9. The young hunter held his rifle carefully and shot directly upward.

EXERCISE 9. — *Use each of the following words as an adverb and as an adjective :*

still	only	hard	more
much	fast	loud	most

THE PREPOSITION

If the words that make up a sentence be disarranged, that is, if their relations to one another be destroyed, we get a meaningless result.

Thus, the following words express no thought :

The room window entered the open an man through.

But if they are arranged so as to be properly related to one another, we have a sentence.

The man entered the room through an open window.

There is a class of words whose use is to connect and bring into relation two unrelated words, one of which is a noun or a pronoun. A word of this kind is called a **preposition**, the name being derived from two Latin words meaning *placed before*.

Speak $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \textit{to} \\ \textit{about} \\ \textit{with} \\ \textit{against} \\ \textit{for} \end{array} \right\}$ him.

A castle $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \textit{in} \\ \textit{by} \\ \textit{over} \\ \textit{upon} \\ \textit{under} \end{array} \right\}$ the sea.

Weary $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{of} \\ \text{from} \end{array} \right\}$ labor.

DEFINITION.—A **preposition** is a word used to show the relation between a noun or a pronoun and some other word,—a verb, an adjective, another noun, or a pronoun.

The preposition and its accompanying noun or pronoun, either with or without modifying words, form what is called a **phrase**. A phrase so formed is called a **prepositional phrase**, to distinguish it from other kinds of phrases of which we shall learn hereafter.

The canoe floated down the river. He sat within a small, cheerless, unfurnished room.

The noun or pronoun following a preposition is called the **object** of the preposition; and the preposition is said to connect the object with some word that usually precedes the preposition.

Thus, in the foregoing sentences, *river* is the object of the preposition *down*; and *down* connects *floated* and *river*.

EXERCISE 10.—*Fill the blanks with prepositions from the following list, in order to bring the words into relation :*

at	up	upon	above	about	beyond
by	down	into	below	after	across
on	with	under	beside	before	between
of	within	near	beneath	until	against
for	over	amid	among	around	through
from	past	aboard	opposite	during	concerning

- | | |
|-------------------------------|--------------------------|
| 1. dropped — the clouds. | 14. asleep — the sermon. |
| 2. waited — the station. | 15. friends — the seas. |
| 3. waited — the train. | 16. life — the grave. |
| 4. watched — my bedside. | 17. house — the corner. |
| 5. knelt — the rug. | 18. wrecked — the coast. |
| 6. a field — the house. | 19. walk — breakfast. |
| 7. diameter — a circle. | 20. degrees — zero. |
| 8. a dream — home. | 21. work — sundown. |
| 9. ill — fever. | 22. went — his business. |
| 10. traveled — the continent. | 23. dived — the waves. |
| 11. quarrels — friends. | 24. errands — the poor. |
| 12. ladder — the barn. | 25. letter — a cousin. |
| 13. nest — the branches. | 26. soar — the clouds. |

EXERCISE 11. — *Fill the blanks with prepositions from the foregoing list, that will connect the words and bring them into relation.*

1. Heaven hides — all creatures the book — fate.
2. Ten vessels came — port — the storm.
3. The boys live — home — their parents.
4. Henry found his ball — a bench which stood — the old oak.
5. The storms — a century have whistled — the branches — this famous tree.
6. The travelers went — the ocean, — the burning sands — the desert, — high mountains and — deep valleys, and returned home — many months — sight-seeing.
7. The boat went — the tide, but — the wind.
8. The farmers hide the kernels — corn — the cool, damp earth.
9. As we walked — the meadow we heard the bleating — the flocks — the hill.
10. Every moment that flies — our heads takes — the future and gives — the past.

11. Our canoe touched — the shore, — a short distance — the spot where our friends were standing.
12. The children went out — the shower to gather flowers — the hillside.
13. Clouds gather — the storm, but sunshine follows — it.
14. I shot an arrow — the air.
15. The traveler told us — his thrilling adventure — a lion.

THE CONJUNCTION

Another class of connecting words is the **conjunction**, — a word that means *joining together*. The preposition, as we have seen, connects *words*, and brings them into relation. The conjunction generally connects two or more *sentences* so that they form one sentence.

<i>The mountains look blue</i>	{	<i>and</i> <i>because</i> <i>if</i> <i>therefore</i>	}	<i>they are far away.</i>
--------------------------------	---	---	---	---------------------------

Although the principal office of conjunctions is to unite sentences, yet some of them, especially *and*, are sometimes used to connect *words*.

They are brother and sister.

The lady wore a black and white dress.

Unlike the preposition, the conjunction can not be used as the introductory word in a phrase. This is the best test by which the preposition may always be distinguished from the conjunction.

In uniting two or more sentences by means of conjunctions, there is often a great saving of words. The resulting sentence, however, may always be separated into the sentences from which it was derived.

My cousin fished and swam in the lake on Saturday.

This sentence consists of two sentences, united and shortened :

{ *My cousin fished in the lake on Saturday.*
 { *My cousin swam in the lake on Saturday.*

When the conjunction is used to connect *words* in a sentence, the sentence can not be decomposed in the way shown above.

Thus, take the sentence, *The human body consists principally of blood, flesh, and bone.* This is not equivalent to

{ *The human body consists principally of blood.*
 { *The human body consists principally of flesh.*
 { *The human body consists principally of bone.*

Conjunctions often occur in pairs, and sometimes the first of a pair is used not to *connect*, but to *introduce*.

Though he were a giant, yet I should not fear him.

He is neither honest nor truthful.

He is either sick or very tired.

DEFINITION.—A **conjunction** is a word used to connect parts of sentences.

EXERCISE 12.—*From the following list select suitable conjunctions to fill the blanks :*

and	nor	that	except	therefore
but	so	unless	although	nevertheless
for	if	whether	hence	notwithstanding
or	else	either	because	in order that
yet	than	neither	however	so that

1. He was punished, — he was guilty.
2. He was pardoned, — he was guilty.
3. I would pay you — I had the money.
4. We can not go — we finish our task.
5. He can not cross the river — the water is shallow.
6. The man came, — he did not stay long.
7. The poor man gave more — the rich man.
8. — the rain came down in torrents, we started on our journey.
9. I will trust him, — he deceived me before.
10. The lady could — dance — sing, — she played beautifully.
11. Everybody believed him, — he must have been truthful.
12. We must — go at once, — stay at home all day.
13. I will lend you the money, — you seem to need it so badly.
14. I have not decided — I shall walk — ride.
15. The children played outside while the day was fine, — came into the house as soon as it began to rain.

EXERCISE 13. — *Make one sentence of each pair of sentences by using conjunctions selected from the foregoing list :*

EXAMPLE. — The boy robbed the nest.

He was punished for his cruelty.

The boy robbed the nest and was punished for his cruelty.

1. His daughter was the light of his eyes.
His daughter was the joy of his soul.

2. The messenger mounted the stairs quickly.
The stairs were very steep.
3. Roses love the sunshine.
They do not love the shade.
4. Time waits for no man.
Tide waits for no man.
5. The teacher reproved the pupil.
The pupil failed in recitation.
6. She talks more than she thinks.
She talks but little.
7. You will take cold.
You are not properly clothed.
8. Our guest will depart.
The storm is still raging.
9. I could not weep.
I could not laugh.
10. He paid me promptly.
I trusted him again.

THE INTERJECTION

The seven classes of words thus far explained have each a particular office or function in the sentence. We are able to determine the part of speech to which any particular word in a sentence belongs only by learning how it stands related to other words in the sentence.

There is, however, a class of words called the **interjection**, or *exclamation*, that has no grammatical relation to the other words of a sentence. Interjections do not aid in the expression of *thought*, but they

indicate *emotion* or *feeling*. They serve no other purpose than to show by what kind and degree of feeling our thought is accompanied.

Alas! *My boy is dead.*

Hurrah! *We have a holiday.*

Oh! *Excuse my awkwardness.*

The words *alas*, *hurrah*, and *oh*, in the preceding sentences, are called *interjections*,—a name that means *something thrown in among other things*. The name implies that the interjection is not necessary to the grammatical completeness of a sentence.

Words commonly used as verbs, nouns, adjectives, adverbs, etc., are sometimes employed as interjections.

Good! *That ball was well caught.*

Hush! *You will scare the birds.*

“If”! *What do you mean by “if”?*

Well! *Have you solved the example at last?*

Now! *Are you not ashamed of yourself?*

DEFINITION.—An **interjection** is a word expressing strong feeling, and not related to other words in the sentence.

EXERCISE 14.—*From the following list select suitable interjections to fill the blanks:*

Oh!	See!	Bang!	Hush!	Nonsense!
Ah!	Come!	Hallo!	Behold!	Dear me!
Lo!	Stop!	Well!	Huzza!	Good-by!
So!	Alas!	Hurrah!	Hey!	Ha, ha!
Fie!	Help!	Hark!	There!	Farewell!
How!	Fire!	Hem!	Shame!	Ah me!
Why!	Look!	Hist!	Indeed!	O dear!

1. —! I am surprised to hear it.
2. —! Here comes the train.
3. I shall not see you again. —!
4. —! You can not make me believe that.
5. —! He is deceiving you.
6. —! It was a very funny sight.
7. —! Is anybody awake within?
8. —! cried Samoset to the white men.
9. —! —! cried the traveler, as the robbers fell upon
him.
10. —! I knew I could do it.
11. —! Did you hear that strange sound?
12. —! I do not understand you.
13. —! The clouds are breaking away.
14. The maiden wrung her hands and cried, —! and —!
15. —! Let me never see you again.
16. —! —! A victory!
17. —! My blood runs cold!
18. The captain said, —! and —! went the guns.
19. —! that thou shouldst die.
20. —! Do not awake the child.

NOTE. — It is well to avoid the use of interjections as much as possible, both in speaking and in writing, particularly those used to express the feeling of contempt or dislike; such as, *fudge! bosh! pshaw! bah!*

III. ELEMENTS OF THE SENTENCE

Sentences are used for three purposes :

1. To **state** or **tell** something.

I am monarch of all I survey. Homer was blind.

2. To **ask** about something.

Have you ever crossed the ocean ? Can you visit us to-morrow ?

3. To **express** a **command** or an **entreaty**.

Distrust the man that flatters you. Give us this day our daily bread.

DEFINITION. — A **sentence** is a group of words used as a statement, a question, a command, or an entreaty.

A **declarative sentence** is a sentence that states or declares something.

Magellan sailed around the world.

An **interrogative sentence** is a sentence used to ask a question.

Can gold gain friendship ?

An **imperative sentence** is a sentence that expresses a command or an entreaty.

Send for a physician. Pity the sorrows of a poor old man.

A declarative sentence may express strong feeling, such as anger, sorrow, grief, etc. The same is true of

interrogative and imperative sentences. Sentences that do this are by some authors called **exclamatory sentences**. When the feeling expressed is very strong, the sentence should end with an exclamation point, but this kind of punctuation should be used as little as possible.

EXCLAMATORY	{	<i>What a cowardly wretch you are!</i>
DECLARATIVE SENTENCES.		<i>May I never see your face again!</i>

EXCLAMATORY	{	<i>Wasn't the music grand?</i>
INTERROGATIVE SENTENCES.		<i>The boy! Oh! where was he?</i>

EXCLAMATORY	{	<i>Heap high the farmer's wintry hoard!</i>
IMPERATIVE SENTENCES.		<i>Jump far out, boy, into the wave!</i>

A declarative sentence may contain a question or a command.

The gentleman said, "Is your father at home?"

The captain shouted, "Charge for the batteries!"

An interrogative sentence may contain a declarative or an imperative part.

Did the teacher say, "Your answer is wrong, John"?

Does not the Bible command, "Swear not at all"?

An imperative sentence may consist in part of a question or of a statement.

Ask yourself often, "Is my action right?"

Read more slowly, "He giveth His beloved sleep."

From the use of a sentence, however, there is no difficulty in telling the class to which it belongs.

EXERCISE 15. — *Tell the kind of sentence.*

1. Benevolence is a duty and a pleasure.
2. Hast thou a star to guide thy path ?
3. Lead us to some far-off sunny isle.
4. The blackbird whistles from the thorny brake.
5. Shall we always be youthful and laughing and gay ?
6. Oh, could I fly, I'd fly with thee!
7. Trust no future, howe'er pleasant.
8. O Hamlet, thou hast cleft my heart in twain !
9. Roll on, thou deep and dark blue ocean, roll!
10. What flower is this that greets the morn ?
11. Who wrote, "I would not live alway" ?
12. "Where is my mother ?" was his constant inquiry.
13. "Where are you going, my pretty maid ?"
14. "I'm going a-milking, sir," she said.
15. Ask them, "Why stand ye here all the day idle ?"

SUBJECT AND PREDICATE

The elements of a sentence are the parts of which it is composed.

Every sentence is composed of two parts, a *subject* and a *predicate*.

In defining subject and predicate, the declarative sentence is referred to, because it is the kind of sentence in most common use.

In the declarative sentence, the *subject* consists of the word or words used to denote that about which the statement is made.

The *predicate* consists of the word or words that express the statement.

Gold is heavy.

The careless boy neglected his lesson.

Up the street came the rebel tread.

Your home on the mountain is bleak and wild.

The noisiest dogs are generally the least dangerous.

The subject and predicate of an interrogative sentence are easily recognized if the *question* is first put into the form of a *declarative sentence*.

Did you see the procession yesterday?

Has every pupil in the class prepared his lesson?

Whom did the people of New York choose for governor?

SUBJECTS

PREDICATES

You *did see the procession yesterday.*

Every pupil in the class *has prepared his lesson.*

The people of New York *did choose whom for governor.*

The *subject* of an imperative sentence is generally *thou* or *you*, usually understood, but sometimes expressed. The *predicate* consists of words that express the command or entreaty.

You run away to school now.

Turn not thou away.

DEFINITION.—The **subject** of a sentence denotes that about which something is said.

DEFINITION.—The **predicate** of a sentence is that which is said of the thing denoted by the subject.

EXERCISE 16.—*In each of the following sentences make the complete subject come before its complete predicate:*

1. Six days with the strong north wind our sea-steeds swam the sea.
2. Southward our war fleet sailed.
3. Fourscore were the ships in line.
4. Glorious spoil of war we bore from that house of kings.
5. Suddenly, at these audacious words, up sprang the angry guests.
6. Like silent ghosts in misty shrouds
Stand out the white lighthouses high.
7. Where, on thy dewy wing,
Where art thou journeying?
8. Little white Lily
Sunshine has fed.
9. A fragment of a rainbow bright
Through the moist air I see.
10. An exile from home, splendor dazzles in vain.

EXERCISE 17. — *Mention the subject and the predicate of each of the following sentences:*

1. Presently I came in sight of the village church, sitting solitary within its circle of elms. From forth the vestry window projected two small legs, gyrating, hungry for foothold, with larceny in their every wriggle. I knew the legs well enough. They were usually attached to the body of Bill Saunders, the peerless bad boy of the village.
2. Two hundred years have changed the character of a great continent.
3. How far that little candle throws its beams!
4. The lowing herd winds slowly o'er the lea.
5. The faithful, stout-hearted fellow carried his wounded master on his back.
6. Did the waves wash away your fine castles of sand?
7. Away down south lives a pretty, golden-haired child.
8. Did that mischievous little elf break the spider's web?

9. In the shade of the trees the weary travelers found rest.

10. That worn old book in the corner of my shelf is one of my truest friends.

Sometimes the subject consists of a noun only, as *Time flies*; sometimes of a pronoun, as *He walks*, *She rides*; sometimes of a noun or pronoun with one or more adjective modifiers, as,

The swift boat scuds before the breeze.

Friendless, homeless, hopeless, they wandered from city to city.

The noun or pronoun denoting that of which something is said is called the *subject noun*, or the *subject pronoun*.

The subject often consists of two or more words equivalent in meaning to a noun; as,

To err is human. Walking in the hot sun is weary work.

In these sentences, *to err* and *walking in the hot sun* are called phrases; and because they perform the offices of nouns they are called *noun phrases*.

Sometimes the subject of a sentence is an expression containing itself a subject and a predicate; as,

Why he came to see us soon became evident.

An expression used in this way, as the subject of a sentence, is called a *noun clause*. (See p. 47.)

That he committed the crime was clearly shown at the trial.

Phrases and clauses serve for other purposes besides those mentioned above, as will be shown hereafter. (See p. 45.)

EXERCISE 18.— *In the following sentences the subjects are printed in italics. Tell whether they are nouns, pronouns, phrases, or clauses.*

1. *Longfellow* wrote "Excelsior."
2. *He* wrote prose as well as poetry.
3. *That he is the children's poet* is a common opinion.
4. *To gild refined gold* is wasteful excess.
5. *Reciting poetry aloud* trains voice and ear.
6. *To spend too much time in studies* is sloth.

EXERCISE 19.— *In the following sentences, point out the subject nouns, pronouns, phrases, and clauses:*

1. Long among them waited a maiden.
2. I stood on the bridge at midnight.
3. Their history is written on tablets of stone.
4. To make others happy should be our chief delight.
5. That the earth is round has been proved.
6. You should view fair Melrose by moonlight.
7. Listening to sweet music brings rest to the weary mind.
8. Whatever hath been written shall remain.
9. Charity suffereth long and is kind, is the law of love.
10. To love poetry is the mark of a refined mind.

THE COMPLEMENT OF A VERB

If we should construct a variety of sentences by joining subjects to suitable verbs, it would soon appear that verbs differ in two important respects. We should find that,

1. Some verbs are capable of forming the predicate of a sentence without the aid of any other word. Such are called **verbs of complete predication**.

The boy { *runs.*
walks.
thinks.

The bird { *sings*
flies.
eats.

2. Some verbs are incapable of forming a complete predicate without the aid of one or more additional words. Such are called **verbs of incomplete predication**. That which is added to the verb to fill out its meaning is called its **complement**, — a word meaning *that which fills or completes*.

The dog { *caught the fox.*
bit the boy.
scared the burglar.

The man { *is a gentleman.*
seems sick.
looks tired.

Verbs of incomplete predication are of two kinds.

1. Verbs whose complement is either an *adjective* modifying the subject, or a *noun* or *pronoun* denoting the same person or thing as the subject.

We are tired. They were late. I feel bad. It was I. Maud and Kate were teachers. He became President.

An adjective so used is called the **predicate adjective**.

The noun or pronoun that completes the predicate in the way explained above is called the **predicate noun** or **predicate pronoun**.

Predicate adjectives, nouns, and pronouns are called **predicate complements**.

2. Verbs whose complement is a noun or a pronoun denoting that which receives the action expressed by the verb.

He sawed wood. We caught fish. The sun lights the earth. The storm wrecked a steamer. We assisted him.

A noun or pronoun used in this manner is called the **object** of the verb. The noun or pronoun taken without any modifiers is called the **object noun** or the **object pronoun**.

EXERCISE 20. — *In the following sentences the complements are printed in italics. Tell of each complement whether it is a predicate complement or an object.*

1. The water tastes *warm*.
2. Be not *weary* in well-doing.
3. The milk turned *sour*.
4. A rolling stone gathers no *moss*.
5. Kind words butter no *parsnips*.
6. Consider the *lilies*.
7. Who became *king* of the country?
8. The minstrel was *infirm*.
9. The dog went *mad*.
10. All men are possible *heroes*.

Some verbs are followed by two objects — a **direct object** and an **indirect object**.

I gave him the book.

She asked me a question.

In the foregoing sentences *book* and *question* are direct objects, while *him* and *me* are indirect objects.

Some objects are incomplete in themselves. They are completed by what is called the **supplement**; as, *He made the door fast*.

In this sentence the adjective *fast* modifies the meaning of the object noun *door*, and at the same time it *supplements* the meaning of the verb by defin-

ing the action performed on the door. The meaning would be about the same if we said, *He fastened the door.*

The following sentences contain supplements of verbs:

He painted the house red.

We called him a genius.

The boys shouted themselves hoarse.

The complement of a verb may be a phrase or a clause.

The walls were of white marble. The teacher said that the earth is round. They explained how the accident happened.

EXERCISE 21. — *In the following sentences the complements are printed in italics. Tell whether they are objects (direct or indirect) or predicate complements, and distinguish between phrases and clauses.*

1. We wondered *whether the saltiness of the sea was not Lot's wife in solution.*
2. My wish is *that you may be happy.*
3. Try to correct *your own errors.*
4. To live in hearts we leave behind is *not to die.*
5. I know not *where His islands lift
Their fronded palms in air.*
6. Give *the man his due.*
7. Tell me not in mournful numbers,
Life is but an empty dream.

EXERCISE 22. — *In the following sentences, point out*

1. *The subject and predicate.*
2. *The predicate nouns and predicate adjectives.*

3. *All objects of verbs.*

4. *All clauses used as subject, predicate complement, or object.*

1. I hear the shouts of the schoolboys.
2. The old orchard gave forth the first faint scent of the apple blooms.
3. Two birds sang a sweet duet.
4. Fame is the fragrance of heroic deeds.
5. The soldier lay lifeless.
6. We heard the bleating of the flock.
7. Men will judge us by the company we keep.
8. The laws of Nature are pitiless.
9. God sent His singers upon earth
With songs of sadness and of mirth.
10. Washington is the Father of his Country.
11. King Alfred was a sublime character.
12. I wish that I could paint a landscape.
13. Windsor Castle was the residence of Queen Victoria.
14. Hiawatha learned the names of many birds.
15. Straws show which way the wind blows.
16. We believed that the ring was stolen.
17. I remember how my childhood fled by.
18. The sailor thought he saw a light.
19. History teaches that the Civil War was a critical event in the existence of this nation.
20. The patriot's words were, "Give me liberty or give me death."

ADJECTIVE MODIFIERS

We have seen that an adjective joined to a noun to describe or limit its meaning is called a *modifier*. It has also been explained that precisely the same work done in a sentence by an adjective may be done by two

or more words taken together and used as the equivalent of an adjective.

Honest boys, boys of honesty, boys that are honest.

Blue-eyed girl, girl with blue eyes, girl who has blue eyes.

The expressions in full-faced type are all *adjective modifiers*.

Adjective modifiers are, therefore, of three kinds with respect to *form*.

1. A word.

Red roses, pine trees, three days, silk hat, large apples.

2. A **phrase**. Any modifier that consists of several words is called a *phrase modifier*, provided it contains *no word that asserts*. The most important phrase modifiers are those that begin with a preposition and end with a noun or a pronoun. These are called *prepositional phrases*. If used to modify the meaning of a noun or a pronoun, they are *prepositional adjective phrases*.

*The girl **with golden hair** is my sister.*

*She wore a dress **of many colors**.*

The boy { ***with his father.***
in the boat.
on the horse.
by the road.
under the bridge.

The grapes { ***at the market.***
for him.
along the fence.
upon the vine.
against the wall.

3. A clause.

*I know a girl **who has blue eyes**.*

Here the noun *girl* is modified by *who has blue eyes*. This modifier contains the verb *has*, and in this respect differs from the phrase, which contains no asserting word. A modifier in this form is called a *clause*. (See p. 45.)

The house that Jack built stands in a region where rain never falls.

The nouns *house* and *region* are modified by the adjective clauses *that Jack built*, and *where rain never falls*, respectively.

EXERCISE 23. — *Tell whether the adjective modifiers italicized in the following sentences are phrases or clauses, and tell what words they modify.*

1. The place *whereon you stand* is holy ground.
2. Uneasy lies the head *that wears a crown*.
3. The part *which she liked best* was the last story.
4. One touch *of nature* makes the whole world kin.
5. Borrowing dulls the edge *of husbandry*.
6. Thy wish was father *to that thought*.
7. Men are but children *of a larger growth*.
8. Ring out false pride *in place and blood*.
9. No tears

Dim the sweet look *that Nature wears*.

EXERCISE 24. — *Point out all the adjective modifiers, and tell what words they modify. Tell also which are phrases and which clauses.*

1. A gentleman of great learning addressed the pupils of the first class.
2. The travelers visited the house in which Shakespeare lived.

3. Children that live in the country welcome the birds of early spring.
4. Pennsylvania contains many varieties of forest trees.
5. The book that I loaned you has not been returned.
6. The lady who visited us wore diamonds of remarkable brilliance.
7. The people that come late must take the back seats.
8. The man from whom we buy provisions is a dealer in fine goods.
9. The gardener plucked large bunches of luscious purple grapes.
10. The children of the slaves sang the songs of David.
11. He that would thrive must see the white sparrow.
12. I remember the rock where the cataract fell.
13. Cromwell defeated the army of the king.
14. The sweetest music that a mother hears is the prattle of her little children.
15. The moon, that once was round and full,
Is now a silver boat.
16. The roses that adorned the garden are now withered and dead.
17. Bright flowers deck the meadow where the cattle graze.
18. I heard from the boughs the sweet notes of a nightingale.
19. The factory where the brothers worked was burned.
20. I know a bank whereon the wild thyme blows.

ADVERBIAL MODIFIERS

If a *word* is used to modify the meaning of a *verb*, an *adjective*, or an *adverb*, we know the word to be an *adverb*. A *phrase* used for the same purpose becomes an **adverbial phrase**, and a clause so used becomes an **adverbial clause**.

The boy walked { *into the yard.*
over the hill.
through the woods.

The foregoing phrases modify the verb *walked*, and are, therefore, *adverbial phrases*.

We left the city { *as the night came.*
when we had finished our work.
before the ship sailed.

The verb *left* is modified by the clauses on the right, which are *adverbial clauses*.

A phrase or a clause may itself be modified by an adverb.

Nearly across the ocean.
Exactly where Columbus landed.
Just before the battle.

EXERCISE 25. — *Tell whether the adverbial modifiers italicized in the following sentences are phrases or clauses, and tell what words they modify.*

1. *From some unreclaimed common near by* comes the first strain of the song sparrow.
2. The cattle look wistfully *into the distance*.
3. The high-hole calls precisely *as I have heard him in the North*.
4. *After a pause* he repeats his summons.
5. The crows caw *above the wood*, or walk *about the brown fields*.
6. *If the weather continues warm*, a single day will work wonders.

EXERCISE 26. — *Tell which modifiers are adverbs, which are adverbial phrases, and which are adverbial clauses. Tell also the words modified.*

1. I will come when I have finished my lesson.
2. Smooth is the water where the brook is deep.
3. He had a fever when he was in Spain.
4. Some must watch while some must sleep.
5. We stood upon the ragged rocks
When the long day was nearly done.
6. When the shadows of evening fall, the sunbeams fly away.
7. Far above the organ's swell rang out a childish voice.
8. The little birds chirped as they opened their drowsy eyes.
9. The swan sings before it dies.
10. The sun rises in the east and sets in the west.
11. My heart leaps up when I behold
A rainbow in the sky.
12. Make hay while the sun shines.
13. An honest man speaks as he thinks.
14. We walked along the path toward the station.
15. With a quick motion, the deer lifted his head a little,
and turned his ear to the south.

EXERCISE 27. — *Tell which modifiers are adjective and which are adverbial. Tell also the words modified.*

When the wolf in sheep's clothing heard the bellow of the ass in the lion's skin, he ran away as fast as his disguise would let him run. When the ox heard the noise, he dashed around the meadow ditch and squashed the frog who had been abusing him. When the crow saw the people with guns, he instantly dropped the cheese out of his mouth and took to wing. When the fox saw the cheese, he immediately made a jump at it and fell into a steel trap, which snapped off his tail.

INDEPENDENT ELEMENTS

We have learned that there is a class of words called interjections which have no grammatical relation to

the other words of a sentence. The interjection constitutes an *independent element* of the sentence.

Independent elements are parts of sentences that have no grammatical relation to other words in the sentence. They may be classified as follows:

1. Interjections. (See p. 26.)
2. A noun used to name the person or thing addressed.

Friends, Romans, countrymen, lend me your ears.

3. An adverb or a conjunction used to connect a sentence with a preceding sentence.

The messenger, however, was not sincere.

4. Phrases used independently.

To say the least, his conduct is extraordinary.

5. Clauses used independently.

The window is the frame, as it were, of the picture.

REVIEW OF PHRASES AND CLAUSES

DEFINITION.—A phrase is a group of words not containing a subject and a predicate, which performs the office of a single part of speech in a sentence.

ADJECTIVE PHRASE. *The book of poems was lost.*

ADVERBIAL PHRASE. *We started in the morning.*

NOUN PHRASE. *To see is to believe.*

INDEPENDENT PHRASE. *To speak plainly, you are mistaken.*

DEFINITION.—A clause is a member of a sentence containing a subject and a predicate.

Clauses are divided into **independent** clauses and **subordinate** clauses. Independent clauses will be treated under the head of *compound* sentences, p. 63.

DEFINITION. — A **subordinate clause** is a clause that performs the office of an adjective, an adverb, or a noun.

DEFINITION. — An **adjective clause** is a clause that is used like an adjective to modify a noun or a pronoun ; as,

Did you see the tree *that was blasted*?

DEFINITION. — An **adverbial clause** is a clause that is used like an adverb to modify a verb, an adjective, or another adverb.

Adverbial clauses may express various relations, of which the following are the most important:

1. Place ; as, *Wherever he went, he was welcome.*
2. Time ; as, *While you were speaking, he left the room.*
3. Manner ; as, *We solve these problems as we have been instructed.*
4. Degree ; as, *The house is not so large as we thought it was.*

Such clauses are generally used to modify the meanings of adjectives and adverbs.

Adverbial clauses of degree are often elliptical : *There is nothing so kingly as kindness* (is kingly). *He is working harder than ever* (he worked).

Great care must be observed in the construction of sentences in which *than* or *as* is used as a term of comparison. We may say, *She loves him more than I*, *She loves him more than me*; but the first means *She loves him more than I love him*; and the second, *She loves him more than she loves me*.

As requires a correspondence, term for term, in the two clauses which it serves to unite: *He is not so tall as I* (am tall), not *He is not so tall as me*. Where both *than* and *as* [or *so*] are necessary to the comparison, neither of them should be omitted. *He is wiser but not so old as his brother*, should be, *He is wiser than his brother, but not so old*.

5. Cause; as, *Because he was ambitious, I slew him*.

6. Consequence; as, *He had run so fast, that he was out of breath*.

A clause of consequence is often introduced by *so that*.

7. Purpose; as, *He studies that he may become a scholar*.

8. Condition; as, *If he were within call, I should send him to the city*.

9. Concession; as, *Though we are beaten, we have not lost our honor*.

DEFINITION. — A noun clause is a clause that performs the office of a noun.

A noun clause may be used:

1. As the subject of a sentence: *That he is honest appears evident. Where he is buried has never been discovered*.

2. As the object of a verb or of a preposition: *I saw that he was at home. We do not know where he is hiding. He does not know what we are doing. He was earnest in what he undertook*.

3. As a predicate complement: *Things are not what they seem*.

4. In apposition: *The fact that he was there was soon known. We had a hope that he might come*. (See p. 219.)

The conjunction *that* introducing a noun clause is sometimes omitted: *I know you are to blame* = *I know that you are to blame*.

Frequently a noun clause is the real subject of a verb, when it is temporarily represented by the pronoun *it*; as, *It is evident that the Governor should sign the bill*. In such cases the clause is *in apposition* with the pronoun. (See p. 219.)

In the sentence, *I do not doubt but that he will succeed*, the *but* is unnecessary, and its use is improper.

In the sentence, *The train would have arrived on time, but that it met with an accident*, the noun clause *that it met with an accident* is the object of the preposition *but*, and the clause and preposition together form an adverbial modifier of the verb *would have arrived*.

A short quotation, containing a subject and a predicate, when dependent upon a verb, may generally be regarded as a noun clause; as, *He said, "I am tired."* If, however, the quotation contains several sentences, each should be analyzed independently.

EXERCISE 28. — *Point out all the noun clauses in the following selections and give the office of each :*

1. I dreamed that Greece might still be free. — *Byron*.
2. I beg leave to say that I have not the least belief in the Noble Savage.
3. That human hearts are good in the main, is a true statement.
4. Write it on your heart that every day is the best day in the year. — *Emerson*.
5. I believe with the Persians that ten measures of talk were sent down from heaven, and that the ladies took nine.
6. Polonius's advice to his son was this: "Beware of entrance to a quarrel."
7. That imitation is the sincerest flattery, has generally been acknowledged.
8. The important question is, what sciences ought to be taught in our schools?
9. We heard that it was better to visit the ruins by moonlight.
10. It is a strange thing how little people in general know about the sky. — *Ruskin*.

11. What can they see in the longest kingly line in Europe, save that it runs back to a successful soldier? — *Scott*.

12. Dr. Watts's statement that birds in their little nests agree, like too many others intended to form the infant mind, is very far from being true. — *Lowell*.

13. It would seem to have been especially ordered by Providence, that the discovery of the two great divisions of the American hemisphere should fall to the two races best fitted to conquer and colonize them. — *Prescott*.

14. It has been estimated that the quantity of heat discharged over the Atlantic from the waters of the Gulf Stream, on a winter's day, would be sufficient to raise the column of the atmosphere that rests upon France and the British Isles from the freezing point to summer heat. — *Maury*.

EXERCISE 29. — *Give the office of each italicized phrase and clause in the following sentences :*

1. *When you are at school in the city* you are furnishing your brain with *what can be obtained from books*. *While you are in the country* you should remember *that you are in the great school of the senses*. *Learn to know all the trees by their bark and leaves*. *Learn also to know all the birds by sight*.

2. Yesterday my brother and I *drove through the deep woods*. *As we followed the track of the woodcutters who are making such carnage among the magnificent pines*, we saw a wonderful crimson bird. *Near an open space where the lumber was piled* he alighted *for a moment*. He was *larger than a robin*. We both thought *his beak was roundish and blunt*. *If you can*, do tell us his name.

Classified according to structure, the elements of a sentence are **words, phrases, and clauses**.

Classified according to office, the elements of a sentence are as follows:

- | | | | |
|-----|-------------------------|---|---|
| (a) | IN ALL
SENTENCES | { | 1. Subject. |
| | | | 2. Predicate. |
| | • | | 3. Complements { Predicate.
of the verb. { Object. |
| | | | 4. Supplements of the verb. |
| (b) | NOT IN ALL
SENTENCES | { | 5. Adjective modifiers. |
| | | | 6. Adverbial modifiers. |
| | | | 7. Independent elements. |
| | | | 8. Connectives. |

IV. CLASSIFICATION OF SENTENCES

ANALYSIS AND SYNTHESIS

There are two methods by which one might make himself acquainted with anything made up of related parts; as, for example, a watch.

He might take the watch apart, piece by piece, and while doing so study the details of its structure and the relation of its parts one to another. An operation like this, which begins with the whole and descends to the parts that compose the whole, is called **analysis**. The word means *a taking apart or separating*.

Or he might begin with the parts, and, after some experiment and study, get an excellent knowledge of the watch by putting its parts properly together. An operation of this kind is called **synthesis**, which means *a putting together*.

These two methods are the reverse of each other, and both are applicable to the study of the sentence. Both enable us to understand how words are related to one another and to the whole sentence.

DEFINITION. — **Analysis** in grammar is the process of separating a sentence into parts, according to their use.

DEFINITION.—**Synthesis** in grammar is the process of constructing sentences whose parts are given, their use being known or stated.

SYNTHESIS OF SENTENCES

We have already seen that, when considered with respect to the use that is made of them, sentences are of three kinds: *declarative*, when used to make a statement; *interrogative*, when used to ask a question; *imperative*, when used to express a command or entreaty.

But sentences may be classified with reference to their **structure**; that is, with reference to their parts or elements.

Sentences have great variety of structure, but they may all be divided into three great classes: the **simple sentence**, the **complex sentence**, and the **compound sentence**.

THE SIMPLE SENTENCE

The simplest form a sentence can have is that in which a subject noun or pronoun is joined to a suitable verb, or to a verb and its object, so as to form a statement, a question, or a command.

Birds fly.

I have read books.

Dogs bark.

Mary likes apples.

Such sentences may be lengthened by the addition of modifiers; but so long as these modifiers are *words* or *phrases*, and not *clauses*, the sentences are still simple sentences.

The big dog in Mr. Smith's yard barks at strangers.

I have read with much pleasure the book of poems.

EXERCISE 30. — *As in the model, lengthen the following sentences by properly adding to them the given modifiers :*

SENTENCE WORD MODIFIERS PHRASE MODIFIERS

1. *Birds fly* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{many} \\ \text{wonderful} \\ \text{everywhere} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{among the stately trees} \\ \text{in South America} \\ \text{along the Amazon River} \end{array} \right\}$

Along the Amazon River, in South America, many wonderful birds fly everywhere among the stately trees.

2. *Flowers bloom* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{the, often} \\ \text{sweetest} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{of the forest} \\ \text{in the loneliest nooks} \end{array} \right\}$

3. *Girl sat* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{very} \\ \text{silent} \\ \text{the} \\ \text{little} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{in a pretty crimson chair} \\ \text{near the window} \end{array} \right\}$

4. *Children skated* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{many} \\ \text{happy} \\ \text{swiftly} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{over the clear ice} \\ \text{near the village} \end{array} \right\}$

5. *Sled shot* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{the} \\ \text{new} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{on the steel runners} \\ \text{down the hill} \\ \text{with great speed} \end{array} \right\}$

6. *Parents tracked footsteps* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{the} \\ \text{frantic} \\ \text{the} \\ \text{small} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{of the lost child} \\ \text{across an open field} \\ \text{into the forest} \end{array} \right\}$

7. *General must be* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{a} \\ \text{trusty} \\ \text{faithful} \\ \text{and dutiful} \end{array} \right\}$ $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{of an army} \end{array} \right\}$

8. *Maid gave flowers* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} a \\ \text{little} \\ \text{the} \\ \text{beautiful} \end{array} \right\}$ *with downcast eyes
to the teacher*
9. *Sparrow makes home* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{the} \\ \text{small} \\ \text{brown} \\ \text{English} \\ \text{readily} \\ \text{its} \end{array} \right\}$ *in the trees
of our streets*
10. *Nest swings* $\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{the} \\ \text{snow-filled} \\ \text{lonely} \\ \text{drearily} \end{array} \right\}$ *upon the leafless tree*

By means of conjunctions, two or more simple sentences may often be contracted, or shortened, into one simple sentence that has,

1. A **compound subject**. In making such contractions, changes in the forms of some of the words are often necessary.

Leah went to the seaside.
Leah's mother went to the seaside. } =
Leah and her mother went to the seaside.

2. A **compound object**.

The child gathered shells along the seashore.
The child gathered pebbles along the seashore. } =
*The child gathered **shells** and **pebbles** along the seashore.*

3. A **compound predicate**.

The sun lights the earth.
The sun warms the earth. } =
*The sun **lights** and **warms** the earth.*

4. Two or more of the foregoing elements compound.

<i>Mary gathered violets.</i>	<i>Mary gathered buttercups.</i>	} =
<i>Mary pressed violets.</i>	<i>Mary pressed buttercups.</i>	
<i>Lily gathered violets.</i>	<i>Lily gathered buttercups.</i>	
<i>Lily pressed violets.</i>	<i>Lily pressed buttercups.</i>	
<i>Mary and Lily gathered and pressed violets and buttercups.</i>		

5. Any other compound elements.

<i>The teacher spoke firmly.</i>	} =
<i>The teacher spoke pleasantly.</i>	
<i>The teacher spoke firmly but pleasantly.</i>	
<i>Henry was respectful to his teacher.</i>	} =
<i>Henry was obedient to his parents.</i>	
<i>Henry was respectful to his teacher and obedient to his parents.</i>	

A simple sentence that is formed by the synthesis of two or more simple sentences contains such conjunctions as *and*, *but*, *as well as*, *either — or*, *neither — nor*, *both — and*, etc.

*Night is pleasant **as well as** day.*

*Life is short **but** very precious.*

***Both** his money **and** his good name are lost.*

***Neither** his father **nor** his mother was living.*

DEFINITION. — A **simple sentence** is a sentence containing one subject and one predicate, either of which may be compound.

NOTE. — Great care should be taken that, when a sentence is written, the proper marks of punctuation are inserted. For the rules governing punctuation, see pages 243–250.

EXERCISE 31. — *Contract each set of sentences into one simple sentence:*

1. Fine roses are found in Japan.
Fine roses are found in China.
Many beautiful lilies are found in Japan.
Many beautiful lilies are found in China.
2. The high wind blew down trees.
The high wind carried away fences.
The high wind did much damage to property.
3. No sound was heard during the long night.
The barking of the dogs was heard during the long night.
4. The city of Vancouver has only six thousand inhabitants.
The city of Vancouver has much traffic.
The city of Vancouver has much wealth.
5. The buttercup comes early in the spring.
The buttercup stays late in the fall.
The daisy comes early in the spring.
The daisy stays late in the fall.
6. He spoke of the grass.
He spoke of the flowers.
He spoke of the trees.
He spoke of the singing birds.
He spoke of the humming bees.
7. John is a citizen of New York State.
I am a citizen of New York State.
8. I care not much for gold.
I care not much for land.
9. Her cheek was glowing fresh.
Her cheek was glowing fair.
Her cheek was glowing with the breath of morn.
Her cheek was glowing with the soft sea air.
10. Pride goeth forth on horseback, grand and gay.
Pride cometh back on foot.
Pride begs its way.

Analysis of the Simple Sentence

EXERCISE 32.—*In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, and name each part of speech. Observe that in this scheme of analysis one line is drawn under the subject, and two lines under the predicate.*

Mary and I recited a long dialogue before the school.

(A simple declarative sentence)

SUBJECT WORDS	{ <i>Mary</i>	noun.
	{ <i>I</i>	pronoun.
CONNECTIVE	<i>and</i>	conjunction.
VERB	<i>recited</i>	
OBJECT WORD	<i>dialogue</i>	noun.
MODIFIER OF VERB	<i>before the school</i>	adverbial phrase.
MODIFIERS OF OBJECT WORD	{ <i>a</i>	adjective.
	{ <i>long</i>	adjective.

1. The bright flowers of the morning-glory climbed over the garden wall.
2. The tassels on the maple trees sway softly in the breeze.
3. A tall lady with dark eyes stood before an ancient mirror.
4. The harvest moon looked pleasantly down through the great elm boughs.
5. The wise and strong should seek the welfare of the weak.
6. He put spurs to his horse and galloped away.
7. I have lived by the seashore and by the mountains.
8. The billows rolled and plunged upon the sand.
9. The editor read the poem and published it.
10. Paris is built on both sides of the Seine.

11. Fierce winds often sweep over the desert and fill the air with sand.
12. The stars and the moon watched over the lost babes.
13. A white dove fluttered gently down to the little maid.
14. Cool ferns and soft mosses grow abundantly in the ravine.
15. The thirsty horses and cattle drank freely of the pure water.
16. A pretty child swung slowly in a hammock and sang a little song.
17. Madge arose, rubbed the frosted pane, and stared into the starry night.
18. The lost dog wandered about the streets and watched for its master.
19. A soldier's widow and her only child lived in a little hut near the village.
20. We heard the moaning of the wind and the patter of the rain.
21. The deer shrink northward from the settler's fire.
22. There I lingered all October through
In that sweet atmosphere of hazy blue.

THE COMPLEX SENTENCE

We have seen that a simple sentence is a sentence containing but one subject and one predicate. We can now see that a sentence containing a subordinate clause can not be a simple sentence; for the subordinate clause must contain a subject and a predicate, and the subordinate clause always forms a part of another clause.

The birds returned when spring came.

In this sentence, *The birds returned* is called the leading or principal clause; and *when spring came*,

being a mere modifier of the verb *returned*, is a dependent or subordinate clause. The sentence is said to be **complex**.

*We visited the house **where Columbus was born**.*

In this complex sentence the principal clause is *We visited the house*. The subordinate clause *where Columbus was born* is a modifier of the noun *house*.

Sometimes a subordinate clause forms not a mere modifier but an essential element of another clause.

***What he said** amused the children.*

*I can not say **when I shall return**.*

*His words were, "**Let us have peace**."*

In the first sentence the subordinate clause is the subject of the principal clause; in the second, it is the object; in the third, it is the predicate complement. Of all three sentences we may say that the whole sentence is the principal clause.

A complex sentence may consist of a principal clause and two or more subordinate clauses.

When I see you again, I will tell you what I know about the matter.

DEFINITION. — A **complex sentence** is a sentence that contains one principal clause and one or more subordinate clauses.

The connectives most commonly used to join an adjective clause to a noun or a pronoun are the pronouns *who*, *whose*, *whom*, *which*, *that*, and the conjunctions *where* and *when*.

The connectives most commonly used to join an adverbial clause to a verb or an adjective are the conjunctions *where*, *when*, *while*. The conjunction *that* is often used to introduce noun clauses; also *where* and *when*.

EXERCISE 33. — *By means of suitable connectives form a complex sentence out of each set of simple sentences, making necessary contractions :*

1. A rolling stone gathers no moss.
It is important to remember this.
2. The moon is bright.
The sun lights its face.
3. The teacher detained her pupils.
They had failed in their lessons.
They had been disorderly.
4. We sat on the shore at the seaside.
The sun sank below the hills.
The stars began to shine brightly.
5. A boy became the Lord Mayor of London.
The boy was called Dick Whittington.
6. The farmer carefully locked the stable door.
His horse had already been stolen.
He valued the horse very highly.
7. Harry's mother gave him a beautiful pony.
Harry was ten years old.
The pony came from Texas.
8. The whale is not really a fish.
It is eagerly hunted in the Arctic Ocean.
Its body yields oil and whalebone.

9. Tennyson lived on the Isle of Wight.
He wrote the beautiful "Idylls of the King."
He wrote them many years ago.
10. We see the lightning.
We hear the thunder.
We may expect rain.
11. The fleeing troops of Sheridan rallied at Winchester.
He had ridden twenty miles to join them.
12. Whittier saw many things in nature.
Other people could not see them.
He was a poet.
13. George Washington was the first President of the
United States.
He was inaugurated April 30, 1789.
14. Benjamin Franklin discovered electricity.
Benjamin Franklin invented the lightning-rod.
Benjamin Franklin was a statesman.
Benjamin Franklin was a patriot.

Analysis of the Complex Sentence

EXERCISE 34. — *In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, and name each element :*

An observant country boy always knows where the robin builds its nest.

(A complex declarative sentence)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>boy</i>	noun
VERB	<i>knows</i>	
OBJECT . . .	<i>where the robin builds its nest</i>	noun clause
MODIFIERS OF	{ <i>an</i>	adjective
SUBJECT WORD	{ <i>observant</i>	adjective
	{ <i>country</i>	adjective

(Noun clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>robin</i>	noun
VERB	<i>builds</i>	
OBJECT WORD.	<i>nest</i>	noun
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>the</i>	adjective
MODIFIER OF OBJECT WORD	<i>its</i>	pronoun
CONNECTIVE	<i>where</i>	conjunction

1. He who cries about spilled milk mourns unwisely.
2. China has many high mountains whose tops are almost always covered with snow.
3. The ermine lives wherever it can find a snug hiding-place.
4. I dozed and dreamed until the dawn flushed through the waning moonlight.
5. The children sat by the window that opened on the veranda.
6. The child that was most loved died soonest.
7. I stood on the bridge at midnight,
As the clocks were striking the hour.
8. Jack and Jill lived in a little house that stood at the foot of the hill.
9. Character carries with it an influence that commands the confidence and respect of mankind.
10. The young moon hung in the purple west,
When the sun had gone to rest.
11. I admire a boy who has manliness and courage.
12. We stood upon the ragged rocks,
When the long day was nearly done.
13. The bark that is vainly tossed by the tempest may founder in the calm.
14. Winter dies when the violets awake.
15. He who laughs at crooked men should walk very straight.
16. New knowledge that we discover for ourselves always gives pleasure.

17. Roses were blooming in the gardens of the old Southern houses that stood along the bay.

18. The swimmer bravely breasted the waves, which every moment threatened his destruction.

THE COMPOUND SENTENCE

We have learned that clauses are divided into *independent* and *subordinate* clauses. An independent clause has no dependence upon any other part of the sentence, although it is related to the rest of the sentence in meaning.

Two or more independent clauses, generally connected by a conjunction. (see p. 23), may be found in a sentence. Such a sentence is called a **compound sentence**.

Art is long and time is fleeting.

The sun had set, but the moon was shining brightly.

Either he himself committed the crime, or he knows who the culprits are.

A compound sentence must have at least two independent clauses. Any one of these clauses may contain a subordinate clause.

*When the tide turns **the anchor will be raised and the vessel will take its departure.***

DEFINITION. — A **compound sentence** is a sentence containing two or more independent clauses.

EXERCISE 35. — *Form compound sentences of the following sets of simple sentences, and tell which clauses are independent and which subordinate:*

1. The rain descended.
The floods came.
The winds blew.
2. The frost killed the leaves.
The rain loosened their hold upon the boughs.
They floated silently to the earth.
The snow covered them with its white mantle.
3. His fevered brow grew cool again.
He breathed a blessing on the rain.
4. It was the month of November.
The sun shone warm and bright.
5. The door was softly opened.
A little girl peeped in.
She quickly ran away again.
6. The night grows dark.
Thick drops patter on the pane.
7. The men could not go sailing.
A storm had arisen.
8. A soft answer turneth away wrath.
Grievous words stir up anger.
9. Master books.
Do not let books master you.
10. The cork tree grows to a height of forty feet.
Its trunk is from two to three feet in diameter.
11. There was a strange look in his eyes.
He was very merry.
12. Conceit may puff a man up.
It will never prop him up.

Analysis of the Compound Sentence

EXERCISE 36.—*In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, and name each element:*

The commanders arranged their men, and the battle began immediately.

(A compound declarative sentence)

(First independent clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>commanders</i>	noun
VERB	<i>arranged</i>	
OBJECT WORD	<i>men</i>	noun
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>the</i>	adjective
MODIFIER OF OBJECT WORD	<i>their</i>	pronoun

(Second independent clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>battle</i>	noun
VERB	<i>began</i>	
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>the</i>	adjective
MODIFIER OF VERB	<i>immediately</i>	adverb
CONNECTIVE	<i>and</i>	conjunction

1. The child nestled in the corner, and the wind blew the rain away from her.

2. The cattle are quietly feeding in the pastures, and the people are resting in their pleasant homes.

3. The mountain slopes of Switzerland are covered with vineyards, and pleasant villages fill the valleys.

4. Men may come and men may go,
But I go on forever.

5. I love my wife, I love my friend,
I love my children three.

6. Now the lost has found a home,
And a lone hearth shall brighter burn.
7. We enjoyed our walk, although the rain fell fast.
8. The wind was blowing over the moors,
But the sun shone bright upon the heather.
9. The storm had cleared the air, and a heavenly calm
had followed.
10. A torn jacket is soon mended ; but hard words bruise
the heart of a child.
11. No animals are commoner than spiders ; we find them
everywhere.
12. Corn will grow and cherries will ripen when the south
wind begins to blow.
13. Mount thy good steed, and thou and I
Will meet him on his way.
14. Fair Science frowned not on his humble birth,
And melancholy marked him for her own.
15. Cease to do evil ; learn to do well.

V. ETYMOLOGY

Etymology treats of the classification, inflection, and formation of words.

For a brief treatment of the formation of words, see pages 284-305.

According to their use in the sentence, all the words in our language are arranged in eight classes, called *parts of speech*. These are,

- | | |
|-------------------|----------------------|
| 1. The noun. | 5. The adverb. |
| 2. The pronoun. | 6. The preposition. |
| 3. The adjective. | 7. The conjunction. |
| 4. The verb. | 8. The interjection. |

THE NOUN

DEFINITION.—A **noun** is a word used as the name of something: *Washington, Charles; horse, tree; committee, assembly; happiness, truth.*

CLASSES OF NOUNS

In the sentence, *The Hudson is a large river*, two words, *Hudson* and *river*, are names of the same object, and, both being names, they are *nouns*. But there is a difference in their meaning. The name *river* is a term that is applied to any body of water answering a certain description. The name *Hudson*,

on the other hand, is given to a single river to distinguish it from all other bodies of water of the same kind. It belongs to one particular river.

The names *Hudson* and *river* are examples of the two chief classes into which nouns are divided. These classes are: **proper nouns** and **common nouns**.

DEFINITION. — A **proper noun** is a name that belongs only to some particular person, place, or thing; as, *Hudson, John, Tuesday*.

The word *proper* is derived from the Latin *proprius*, meaning *one's own*.

The same proper name is sometimes given to more than one individual of a class. Thus, there are many *Johns, Marys*, etc.; several towns are called *Washington*; there is a *Boston* in America and a *Boston* in England. These names are, however, strictly proper nouns, because they were separately given, and are used to distinguish individuals, and not classes.

Occasionally, proper nouns are used to denote a class or group; as, *the Cæsars, the Adamses*, meaning all who belong to certain families. Again, the name of some distinguished man is sometimes applied to another who is supposed to possess similar qualities; as, *a modern Solon*, meaning a statesman resembling the Greek lawgiver; *a young Napoleon, a Daniel come to judgment*. In such cases the proper noun is said to be used as a common noun.

DEFINITION. — A **common noun** is a noun that is used as the name of a class of things; as, *river, boy, day, height*.

There are some nouns that denote groups of

objects. We speak, for instance, of a *family* (meaning *father, mother, brothers, sisters*, etc.), of a *herd* of cattle, a *bevy* of young ladies, a *crowd* of people, a *brood* of chickens, a *bunch* of grapes, a *row* of houses. In all these cases the names denote classes. But the unit of thought — that about which the mind is thinking — is not a single object, but a group of objects. A name that denotes a group is called a **collective noun**.

DEFINITION. — A **collective noun** is a noun that denotes a group or a class made up of objects or of groups of objects ; as, *army, audience, family*.

We may think or speak, not of the *person* John, but of some quality of his body, as, *height, weight* ; of some quality of his character, as, *honesty, folly, goodness* ; or of some power of his mind, as, *memory, imagination*. The name of a quality, feeling, action, etc., thought of as separated or *abstracted* from the object to which it belongs, is called an **abstract noun**.

DEFINITION. — An **abstract noun** is a noun that denotes a class of qualities, feelings, faculties, or actions ; as, *whiteness, joy, memory, punishment*.

As the adjective is the part of speech that expresses quality, most abstract nouns are formed from adjectives, and denote the qualities when considered apart from the persons or things to which they belong ; as, *good, goodness ; wise, wisdom*.

Many abstract nouns are formed by the addition of the suffix *ness*; as, *bright, brightness; righteous, righteousness; black, blackness.*

Some end in *th*; as, *true, truth; wide, width; dead, death.*

Others end in *ty*; as, *noble, nobility; curious, curiosity; honest, honesty.*

Others, again, take the termination *ce*; as, *prudent, prudence; patient, patience; reverent, reverence.*

Abstract nouns denoting actions considered apart from the actors are formed from verbs; as, *serve, service; choose, choice.*

Many abstract nouns formed from verbs end in *tion*; as, *protect, protection; move, motion; reflect, reflection.*

Other examples are *relief, advice, pleasure.*

Abstract nouns are also formed from common nouns; as, *thief, theft; hero, heroism.*

Such derivatives generally mean the state or condition denoted by the nouns from which they are derived.

Many such nouns end in *ship*; as, *friendship*, the condition of being a friend; *leadership*, the condition of being a leader.

Others, again, end in *hood*; as, *manhood*, the condition of being a man; *childhood*, the condition of being a child.

EXERCISE 37.—*For each of the following class names mention two or more individual names of things belonging to the class :*

city	statesman	ship	teacher
lake	hero	cat	pupil
school	heroine	dog	clerk
church	pianist	horse	merchant
river	colonel	boat	doctor

EXERCISE 38. — *Mention two or more words that denote smaller classes of the things denoted by the following names :*

EXAMPLE. — flower : rose, lily, daisy, pink, violet.

tradesman	receptacle	animal	word
implement	plant	bird	coin
mammal	vessel	fruit	measure
conveyance	biped	seed	fowl
industry	liquid	tree	place

EXERCISE 39. — *Analyze the following sentences, and mention the abstract nouns :*

Patience is the guardian of faith, the preserver of peace, the cherisher of love, the teacher of humility. Patience governs the flesh, strengthens the spirit, sweetens the temper, stifles anger, extinguishes envy, subdues pride: she bridles the tongue, restrains the hand, tramples upon temptations, endures persecutions, consummates martyrdom.

Behold her appearance and her attire! Her countenance is calm and serene as the face of heaven; and no wrinkle of grief or anger is seen in her forehead. Her eyes are as the eyes of doves for meekness, and on her eyebrows sit cheerfulness and joy. She is clothed in robes of the martyrs, and in her hand she holds a scepter in the form of a cross. She rides not in the whirlwind and stormy tempest of passion, but her throne is the humble and contrite heart, and her kingdom is the kingdom of peace.

INFLECTIONS OF NOUNS

Nouns may be inflected, or changed in form, to indicate difference in *number*, *gender*, and *case*.

These *properties* belong to both nouns and pronouns.

DEFINITION. — **Number** is that form or use of a word which denotes one or more than one. *Hat, hats ; fox, foxes ; mouse, mice.*

There are two numbers in English grammar ; one to express one thing, another to express more than one.

DEFINITION. — The **singular** number of a noun is that form or use of it which denotes *one*.

DEFINITION. — The **plural** number of a noun is that form or use of it which denotes *more than one*.

RULE. — *Most nouns add s or es to the singular to form the plural. Book, books ; lion, lions ; branch, branches.*

When the *s* sound can be added without making an additional syllable, *s* alone is used ; as, *boy, boys ; girl, girls.*

But when the *s* sound makes an additional syllable, *es* is used. This is the case where the singular ends in a hissing sound, such as *s, z, x, sh, and ch* (sounded as in the word *church*) ; as, *hiss, hisses ; adz, adzes ; sash, sashes.*

Custom has made some nouns ending in *o* add *s* to the singular to form the plural, and others *es*.

Some of those which add *s* are the following:

bravo	grotto	solo	folio
canto	octavo	stiletto	nuncio
duodecimo	portico	tyro	oratorio
embryo	quarto	virtuoso	portfolio

Some of those which add *es* are the following:

buffalo	echo	mosquito	potato
calico	flamingo	motto	tomato
cargo	hero	mulatto	tornado
domino	manifesto	negro	volcano

Nouns ending in *y* preceded by a vowel form their plurals in the regular way ; as, *valley*, *valleys*.

But when the singular ends in *y* preceded by a consonant, the *y* is changed into *i* and *es* is added to form the plural ; as, *duty*, *duties* ; *sky*, *skies* ; *spy*, *spies*.

Most nouns ending in *f* or *fe* form their plurals according to the rule, but some change the *f* into *v* and the plural form ends in *ves* ; as, *fifes*, *skiffs*, *cliffs*, *strifes* ; *half*, *halves* ; *shelf*, *shelves*.

A few nouns form their plurals in ways once common in our language, but now little used.

1. By adding *en* ; as,

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>		<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
ox	oxen		brother	brethren
cow	kine		child	children

Oxen is the only word in which the plural termination *en*, once very common, is now preserved in its purity. In the other cases, the words have been gradually modified to their present forms.

2. By changing the vowel sound of the word ; as,

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>		<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
man	men		tooth	teeth
foot	feet		mouse	mice
goose	geese		woman	women

A few nouns have the same form for the singular and the plural; as, *deer, sheep, swine, cod, trout, mackerel*, etc.

Many nouns have been imported into the English language from foreign languages. When these have passed into common use, they form their plurals in the regular way. Examples are *indexes, bandits, cherubs, formulas, memorandums, focuses, terminuses*. But the foreign plurals, *indices, banditti, cherubim, formulæ, memoranda, foci, termini*, are also used.

Others, not used so frequently, retain their foreign plurals. Examples are :

LATIN		GREEK	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
larva	larvæ	automaton	automata
nebula	nebulæ	criterion	criteria
radius	radii	phenomenon	phenomena
dictum	dicta	analysis	analyses
datum	data	thesis	theses
effluvium	effluvia	antithesis	antitheses
erratum	errata	hypothesis	hypotheses
medium	media	basis	bases
stratum	strata	crisis	crises
apex	apices	ellipsis	ellipses
appendix	appendices	miasma	miasmata
index (in algebra)	indices		
vertex	vertices		
vortex	vortices		
axis	axes		
amanuensis	amanuenses		
genus	genera		

FRENCH	
beau	beaux
(Mr.)	Messieurs
(Mrs.)	Mesdames

Messieurs and *Mesdames* are French words adopted into English as the plurals of *Mr.* and *Mrs.*

Some foreign nouns are generally used in the plural ; as, *aborigines*, *literati*.

Some words, plural in form, are usually treated as singular ; as, *means*, *news*, *amends*, *odds*, *tidings*, *wages*, *summons*, *gallows*.

Means, *pains*, and *wages* may be used in the plural. *News* is always singular. *Summons* takes a plural, *summonses*.

Certain nouns ending in *ics*, derived from Greek adjectives, are always used in the singular ; as, *politics*, *ethics*, *physics*, *optics*, *mathematics*.

Logic, similarly derived, omits the *s*.

Some nouns, because they are the names of things found only in pairs, or consisting of more than one part, are used only in the plural. Such are :

scissors	victuals	shears
tongs	entrails	measles
breeches	nuptials	matins
drawers	scales	tweezers
pincers	dregs	trousers

The nouns *riches*, *alms*, and *eaves*, though often treated as plurals, are really singular in form.

Some nouns have two plurals, which differ in meaning ; as,

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Plural</i>
brother	brothers (by birth)	brethren (of a community)
cloth	cloths (kinds of cloth)	clothes (garments)
die	dies (for coining)	dice (for play)
fish	fishes (separate fish)	fish (collective)

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Plural</i>
genius	geniuses (persons of great ability)	genii (spirits)
index	indexes (tables of contents)	indices (in algebra)
pea	peas (regarded separately)	pease (collectively)
penny	pennies (separate coins)	pence (sum of money)
shot	shots (discharges)	shot (balls)

Some nouns have, in the plural, one form and two meanings; as,

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plurals</i>
custom	customs: (1) habits; (2) revenue duties.
letter	letters: (1) of alphabet; (2) literature.
number	numbers: (1) in counting; (2) in poetry.
pain	pains: (1) sufferings; (2) trouble, care.
part	parts: (1) divisions; (2) abilities.

Proper nouns generally form their plurals regularly.

In names of persons, where a descriptive term or a title is prefixed, the name alone adds *s* for the plural; as, *the two Dr. Smiths*.

We may say, however, the *Miss Browns*, or the *Misses Brown*. The first form seems to imply that they are thought of separately; the second, collectively.

We may speak of *Misses Jane and Mary Wheeler* or *Miss Jane and Miss Mary Wheeler*.

If two or more different men are spoken of, we use *Messieurs*, usually written in the contracted form, *Messrs.*; as, *Messrs. Jackson, Dix, and Harmon*.

In enumerating several ladies by their surnames, we write *Mesdames*, if they are married; *Misses*, if they are single.

Abstract nouns have no plural.

Occasionally, however, these nouns are used, not to signify a quality or an action regarded separately, but to denote particular varieties of quality or particular actions. They then become common nouns, and take the plural form. Hence we speak of *liberties, virtues, vices*, etc.

Names of substances or materials, such as *wine, sugar, iron, gold*, are generally used only in the singular.

When used in the plural, as *wines, brandies, sugars*, etc., the words mean different *kinds* of wine, brandy, etc.

Compound nouns generally add the sign of the plural to the principal word. Three cases may be distinguished :

1. Compounds of a noun and a modifying word or phrase add the sign of the plural to the noun ; as, *courts-martial, fathers-in-law, sons-in-law*.

2. When the parts have become so nearly allied in meaning that the meaning is incomplete until the whole is known, the sign of the plural is added at the end ; as, *handfuls, rose-trees, four-per-cents, major-generals, attorney-generals*.

3. A few compounds of two nouns inflect both parts ; as, *men-servants, knights-templars*.

A noun modified by a numeral often omits the sign of the plural ; as, *two brace of birds, a two-foot rule, sixty head of cattle*.

EXERCISE 40. — Give the singular of every plural noun and the plural of every singular noun in the following sentences :

1. Beware of the wolf in sheep's clothing.
2. The cackling of geese saved a city.
3. He who killeth a lion when absent feareth a mouse when present.
4. Children are poor men's riches.
5. The actions of men are the index to their thoughts.
6. Difficulties test your capacity.
7. Words once spoken can not be wiped out with a sponge.

GENDER

Living beings are either of the male sex or of the female sex. Things without life have no distinction of sex — are sexless.

DEFINITION. — **Gender** is that form or use of a word which denotes sex.

To the three classes into which all things are divided with respect to sex, correspond three genders :

<i>Things</i>	<i>Words</i>
Of male sex,	Masculine gender.
Of female sex,	Feminine gender.
Sexless,	Neuter gender.

DEFINITION. — The **masculine gender** is that form or use of a word which denotes the male sex.

DEFINITION. — The **feminine gender** is that form or use of a word which denotes the female sex.

DEFINITION. — The **neuter gender** is that form or use of a word which denotes the absence of sex.

Father, son, king, bull, James, are nouns of the masculine gender.

Mother, daughter, queen, cow, Jane, are nouns of the feminine gender.

Rock, stone, tree, house, Boston, are nouns of the neuter gender.

The names of things whose sex is not taken into account, as of very young children and many animals, are sometimes regarded as of the neuter gender. Thus, we speak of *The babe and its toys; The fish and its eggs.*

Names that may be applied to persons of either sex, as, *parent, friend, servant*; and, in the case of animals, names that do not indicate sex, as, *bird, swan, dove, bear,* etc., are sometimes spoken of as being of **common gender**.

Things without life are often, particularly in poetry, spoken of as being of the male or female sex. They are then said to be *personified*, and their names are regarded, if implying strength, power, or violence, as masculine; if implying gentleness, beauty, or peace, as feminine.

The *sun* is often spoken of as masculine; the *moon*, a *ship*, or a *balloon*, as feminine.

A thousand years their cloudy wings expand
Around me, and a dying glory smiles
O'er the fair times when many a subject land
Looked to the winged Lion's marble piles
Where *Venice* sat in state, throned on *her* hundred isles.

—*Lord Byron.*

The gender of nouns is shown in three ways :

1. By using different words for the masculine and the feminine. The more important examples are :

<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>	<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>
bachelor	spinster	king	queen
boy	girl	lord	lady
brother	sister	monk	nun
drake	duck	nephew	niece
earl	countess	ram	ewe
father	mother	sir	madam
gander	goose	sloven	slut (or slattern)
hart	roe	son	daughter
horse	mare	uncle	aunt
husband	wife	wizard	witch

This method of distinguishing gender depends altogether on the meaning of words, and is not, properly speaking, an inflection.

2. By the use of different endings or suffixes ; as, *ess*, *trix*, *ine*, *a*, *en*, *ster*, added to the masculine to form the feminine.

(a) Sometimes *ess*, which is the most common suffix, is added to the masculine without other change.

<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>	<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>
baron	baroness	Jew	Jewess
count	countess	lion	lioness
deacon	deaconess	patron	patroness
heir	heiress	poet	poetess
host	hostess	prophet	prophetess

(b) Sometimes the final syllable or letter of the masculine form is merged in the feminine termination ; as,

<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>	<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>
abbot	abbess	instructor	instructress
actor	actress	marquis	marchioness
benefactor	benefactress	master	mistress
duke	duchess	murderer	murderess
emperor	empress	protector	protectress
enchanter	enchantress	tiger	tigress
governor	governess	traitor	traitress

(c) The feminine suffix *trix* is found in a few nouns borrowed from the Latin language:

<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>	<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>
adjutor	adjutrix	executor	executrix
administrator	administratrix	heritor	heritrix
director	directrix	testator	testatrix

(d) The suffixes *ine* and *ina* are frequently found in proper names of women; as, *Josephine*, *Alexandrina*. *Ine* is seen also in *heroine* from *hero*.

(e) The suffix *a* is found in a few words borrowed from the languages of southern Europe; as *Donna*, from *Don*; *Sultana*, from *Sultan*; *Infanta*, from *Infante*; *Signora*, from *Signor*.

(f) The suffixes *en* and *ster* come down to us from old English, and are now found unchanged in only two words; *vixen* and *spinster*.

(g) A few words, such as *songstress* and *seamstress*, show the use of both the old suffix *ster* and the modern termination *ess*.

The suffix *er* forms *widower*, from *widow*.

3. By putting before a noun of the common gender a word whose gender we know; as, *he-goat*, *she-goat*; *man-servant*, *maid-servant*.

Among good writers of the present day the tendency is to omit distinctively feminine inflections whenever it is not important to mark distinction of sex. Thus, we speak of a lady as the *author*, not the *authoress*, of a book ; as a *singer*, not a *songstress* ; as a *lecturer*, not a *lecturess*. Though a lady is called a *chairman*, not a *chairwoman*, of a meeting, she is addressed as “Madam Chairman.”

CASE

A noun may serve several uses or purposes in a sentence. It may be used as :

1. The principal word in the subject.

Truth crushed to earth shall rise again.

2. The predicate complement.

*Men at some time are **masters** of their fates.*

3. A term of address.

*Well, **Brutus**, thou art noble.*

***Rome**, thou hast lost the breed of noble bloods.*

4. An object complement.

*He could foretell the **weather** at a word,
He knew the **haunt** of every beast and bird.*

5. An independent word.

*For once, upon a raw and gusty day,
The troubled **Tiber** chafing with her shores,
Cæsar said to me, etc. — *Shakespeare.**

6. The object of a preposition.

*The vine still clings to the moldering wall,
But at every **gust** the dead leaves fall,
And the day is dark and dreary. — Longfellow.*

7. The subject of an infinitive. (See p. 151.)

*He besought **Hercules** to help him.*

8. The equivalent of an adverbial phrase.

*The book is worth five **dollars**.
The fish weighed three **pounds**.*

9. A modifier indicating possession; as, *my father's house*.

10. A modifier explaining or describing another noun; as, *Paul, the **apostle**; Plato, the **philosopher***.

These uses, because they indicate the relation or case in which a noun stands to other words of a sentence are called **cases**.

DEFINITION. — The **case** of a noun is that form or use of a noun which denotes its relation to other words in a sentence.

Some centuries ago the English language had inflections to indicate five different cases. Now we have only three cases, the *nominative*, *possessive*, and *objective*; and only one of these, the possessive, is marked by inflection. There is now no difference of form for the nominative and objective cases.

DEFINITION. — The **nominative case** of a noun is the use of the noun in the relation of subject of a verb, of predicate complement, of address, or of an independent element.

President Lincoln was assassinated. Edison is an inventor. James, where have you been? The moon having risen, we set out.

When used to name the person or thing addressed, the noun is in the **nominative by address**; as, *John, speak.* When used independently, it is in the **nominative absolute**; as, *The war being over, the army was disbanded.*

DEFINITION. — The **possessive case** of a noun is that form of the noun which denotes the relation of ownership.

King Arthur's sword. The soldiers' home.

A noun in the possessive case always modifies another noun, expressed or understood. The relation between the two nouns is sometimes one of pure ownership; as, *John's umbrella.* More frequently, however, the noun in the possessive case is used merely to limit or define the other noun, and does not necessarily indicate ownership; as, *Men's passions.*

In the singular number, the possessive case is formed by adding to the nominative form the letter *s* preceded by an apostrophe (*'*); as *John, John's; man, man's.*

The apostrophe alone is added when too many hissing sounds would come together; as, *Moses' law, for conscience' sake.* It is correct, however, to say, *Burns's poems, Moses's law;* and, if there is doubt, the rule should be followed.

Words of more than two syllables often take the apostrophe alone; as, *Demosthenes' orations*; *Euripides' plays*.

In the plural, when the noun ends in *s*, the apostrophe alone is added; as, *ladies' gloves*; *foxes' holes*; *birds' eggs*.

When a noun in the plural does not end in *s*, the apostrophe and *s* are used; *men's hats*; *women's bonnets*.

The Anglo-Saxon inflection to mark the possessive (or genitive) case was *es*. The apostrophe marks the fact that the vowel has been dropped. The unchanged Anglo-Saxon inflection may still be seen in *Wednesday*, which is a contraction from *Wodnes-dæg*.

In compound nouns the sign of the possessive is added to the last word only; as, *the heir-at-law's right*.

The same rule is followed when there are two or more separate names, if joint possession is indicated; as, *Robertson, Smith, & Co.'s office*; *William, James, and Mary's uncle*.

But where the possession is several, the sign of the possessive must be repeated with each noun; as, *Grant's and Lee's forces met in the Wilderness*. *The poem is neither Bryant's nor Whittier's*.

Constructions such as *His brother's death*, *the Duke of Clarence* (Sir Thomas More), are not now used. We should say, *The death of his brother*, *the Duke of Clarence*.

It is, however, allowable to say, "I bought the book at Thompson the bookseller's"; or, "I bought the book at Thompson's, the bookseller's"; or, "I bought the book at Thompson's, the bookseller."

The peculiar idiom, *This is a play of Shakespeare's*, is explained as signifying *a play of Shakespeare's plays*; that is, *one*

of the plays written by Shakespeare. Those who regard this explanation as correct, distinguish a *bust of Cicero*, that is, a *bust representing Cicero*, from a *bust of Cicero's*, meaning one of the busts in the possession of Cicero.

The possessive inflection is rarely used except with nouns denoting persons, animals, and personified objects: *Johnson's store*, *the dog's head*, *the moon's face*; but it is not usual to say, *the book's leaves*, or *the house's roof*: better, *the leaves of the book*, *the roof of the house*.

DEFINITION. — The **objective case** of a noun is the use of the noun as object of a verb or of a preposition, as the subject of an infinitive (see p. 151), or as the equivalent of an adverbial phrase.

*The curfew tolls the **knell** of parting **day**.*

*The teacher advised the **boy** to return.*

. *A train, five **cars** long, passed the depot.*

The nouns, *knell* and *day*, are the objects respectively of the verb *tolls* and of the preposition *of*. *Boy* is the subject of the infinitive *to return* (see p. 151), and the whole phrase, *the boy to return*, is the object of the verb *advised*. *Cars* is equivalent to an adverbial phrase, *by five cars*, modifying the adjective *long*. *Cars* may be called an *adverbial objective*.

When, as in the following sentences, a noun explains the meaning of another noun, the explaining noun is said to be in the same case by **apposition** as the noun explained.

*Arnold, the **traitor**, betrayed his country.*

*I saw Stevenson, the **novelist**.*

When nouns are arranged so as to show in an orderly way the forms that denote number and case, we have :

THE DECLENSION OF NOUNS

	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
NOMINATIVE:	girl	girls	man	men
POSSESSIVE:	girl's	girls'	man's	men's
OBJECTIVE:	girl	girls	man	men
NOMINATIVE:	lady	ladies	sheep	sheep
POSSESSIVE:	lady's	ladies'	sheep's	sheep's
OBJECTIVE:	lady	ladies	sheep	sheep

EXERCISE 41. — *Give the case and the office of each noun in the following sentences :*

1. Pride thrust Nebuchadnezzar out of men's society, Saul out of his kingdom, Adam out of Paradise, Haman out of court, Lucifer out of heaven.

2. My son, keep thy father's commandment, and forsake not the law of thy mother : bind them continually upon thine heart, and tie them about thy neck.

3. Day set on Norham's castled steep
And Tweed's fair river broad and deep,
And Cheviot's mountains lone ;
The battle towers, the donjon keep,
The loophole grates where captives weep,
The flanking walls that round it sweep,
In yellow luster shone. — *Scott.*

4. Good name, in man or woman, dear my lord,
Is the immediate jewel of their souls.
Who steals my purse, steals trash ; 'tis something,
nothing ;

'Twas mine, 'tis his, and has been slave to thousands;
But he that filches from me my good name,
Robs me of that which not enriches him,
And makes me poor indeed. — *Shakespeare*.

5. We live in deeds, not years; in thoughts, not breaths;
In feelings, not in figures on a dial. — *Bailey*.

6. If a man empties his purse into his head, no one can take it away from him. An investment in knowledge always pays the best interest. — *Benjamin Franklin*.

PERSON

DEFINITION. — **Person** is the use of a noun that indicates whether it denotes the person *speaking*, the person *spoken to*, or the person or thing *spoken about*.

A noun denoting the person that speaks is said to be in the **first person**; as,

I, Benjamin Harrison, do issue this my proclamation.

A noun denoting the person spoken to is said to be in the **second person**; as,

You, John, are wrong.

A noun denoting the person or thing spoken about is said to be in the **third person**; as

Shakespeare wrote plays. Washington was a surveyor.

We can tell the person of a noun only by noticing the context of the sentence in which it is used.

SUBSTITUTES FOR NOUNS

Words, phrases, and clauses, not properly nouns, are frequently used as nouns. These substitutes may be:

1. **Pronouns.** (See p. 91 and following.)
2. **Any other part of speech.**

*In history we should learn the **when**, the **why**, and the **how**.
The word **receive** is frequently misspelled.*

Adjectives may be used to denote concrete things and hence become common nouns; as, *the deep*, meaning *the ocean*; *the poor*, meaning *poor people*; *the English*, meaning *the English people*. Or they may have the force of abstract nouns; as when we speak of *the true*, or *the beautiful*, for *truth* and *beauty*.

3. **Noun Phrases.**

To see is to believe.

To be united is to be strong.

4. **Noun Clauses.**

That you have wronged me, doth appear in this.

— *Shakespeare.*

Many facts prove that the world is round.

PARSING THE NOUN

To parse a noun is to state the following facts regarding it:

- I. The **class** to which it belongs.
- II. Its **number** and **gender**.
- III. Its **case**.
- IV. The **reason** for its case; telling either,

1. *Of what verb it is the subject, or predicate complement ;*
2. *Of what verb or preposition it is the object ;*
3. *If in the possessive, what noun it modifies ;*
4. *If in apposition, what noun it explains ;*
5. *Or that it is nominative by address, or nominative absolute.*

EXERCISE 42. — *In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, and parse each noun :*

The princess is her father's heir.

(A simple declarative sentence.)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>princess</i>	common noun, singular, feminine, nominative.
VERB	<i>is</i>	
PREDICATE COMPLEMENT	<i>heir</i>	common noun, singular, feminine, nominative.
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>the</i>	
MODIFIER OF COMPLEMENT	{ <i>her</i> <i>father's</i>	common noun, singular, masculine, possessive.

1. The golden ripple on the wall came again.
2. The word *ful* is not found in the lexicon of youth.
3. Absence of occupation is not rest.
4. No noble human thought can ever come to naught.
5. Books give to all who will faithfully use them the society, the spiritual presence, of the best and greatest of our race.
6. The doorstep to the temple of wisdom is a knowledge of our own ignorance.

7. The unwearied sun from day to day
Doth his Creator's power display,
And publishes to every land
The work of an Almighty hand. — *Addison*.
8. Do not read too much at a time, stop when you are tired,
and always review what you have read.

THE PRONOUN

DEFINITION. — A pronoun is a word that denotes persons or things without naming them.

The noun and the pronoun agree in that their grammatical functions in a sentence are the same.

They differ in that a noun is a name, whereas a pronoun is a substitute for a name.

Pronouns have the same *properties* as nouns, — *person, number, gender, and case*.

The noun to which a pronoun refers, or for which it stands, is called its *antecedent*.

The word *antecedent* means *going before*. Generally the noun to which the pronoun refers, or for which it stands, precedes the pronoun. It frequently happens, however, that the noun to which the pronoun refers follows the pronoun, or is not mentioned at all, as when we say of a person who has just left, *He is gone*. But in all cases the idea of the person or thing referred to is supposed to be present in the mind of the speaker, and to be easily understood by the hearer.

CLASSES AND INFLECTIONS

Pronouns may be divided into four classes :

- I. PERSONAL. *I, thou, you, we, they, etc.*
- II. INTERROGATIVE. *who ? which ? what ?*

III. RELATIVE. *who, which, that, what.*

IV. ADJECTIVE { DEMONSTRATIVE. *this, that, these, those.*
INDEFINITE. *one, some, each, etc.*

PERSONAL PRONOUNS

The word *person* once meant an actor's part in a play. As in plays, so in conversation, there are the speaker, the listener, and the person or thing talked about. Pronouns that by their form enable us to distinguish the **person** or thing in each of these three relations are called **personal pronouns**.

DEFINITION.—A **personal pronoun** is a pronoun that shows by its form whether it denotes the speaker, the person or thing spoken to, or the person or thing spoken about; as *I, you, he*.

Personal pronouns are divided into two classes:

1. **Simple personal pronouns**; as, *I, you, we*.
2. **Compound personal pronouns**; as, *myself, ourselves, themselves*.

Personal pronouns have different forms for the three persons. (See p. 88.)

The pronouns of the **first person** are *I*, with its plural *we*; and *myself, ourselves*.

The pronouns of the **second person** are *thou*, with its plural *ye* or *you*; and *thyself, yourself, yourselves*.

The pronouns of the **third person** are *he, she*, and *it*, with their plural *they*; and *himself, herself, itself, and themselves*.

The simple personal pronoun of the first person is inflected for number and case. Because the sex of the person speaking is always supposed to be known, it is not inflected for gender.

	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
NOMINATIVE:	I	we
POSSESSIVE:	my, mine	our, ours
OBJECTIVE:	me	us

I is always written as a capital letter.

In the expression *methinks*, *me* is the remnant of an old Anglo-Saxon inflection called the *dative* case, and *thinks* comes from an old verb, *thinken*, to seem. It means, "It seems to me." Our verb *think* comes from a verb *thenken*, to think.

Methinks I see in my mind a noble and puissant nation.

— *Milton.*

Properly speaking, the pronoun *I* can not have a plural. The plural *we* denotes the speaker and one or more for whom he speaks. It may mean, for instance, *you* and *I*, *my father* and *I*, *my school-fellows* and *I*.

When persons other than the person speaking are mentioned, it is proper to put the pronoun denoting the speaker last; as, *John and I*.

The plural *we* is used in the following special cases:

1. In the editorials of newspapers; as, *We are of opinion*, etc. *It seems to us*, etc.

2. In speaking for humanity generally:

*Strong purposes **our** minds possess,*

***Our** hearts affections fill,*

***We** toil and earn, **we** seek and learn,*

And thou descendest still.

— *Arthur Hugh Clough.*

Sovereigns generally use the plural form in issuing their proclamations; as, ***We**, the Emperor of Germany*, etc.

The simple personal pronoun of the second person is inflected for number and case. Because the sex of the person addressed is supposed to be known by the speaker, it is not inflected for gender.

	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
NOMINATIVE:	thou	ye, you
POSSESSIVE:	thy, thine	your, yours
OBJECTIVE:	thee	ye, you

The plural forms *you, your, yours*, are now used for purposes of address, both in the singular and in the plural, except by members of the Society of Friends, who still address one another in the singular by *thou, thy, thine*, and *thee*.

Thou was formerly used in address as a term of endearment; it was also used to denote familiarity, and so came to imply contempt.

If thou thouest him some thrice, it shall not be amiss.

— *Shakespeare.*

Except by members of the Society of Friends, *thou* is now used only in the following cases:

1. In the worship of the Almighty: *Hallowed be thy name.*
2. In poetry:

Hail to thee, blithe spirit —

Bird thou never wert —

That from heaven or near it

Pourest thy full heart

In profuse strains of unpremeditated art.

— *Shelley.*

Ye is now used only in appeals and exclamations found in poetry and in elevated prose; as,

Ye crags and peaks !

Nor you, ye proud, impute to these the fault. — Gray.

The pronoun of the third person is inflected in the singular for number, case, and gender ; in the plural, for number and case, while gender is learned from the context :

	SINGULAR			PLURAL
	<i>Masculine</i>	<i>Feminine</i>	<i>Neuter</i>	<i>All Genders</i>
NOMINATIVE :	he	she	it	they
POSSESSIVE :	his	her	its	their
OBJECTIVE :	him	her	it	them

He and *she* are used for personified objects. (See p. 79.)

It stands for the name of a human being or an animal when sex is not thought of, as well as for a thing without life.

Light the lamp and bring it here. Tell the child that it must stop crying.

Sometimes the reference is quite indefinite, as in the expressions: *It rains. How is it with me ? We roughed it on our journey.* We must suppose that there is something in the mind of the speaker not fully expressed.

Its is a modern form. The old neuter possessive was *his*, which was in constant use up to the seventeenth century, and is to be found in King James's translation of the Bible :

Thou shalt make a candlestick of pure gold : . . . his shaft and his branches, his bowls, his knops, and his flowers shall be of the same. — Ex. xxv. 31.

In such a time as this it is not meet

That every nice offense should bear his comment.

— *Shakespeare.*

By Shakespeare the uninflected form *it* is sometimes used for the possessive :

Go to it grandam, child . . . and it grandam will give it a plum. — Shakespeare.

The forms *my*, *thy*, *her*, *his*, *its*, *our*, *your*, *their*, are used to modify nouns directly: *Your fault is great. Our money is invested. Their land is well cultivated.*

The forms *mine*, *thine*, *ours*, *yours*, *theirs*, and sometimes *his* and *hers*, though possessive in form, have come to be used only in the nominative and objective cases. They are in reality substitutes for a noun and its possessive modifier: *My hat is new, yours (your hat) is old. The fault is yours. The money is ours. The land is theirs. I have his, he has mine. Theirs have increased, ours have decreased.*

The parsing of the pronouns given in the first example should be as follows :

My is a **personal pronoun**, in the *first person*, *singular number*, *possessive case*. It modifies the noun *hat*.

Yours is a **personal pronoun**, *second person*, *plural number*, *possessive* in form, but used in the *nominative case* as subject of the verb *is*. It is a substitute for the words *your hat*.

In the idiomatic expression, *this is a book of mine, of mine* is an adjective phrase modifying *book*. *Mine* may be parsed as a personal pronoun, possessive in form, governed in the objective case by *of*. The idiom probably arose from the mixture of two constructions—a pure possessive and an adjective phrase. (See p. 85.)

Poets and orators occasionally use *mine* and *thine* instead of *my* and *thy* before a word beginning with a vowel, to heighten the effect.

Thine anguish will not let thee sleep.—Tennyson.

Mine eyes have seen the glory of the coming of the Lord.

At one time this was the prevalent usage:

Shall I not take mine ease in mine inn?—Shakespeare.

The compound personal pronouns are :

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
myself	ourselves
thyself	yourselves
himself	themselves
herself	
itself	

These forms are used only in the nominative and objective cases ; never in the possessive.

The uses of the compound personal pronouns are two : 1, **Reflexive** ; 2, **Emphatic**.

The reflexive use, indicating that the actor becomes the object of his own action, is seen in the following :

*I know **myself** now.* — Shakespeare.

*Love **thyself** last.* — *Idem*.

*He that wrongs his friend wrongs **himself** more.* — Tennyson.

*Vaulting ambition which o'erleaps **itself**.* — Shakespeare.

The emphatic use is seen in such expressions as, *I **myself** saw the deed.*

Tennyson employs *myself* in both ways in the following line,

*And I **myself** sometimes despise **myself**.*

EXERCISE 43. — *Fill the blanks with personal pronouns, mention the case of each, and give a reason for its use :*

1. James, Henry, and — will do the work.
2. The work was done by James, Henry, and —.
3. Was it Frank who did it? No, it was not —.
4. Was it Mary? No, it was not —.
5. I did not know that it was —.

6. The boy denied that it was — who did the wrong.
7. Between you and —, the affair was not a success.
8. — that honor me, I will honor.
9. The professor reproved William and — for carelessness.
10. William and — were sorry to have offended.
11. Jane is taller than —.

PARSING

A personal pronoun is parsed as a noun is parsed, with the addition of the mention of its person.

EXERCISE 44. — *In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, name each element, and parse the nouns and pronouns :*

Her eyes were fair, and very fair; —

Her beauty made me glad.

(A compound declarative sentence)

(First independent clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>eyes</i>	common noun, plural, neuter, nominative.
VERB	<i>were</i>	
PREDICATE COMPLEMENT	<i>{ fair</i>	adjective.
	<i>{ fair</i>	adjective.
CONNECTIVE	<i>and</i>	conjunction.
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>her</i>	simple personal pronoun, third, singular, feminine, possessive.
MODIFIER OF PREDICATE COMPLEMENT	<i>very</i>	adverb.

(Second independent clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>beauty</i>	common noun, singular, neuter, nominative.
VERB	<i>made</i>	
OBJECT WORD	<i>me</i>	simple personal pronoun, first, singular, masculine, objective.
SUPPLEMENT	<i>glad</i>	adjective.
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>her</i>	simple personal pronoun, third, singular, feminine, possessive.

“Two of us in the churchyard lie,
 My sister and my brother;
 And in the churchyard cottage, I
 Dwell near them with my mother.”

“You run about, my little maid;
 Your limbs they are alive;
 If two are in the churchyard laid,
 Then ye are only five.”

“The first that died was sister Jane;
 In bed she moaning¹ lay,
 Till God released her from her pain;
 And then she went away.

“And when the ground was white with snow,
 And I could run and slide,
 My brother John was forced to go,²
 And he lies by her side.”

INTERROGATIVE PRONOUNS

DEFINITION.—An interrogative pronoun is a pronoun used in asking questions.

¹ *moaning* is a participle. (See p. 155.)

² *to go* is an infinitive, (See p. 150.)

The interrogative pronouns are *who*, *which*, and *what*. In older English *whether* frequently occurs as an interrogative pronoun.

Who hath believed our report, and to *whom* is the arm of the Lord revealed ? — Bible.

What is sweeter than honey? *What* is stronger than a lion?
— Bible.

Which of you by taking thought can add one cubit to his stature?
— Bible.

Who refers only to human beings and to personified objects, and is thus declined :

	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
NOMINATIVE :	who	who
POSSESSIVE :	whose	whose
OBJECTIVE :	whom	whom

Who and *whom* are always, and *whose* occasionally, used alone. *Whose*, like the possessive cases of personal pronouns, is generally joined to a noun as a modifier.

Who told you so? From *whom* did you get the book? *Whose* umbrella did he take? *This* is mine, *whose* is that?

Between *who* and *which* there is a distinction in meaning. *Who* asks a question in a general way ; as, *Who* calls so loud? meaning *who of all persons*. *Which* inquires for a particular individual from a group or class.

Which (of the two) is the natural man
And *which* the spirit? *Who* deciphers them?
— Shakespeare.

Which is used in the nominative and objective cases, either alone or as a modifier of a noun, for either number and for any gender.

Which was it?

Which of you told me?

Which will you have?

Which book did he choose?

Which numbers did she select?

What may be used either alone or joined to a noun. When used alone, it is singular and neuter; when used with a noun, the noun may be of any gender and either number.

What does it matter? What do you want?

Wherefore rejoice? What conquest brings he home?

What tributaries follow him to Rome? — Shakespeare.

What king, going to war against another king, sitteth not down first and consulteth? — Bible.

What is often used to introduce an exclamation; as,

What dignity, what beauty in this change

From mild to angry, and from sad to gay!

— Wordsworth.

What is sometimes used as an interjection to express surprise; as,

Eh! how! What! Captain, did you write the letter then?

— Sheridan.

Whether is equivalent to *which of two?* It is now generally used as an adverb. In older English it occurs frequently as an interrogative pronoun; as,

Whether of them twain did the will of his father? — Bible.

EXERCISE 45.— *Fill the blanks in the following sentences with interrogative pronouns (who or whom), being careful to use the proper case forms:*

1. — do you suppose I met to-day?
2. — do you think he meant?
3. — do you believe did the wrong?
4. I asked — was speaking.
5. — are you addressing?
6. — is he talking to?
7. — is this meant for?
8. — are you expecting to elect?
9. He asked — it was.
10. He asked — I was waiting for.

RELATIVE PRONOUNS

DEFINITION.— A *relative pronoun* is a pronoun that serves to connect the clause of which it is a part with the antecedent of the pronoun; as,

The man who is speaking is the judge.

In the foregoing example *who* is a relative pronoun connecting the clause *who is speaking*—an adjective modifier—with the noun *man*, which is the antecedent of *who*.

The distinguishing mark of a relative pronoun is that it can not form the subject or the object of a simple sentence, but is employed to introduce a clause.

The relative pronouns are *who*, *which*, *that*, *what*, with the compound forms *whoso*, *whoever*, *whosoever*, *whichever*, *whichsoever*, *whatever*, *whatsoever*. *As* and *but* are occasionally found as relative pronouns.

Who, *which*, and *what* were originally interrogative pronouns. Then they came to be used indefinitely in the sense of *some person* or *thing*, especially after the conjunctions *if* and *as*; as in the expression, *As who should say*, etc., meaning, *As if some one should say*. Finally, they came to be used as relatives. *That*, originally a demonstrative pronoun, became a relative before any of the others.

Who and *which* are declined as follows :

	<i>Singular and Plural</i>	<i>Singular and Plural</i>
NOMINATIVE :	who	which
POSSESSIVE :	whose	whose
OBJECTIVE :	whom	which

That and *what* are not inflected to indicate case.

Who is now used only for persons and in personification; *which*, for animals, plants, and things without life. *That* may be used for persons, animals, plants, and things without life.

The letter being folded was delivered to the squire, and by him delivered to the messenger, who waited without.

—Sir Walter Scott.

There is a vast number of absurd and mischievous fallacies, which pass readily in the world for sense and virtue, while in truth they tend only to fortify error and encourage crime.

—Sydney Smith.

Blessed is the man that walketh not in the counsel of the ungodly. — Bible.

Wake, wake! all ye that sleep. — Longfellow.

The songs and fables that are come from father to son.

— Addison.

That is to be preferred to *who* and *which* in the following cases :

1. When the antecedent embraces both persons and things :

The soldiers and cannon that I saw.

2. As a general rule, *who* or *which* is to be used when its clause introduces a new fact about the antecedent; *that* is to be preferred when the clause limits or defines the antecedent.

A convenient test to decide whether it is better to use *who* or *which*, or *that*, is suggested by Dr. Abbott: "When using the relative pronoun, use *who* and *which* when the meaning is *and he*, *it*, *etc.*, *for he*, *it*, *etc.* In other cases use *that*, if euphony allows."

I heard this from the inspector, who (and he) heard it from the guard that traveled with the train.

Fetch me all the books that lie on the the table, and also the pamphlets, which (and those) you will find on the floor.

This rule, it must be admitted, is not generally observed, even by the best modern authors. It was followed, however, up to the beginning of the present century; and there is a tendency among writers of the present day to return to it because of its clearness and convenience. It covers the specific rules given by most grammarians to use *that* after an adjective in the superlative degree, etc.

Dr. Abbott notes the following exceptions :

1. When the antecedent is already restricted by some expression, *e.g.* by a possessive case, modern English uses *who* instead of *that* in a restrictive clause; as,

His friends from the city, whom he was expecting, called at his office.

2. If the relative is separated from its verb and from its antecedent, *who* or *which* is preferable to *that*.

There are many persons who, though unscrupulous, are commonly good-tempered, and who, if not strongly incited by self-interest, are ready, for the most part, to think of the interest of their neighbor.

3. If the antecedent is modified by *that*, the relative must not be *that*. Addison ridicules such language as,

That remark that I made yesterday is not that that I said that I regretted that I had made.

4. *That*, as a relative, can not be preceded by a preposition, and hence it throws the preposition to the end of the clause. *That is the rule that I adhere to* is perfectly correct; but when the preposition has more than one syllable, and may be mistaken for an adverb, the construction sounds harsh. It is better to say, *This is the mark beyond which I jumped*, than *This is the mark that I jumped beyond*.

5. After indefinite pronouns modern English prefers *who*.

There are many (others, several, those) who can testify, etc.

Whose is used for persons, for lower animals, and even for things without life, and always to modify the meaning of a noun.

*On a rock, whose haughty brow,
Frowns o'er old Conway's foaming tide. — Gray.*

*How can we praise the verse whose music flows
With solemn cadence and majestic close,
Pure as the dew that filters through the rose ?*

— O. W. Holmes.

It is more common, however, especially in prose, to substitute *of which* for *whose* when the antecedent denotes something without life.

Society . . . has great reason to rejoice when a class, of which the influence is moral and intellectual, rises to ascendancy.

— Macaulay.

Which is now used only for the lower animals, plants, and things without life. Formerly it was used for persons, as in the Lord's Prayer, *Our Father which art in Heaven*.

Which is frequently used as an adjective ; as,

Which things are an allegory. — Bible.

In this case, it refers back to a number of incidents already related, and modifies the word *things*.

Occasionally, the antecedent is repeated for the sake of clearness.

He offered no defense for the ridiculous fable of the pigeon ; which pigeon [not which fable], on the contrary, he represented, etc. — De Quincey.

In Shakespeare, *the which*, used to distinguish between two or more possible antecedents, is common.

The better part of valor is discretion ; in the which better part I have saved my life.

What is always neuter, and is used only in the nominative and objective cases. Its antecedent is never expressed. In meaning it is equivalent to *that which* or *the thing which*.

NOMINATIVE CASE: ***What*** is one man's meat is another man's poison.

OBJECTIVE CASE: ***What*** I have written I have written.

The student must consider carefully in determining the case of *what*. In the first sentence, the clause *What is one man's meat* is the subject of the second *is*, and *What* is the subject of

the first *is*. In the second sentence, *What I have written* is a noun clause and the object of the second *have written*. *What* is the object of the first *have written*.

In older English we find the antecedent expressed, as in the sentence,

That what we have we prize not to the worth.

— *Shakespeare.*

In poetry and elevated prose, *what* is occasionally found as an adjective :

*What time the splendor of the setting sun
Lay beautiful on Snowdon's sovereign brow.*

— *Wordsworth.*

As is used as a relative pronoun after *such* and *same* :

*Nature ever faithful is
To such as trust her faithfulness.*

Tears, such as angels weep, burst forth. — *Milton.*

Occasionally *but* is found as a relative pronoun.

*There is not a wife in the west country,
But has heard of the well of St. Keyne.* — *Southey.*

The compounds *whoever*, *whichever*, *whatever*; *whoso*, *whosoever*, *whichsoever*, *whatsoever*, are generally used, like *what*, without an antecedent.

Whosoever is the only one declined :

NOMINATIVE: *whosoever*.

POSSESSIVE: *whosoever's*.

OBJECTIVE: *whomsoever*.

The forms with *so* are rarely used in modern English.

These compounds all have an indefinite or general meaning.

Whoso eats thereof forthwith attains wisdom. — *Milton.*

(*Whoso* = *every one who*.)

*I think myself beholden **whoever** shows me my mistakes.*

— *Locke.*

(*Whoever* = *no matter who.*)

The relative is sometimes omitted when it is the object of a verb ; as,

*The book I purchased = The book **that** I purchased.*

Had I but served my God with half the zeal

I served my king, he would not in mine age

Have left me naked to mine enemies. — Shakespeare.

Here we must supply *with which* after *zeal*; but such a construction as that above is hardly allowable in modern English, except in poetry.

In poetry the relative is sometimes omitted when it is the subject of a verb ; as,

'Tis distance (that) lends enchantment to the view. — Campbell.

If the antecedent is a personal pronoun, it is often omitted ; as,

***Who** steals my purse, steals trash = He who, etc.*

When *who*, *which*, and *what* are used in subordinate clauses, care must be taken to determine whether they are relatives, or whether they are interrogative pronouns. To determine this question in any given case, Professor Rushton suggests the following test: "Turn the sentence into a question. If the dependent clause gives the answer to such a question, the pronoun is an interrogative;" as,

*I asked **who** was there.*

QUESTION. — *What did you ask ?*

ANSWER. — *Who was there ?*

*They inquired **what** he was going to do.*

QUESTION. — *What did they inquire ?*

ANSWER. — *What was he going to do ?*

The person, number, and gender of a relative pronoun are the same as the person, number, and gender of its antecedent.

The antecedent may be a noun, a pronoun, a phrase, or a clause.

*We join ourselves to no **party that** does not carry the flag and keep step to the music of the Union.* — Choate.

*To **him who** in the love of Nature holds
Communion with her visible forms, she speaks
A various language.* — Bryant.

*We are bound to **obey all the Divine commands, which** we can not do without Divine aid.*

***Homer is remarkably concise, which** renders him lively and agreeable.* — Blair's *Rhetoric*.

Here the antecedents are *party, him, to obey all the Divine commands*, and the fact that *Homer is concise*.

EXERCISE 46. — *Fill the blanks with suitable relative pronouns, and, in each case, give a reason for your choice.*

1. The eloquent orator, — we greatly admired, has passed away.

2. This is the student — all are praising.

3. This is the student — I understand has written an excellent paper.

4. The pain — conscience gives the man — has already done wrong is part of his punishment.

5. Mr. Burchell was fond of the company of little children, — he used to call harmless little men.

6. The only information — the cupbearer could collect from the bystanders was, that the knight had been placed in a litter belonging to a lady among the spectators, — had transported him out of the press.

7. The recesses of the wooded country were held dangerous at that time from the number of outlaws — oppression and poverty had driven to despair, and — occupied the forests in such large bands — could easily bid defiance to the feeble police of the period.

8. On the day of his death, this simple Western attorney, — according to one party was a vulgar joker, and — the *doctrinaires* among his own supporters accused of wanting every element of statesmanship, was the most absolute ruler in Christendom.

In parsing an interrogative or a relative pronoun, state :

1. The antecedent.
2. The person, number, and gender.
3. The case.
4. The reason for the case: of what verb it is the subject, etc.

EXERCISE 47. — *In the following excerpts point out the clauses introduced by relative pronouns, state whether they are noun or adjective clauses, and parse each of the relative pronouns :*

1. There is no creature with which man has surrounded himself that seems so much like a product of civilization, so much like the result of development in special lines and in special fields, as the honey-bee. — *Burroughs.*

2. Katrina Van Tassel was withal a little of a coquette, as might be perceived even in her dress, which was a mixture of ancient and modern fashions, as most suited to set off her charms. — *Irving*.

3. Who is the happy warrior? Who is he
That every man in arms should wish to be!
It is the generous spirit who, when brought
Among the tasks of real life, hath wrought
Upon the plan that pleased his boyish thought;
Whose high endeavors are an inward light
That makes the path before him always bright; \nWho with a natural instinct to discern
What knowledge can perform is diligent to learn;
Abides by this resolve and stops not there,
But makes his moral being his prime care.

— *Wordsworth*.

4. What surprised me most was the sound of my own voice, which I had never before heard at a declamatory pitch, and which impressed me as belonging to some other person, who — and not myself — would be responsible for the speech: a prodigious consolation and encouragement under the circumstances. — *Hawthorne*.

ADJECTIVE PRONOUNS

There are certain words that sometimes modify the meanings of nouns and sometimes take the place of nouns. In the sentence, *This book is mine*, *this* is an adjective modifying the meaning of the noun *book*. In the sentence, *This is mine*, the word *this* stands for both the adjective and the noun, and it is therefore called an **adjective pronoun**.

DEFINITION. — An adjective pronoun is a pronoun used in place of an adjective and a noun.

These are my books.

Love *all*, trust *few*, wrong *none*.

Adjective pronouns are of two kinds, demonstrative and indefinite.

DEMONSTRATIVE PRONOUNS

DEFINITION. — A demonstrative pronoun is a pronoun used to point out that to which it refers.

The demonstrative pronouns are *this* with its plural *these*, and *that* with its plural *those*.

Demonstrative pronouns are used under the following conditions :

1. When they introduce or specify some person or object, *this* referring to the nearer, *that* to the more distant.

This is my book.

Is *that* your cane ?

Are *these* your gloves ?

Those are my friends.

2. When they have a backward reference and are equivalent to *the one . . . the other*; *this* referring to the latter of two things mentioned, *that* to the former.

Some place their bliss in action, some in ease,

Those call it pleasure, and contentment *these*. — Pope.

. . . reason raise o'er instinct as you can

In this 'tis God directs, in that 'tis man. — Pope.

3. When *that* or *those* is used to prevent the repetition of a preceding noun ; as,

*The castle of Sterling is such another as **that** of Edinburgh.*
— Smollett.

*The mercantile buildings of New York are finer than **those** of London.*

4. When *this* or *that* refers to a word, phrase, or clause going before ; as,

*He had great store of knowledge. **This** he used to the greatest possible advantage.*

*To be or not to be, **that** is the question.*

INDEFINITE PRONOUNS

DEFINITION. — An **indefinite pronoun** is a pronoun that does not denote any particular object.

The indefinite pronouns are *one, none, some, any, aught, naught, each, every, either, neither, other, else, sundry, several, certain, all*, with various compounds.

Some of these words are used as pronouns ; others, as adjectives ; most of them, in both ways. When used as pronouns, they are called **indefinite pronouns** ; when used to modify the meanings of nouns, they are **adjectives**.

One is simply the numeral *one* with derived meanings. It is used both as a pronoun and as an adjective. As a pronoun, it has a plural *ones* and a possessive case *one's*. Its principal meanings are as follows :

1. As denoting people in general ; as,

***One** can say to **one's** friend the things that stand in need of pardon, and at the time be sure of it.* — Pope.

The reflexive forms *one's self* and *oneself* are used with the same meaning.

2. To avoid the repetition of a noun already used; as, *You seem to be a close observer, sir. — Necessity has made me one.*

3. As correlative with *other*, to distinguish two different persons; as, *Two men went up into the temple to pray; the one a Pharisee and the other a Publican. — Bible.*

4. As equivalent to *person*, *creature*, or *being*; as, *Take heed that ye despise not one of these little ones. — Bible.*

Any one, *some one*, *no one*, *each one*, *either one*, *neither one*, *every one*, *the one*, etc., may be regarded as compounds of *one*, and, in parsing, should be treated as single words.

None, derived from the Anglo-Saxon *ne*, not, *an*, one, means strictly *not one*. It is used only as a pronoun. Its derived form *no* is used as an adjective.

Heed not though none should call thee fair. — Wordsworth.

Terms of peace were none vouchsafed. — Milton.

Other hope had she none. — Longfellow.

Some is used both as a pronoun and as an adjective. As a pronoun it is used both in the singular and in the plural. In the singular it usually implies quantity.

Of the grain, some was ripe and some was not.

Some of his skill he taught to me. — Sir Walter Scott.

Some say one thing, and some say another.

Any is used as a pronoun and as an adjective. With a singular noun, it generally implies quantity; with a plural noun, number. Used in a negative sentence, it excludes all.

Who is here so base, that would be a bondman? If any, speak; for him have I offended. — Shakespeare.

Aught and the negative form *naught* are equivalent respectively to *anything* and *nothing*, and are used as pronouns; as,

Nothing extenuate,

Nor set down aught in malice. — Shakespeare.

*If naught in loveliness compare,
With what thou art to me. — Wordsworth.*

Each and *every* are sometimes called **distributive pronouns**, because they refer to the members of a class. Note the distinction in meaning:

Each means all the individuals of a class taken *separately*; *every* means all the individuals of a class taken *collectively*.

Each may refer to two, or to more than two; *every* always implies more than two.

Each is used both as a pronoun and as an adjective; *every*, as an adjective only; as,

That each who seems a separate whole should move his rounds.
— Tennyson.

Every soldier was on duty, except the cavalry.

The expressions *each other*, *every other*, *no other*, *one another*, etc., are generally regarded as **compound indefinite pronouns**; as, *They did not speak to each other. I know no other.*

Other is used as an adjective in such phrases as *the other day*, *some other book*.

It is a common error to substitute the adverb *otherwise* for *other*; as, *He had no love for literature, poetical or other*, — not *otherwise*.

Used as an indefinite pronoun, *other* has a possessive *other's* and a plural *others*; as,

How well I have performed my part, let others judge.
The other's judgment is too severe.

Another is to be distinguished from *the other*. The latter means *the second of two*; the former, *one of any number more than two*.

Either and *neither*, sometimes called **alternative pronouns**, mean respectively *one of the two*, and *not one of the two*. They are used both as pronouns and as adjectives, and have the possessive forms *either's* and *neither's*.

So parted they as either's way led. Neither's claim was just.

Occasionally we find *either* used for *each*; as,

On either side is level fen. — Crabbe.

It is better to use *each* for *one and other*; *either*, for *one or other*; as, ***Each*** claimed to be right; ***either*** might have been mistaken.

Either or *neither* should never be used to refer to more than two objects. For *neither* in the following sentence substitute *no one*: *Only three persons saw the act, and neither of them would testify.*

Certain is used both as a pronoun and as an adjective; as,

To hunt the boar with certain of his friends. — Shakespeare.

A certain man planted a vineyard. — Bible.

Same is used with *the* to prevent the repetition of the noun to which it refers, and is then an indefinite pronoun; as,

He that abideth in me, and I in him, the same bringeth forth much fruit. — John xv. 5.

This usage is now generally confined to legal phraseology.

Such is commonly used as an adjective, occasionally as a pronoun:

Such harmony is in immortal souls. — Shakespeare.

Mere strength of understanding would have made him such in any age. — De Quincey.

Usage justifies the use of *such* with another adjective, though some grammarians have pronounced it wrong. Milton speaks of ***such*** worthy attempts.

So is often used with the force of an indefinite pronoun, when we might expect *such*; as,

We think our fathers fools, so wise we grow;

Our wiser sons, no doubt, will think us so. — Pope.

EXERCISE 48. — *Analyze the following sentences, and parse each pronoun :*

1. Shall I ask the brave soldier who fights by my side
In the cause of mankind, if our creeds agree ? — *Moore.*
2. Apologies count only for that which they do not alter. —
Disraeli.
3. Kind as a mother herself, she touched his cheeks with
her hands.
4. Gorgeous she entered the sunlight which gathered her
up in a flame,
While straight in her open carriage, she to the hospital
came. — *Mrs. Browning.*
5. He giveth little who gives but tears,
He giveth his best who aids and cheers,
He does well in the forest wild
Who slays the monster and saves the child;
But he does better, and merits more
Who drives the wolf from the poor man's door.
— *Trowbridge.*
6. Her presence lends its warmth and health
To all who come before it.
If woman lost us Eden, such
As she alone restore it. — *Whittier.*
7. That power of endurance, that quickness of apprehension,
that calmness of judgment, which enable man to seize the
opportunities that others lose, and persist in the lines of con-
duct in which others fail — are these not talent ? — are they
not in the present state of the world, among the most dis-
tinguished and influential of mental gifts ? — *Ruskin.*

EXERCISE 49. — *Make sentences containing this, that ; these, those ; one's, ones ; each other, one another ; either, neither ; the one, the other.*

THE ADJECTIVE

DEFINITION. — An adjective is a word used with a noun or a pronoun to describe or limit its meaning.

An adjective may modify the meaning of a noun in three ways:

1. As an **attributive modifier**; as, *The **brown** horse, The **tall** chimney.* Here a certain quality is *attributed*, or *attached*, to the name of an object. The adjective becomes part of the description of the object.

2. As a **predicate adjective**. In *The brown horse is **fast**,* the quality of *fastness* is predicated or asserted of *the brown horse*; and hence the adjective modifies the subject noun by the help of the verb.

3. As an **appositive modifier**. The type of this modifier is a noun in apposition. In the sentence, *The aged man, **stiff** with rheumatism and **spent** with toil, hobbled painfully along,* we have in *stiff* and *spent* examples of adjective modifiers so nearly akin to the noun in apposition that they may be called **appositive**. The **appositive** is merely a looser, more indirect, relation to a noun than that of the attributive modifier.

The appositive modifier is easily changed into an adjective clause: *The aged man, who was stiff,* etc.

CLASSES

Adjectives are divided into three principal classes:

I. Adjectives of **quality**; as, ***good** manners, **thick** soles, **French** gloves.*

II. Adjectives of **quantity**; as, ***much** money, **enough** time, **one** book.*

III. **Demonstrative** adjectives; as, ***a** house, **the** sun, **this** lot, **first** stanza.*

Adjectives of quality denote the kind of thing that the noun names, or the class to which it belongs. Adjectives derived from proper nouns, as, *American*, *German*, *French*, are called *proper* adjectives, and should always be written with capital letters.

Adjectives of quantity tell either *how many* or *how much* we mean of that which the noun names. They include,

1. The cardinal numeral adjectives: *one*, *two*, *three*, etc.

The words *pair*, *dozen*, *hundred*, *thousand*, *million*, are sometimes nouns, and they may be used in the plural.

One, *two*, etc., may also be used as nouns, as in the expression, *There are three twos in six*.

2. Words of indefinite meaning: *all*, *half*, *many*, *few*, *much*, *little*, *several*, *enough*.

In such expressions as, *A great many men*, *Full many a flower*, the modifying words, *A great many* and *Full many a*, are best parsed as **phrase adjectives**.

Demonstrative adjectives include:

1. The **article**. There are two articles: *an*, sometimes contracted into *a*, called the **indefinite article**; and *the*, called the **definite article**.

2. Ordinal numeral adjectives; as, *first*, *second*, *third*, used to point out which one of a series.

3. Words like *yon*, *yonder*; *this*, *that*; *these*, *those*, when used as adjectives.

The indefinite article *an*, derived from the numeral

one, is used in speaking of any one of the things for which the noun is the name ; as, *an orange*, *an old man*.

The form *an* is used before words beginning with a vowel sound ; as, *an apple*, *an heir*.

An drops the *n* and becomes *a* before a word beginning with a consonant sound, and with *u* when it has the force of *yu* ; as, *a man*, *a horse*, *a wire*, *a year*, *a university*.

Some writers, though by no means all, use *an* before vocal *h* where the accent falls on the second syllable of the word ; as, *an historical event*.

Where several objects are mentioned, each to be considered separately, the indefinite article should be repeated before each ; as,

*Leave not a foot of verse, a foot of stone,
A page, a grave, that they can call their own. — Pope.*

But where two or more nouns refer to the same person or thing, the indefinite article should precede only the first. *A king and a priest* refers to two different men. *A king and priest* means that one man holds both offices. By the same rule, *A black and a white horse*, means two different horses ; *a black and white horse*, means that both colors are to be found on the same horse.

As the indefinite article points out one thing of a kind or class, it should never be used with a word denoting a whole kind or class. We should never

say, *A silkworm is a kind of a caterpillar*, but, *A silkworm is a kind of caterpillar*.

Where a noun preceded by the indefinite article has two or more adjective modifiers, all of the same general meaning, the article should be prefixed only to the first ; as,

There is about the whole book a vehement, contentious, replying manner.

But when a marked distinction or emphasis is to be noted, the article should be repeated before each adjective ; as,

*He went like one that hath been stunned,
And is of sense forlorn ;
A sadder and a wiser man
He rose the morrow morn. — Coleridge.*

The definite article *the* has several uses :

1. To point out a particular object, or classes of objects ; as,

*The man that hath no music in himself,
Nor is not moved with concord of sweet sounds,
Is fit for treasons, stratagems, and spoils.*

— *Shakespeare.*

2. To point out some object previously known or mentioned ; as,

I can not agree with the editorial I read this morning.

3. To call attention to a proper noun, naming some distinguished person or thing ; as,

Shakespeare was the Homer of our dramatic literature.

We speak also of *the Smiths*, *the Macdonalds*, as members of the same clan or family; and of *the Hudson*, *the Alps*, *the Mediterranean*.

4. To indicate a whole class; as in the names of nations, *the French*, *the Spanish*, *the Scot*, *the Mexican*; in singular nouns used as terms in the natural sciences, *the geranium*, *the cat*, *the bear*; in the names of professions, as *the church*, *the bar*, *the army*.

5. With an adjective to form an equivalent for an abstract noun; as, *the true*, *the beautiful*.

When two or more nouns in apposition, or when two or more adjectives, modify the meaning of the same noun, the definite article, except for the sake of emphasis, is placed only before the first; as,

I received a visit from Mr. Richardson, the broker and real estate agent.

*If parts allure thee, think how Bacon shined,
The wisest, brightest, meanest of mankind. — Pope.*

When the adjectives do not describe one and the same thing, the article must be repeated if the noun is in the singular, or it must be placed before the first adjective only if the noun is in the plural; as, *The first and the second chapter of Genesis*, or, *The first and second chapters of Genesis*.

EXERCISE 49. — *In the following sentences insert the article where necessary, and give reasons for its insertion or omission:*

1. A cotton and silk umbrella were found.
2. A cotton and silk umbrella was found.
3. The carriage was broken; but neither the driver nor horse was injured.
4. The first and second examples are difficult.
5. The first and second example are difficult.
6. Lowell, the poet and scholar, was received cordially in England.
7. She wore a beautiful and costly gown at the ball.
8. Both the house and stable are for sale.
9. Which is the larger, the box or trunk?
10. A black and tan dog is running up the street.
11. Mr. Jones is a queer kind of man.

DEGREES OF COMPARISON

Adjectives are not inflected to express gender, person, or case; but qualitative and a few quantitative adjectives undergo changes to express the degree or relative amount of the quality or the quantity. These changes are called **degrees of comparison**.

There are three degrees of comparison: the **positive**, the **comparative**, and the **superlative**.

DEFINITION. — The **positive degree** is the simplest form of an adjective, and expresses merely the possession of a quality to some extent not specified.

A tall tree. A good man. A fast train.

DEFINITION. — The **comparative degree** of an adjective is the form of it that is used to denote that one thing or class of things has more or less of a certain quality than another thing or class of things.

*John is **stronger** than James.*

*Oranges are **less sour** than lemons.*

DEFINITION. — The **superlative degree** of an adjective is the form of it that is used to denote that one of three or more things or classes of things has the highest or the lowest degree of a certain quality.

*Diamonds are the **least perishable** of precious stones.*

*Jupiter is the **largest** of the planets.*

The following rules are given for forming the comparative and superlative degrees from the positive.

1. Adjectives of *one* syllable, and many adjectives of *two* syllables, usually add *er* to the positive to form the comparative, and *est* to form the superlative.

<i>Positive</i>	<i>Comparative</i>	<i>Superlative</i>
bright	brighter	brightest
happy	happier	happiest
able	abler	ablest
mellow	mellower	mellowest
genteel	genteeler	genteelest

The following orthographical changes should be noted :

(a) If the positive ends in *e* silent, only *r* and *st* are added :

brave braver bravest

(b) Adjectives ending in a single consonant preceded by a single vowel double the final consonant before *er* and *est*.

red	redder	reddest
big	bigger	biggest
hot	hotter	hottest

(c) If the positive ends in *y*, preceded by a consonant, the *y* is changed into *i* before *er* and *est*.

pretty	prettier	prettiest
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2. Adjectives of more than two syllables usually form the comparative and superlative degrees by prefixing *more* and *most*, or *less* and *least*, to the simple form of the adjective.

beautiful	<i>more</i> beautiful	<i>most</i> beautiful
cheerful	<i>less</i> cheerful	<i>least</i> cheerful

This last is not a true inflection, but a substitute for inflection. Some writers prefer the forms in *er* and *est* even for very long words. Thomas Carlyle uses *fruitfuller*, *powerfullest*, *inflammablest*. It is largely a matter of euphony.

In the older writers, double comparatives and superlatives, such as *more braver*, *most unkindest*, are used. These are now regarded as incorrect.

Some adjectives, few in number but of very frequent occurrence, are irregular in their comparison. The most important are given below :

<i>Positive</i>	<i>Comparative</i>	<i>Superlative</i>
good	better	best
bad, ill, or evil	worse	worst
little	less	least
much	more	most

<i>Positive</i>	<i>Comparative</i>	<i>Superlative</i>
many	more	most
late	later, latter	latest, last
far	farther	farthest
near	nearer	nearest
old	older, elder	oldest, eldest
forth, <i>adv.</i>	further	furthest
fore	former	foremost, first
hind	hinder	hindmost
in, <i>adv.</i>	inner	inmost, innermost
out, <i>adv.</i>	outer, utter	{ outmost, outermost, { utmost, uttermost
neath, <i>prep.</i>	nether	nethermost
up, <i>prep.</i>	upper	upmost, uppermost
nigh	nigher	nighest, next
top, <i>noun</i>		topmost

The double comparatives *worser* and *lesser* are now seldom used.

Older and *oldest* are used of both persons and things; *elder* and *eldest* of persons only; as, *My eldest sister*.

Former, *later*, *elder*, *upper*, *inner*, are now used principally to mark relations of space or time, seldom as comparatives.

Adjectives that in themselves express the highest degree of a quality, or that have no shades of meaning, are not compared; as, *supreme*, *extreme*, *eternal*, *infallible*, *perpendicular*, *dead*.

The *comparative* degree of an adjective is used when *two* things are compared; the *superlative*, when *more than two* are compared.

Of two such lessons, why forget

The nobler and the manlier one? — Byron.

This, though a good rule for beginners, is not always adhered to by writers of authority. Thackeray writes,

*This court had been the **most magnificent** of the two.*

When a comparative is used with *than*, the thing compared must always be excluded from the class of things with which it is compared.

Brazil is larger than all the countries of South America, should read, *Brazil is larger than all the **other**, etc.*

When a superlative is used, the class that furnishes the object of comparison, and that is introduced by *of*, should always include the thing compared.

*Brutus was the noblest Roman **of them all**.*

EXERCISE 50. — *From their sound determine the comparison of the following :*

amiable	harmful	simple	lovely
able	slender	horrible	limpid
beneficent	lazy	helpful	gentle
lively	cheery	sorry	intense
unkind	pretty	diligent	hideous
splendid	charming	beautiful	boastful

SUBSTITUTES FOR THE ADJECTIVE

The principal use of an adjective is to separate the thing we wish to talk about from other things having the same name. This purpose, however, may be served by other words or groups of words :

1. A noun or pronoun in the possessive case ; as,
A father's love = fatherly love.
My brother gave me his purse.
2. A noun in apposition ; as,
The conductor, Robert Spear, told me the story.
3. A noun used as an adjective ; as,
A gold crown ; the cotton manufactory.
4. An adjective phrase ; as,
A man of much learning ; a story in three chapters ; bread to eat.
5. An adjective clause ; as,
The house that Jack built. Bunyan was the man that wrote the "Pilgrim's Progress."

PARSING THE ADJECTIVE

In parsing an adjective, tell,

1. The class to which it belongs.
2. The degree of comparison.
3. The noun or pronoun whose meaning is modified.

EXERCISE 51. — *In the following selections, parse the adjectives ; point out all adjective phrases and clauses, and tell what each modifies :*

1. There is no kind of achievement you could make in the world that is equal to perfect health. — *Carlyle.*
2. Know ye the land where the cypress and myrtle
 Are emblems of deeds that are done in their clime,
 Where the rage of the vulture, the love of the turtle,
 Now melt into sorrow, now madden to crime ?
 — *Byron.*

3. In this country, where the rough and ready understanding of the people is sure at last to be the controlling power, a profound common sense is the best genius for statesmanship.

—*Lowell*.

4. However good you may be, you have faults; however dull you may be, you can find out what some of them are; and however slight they may be, you had better make some—not too painful, but patient—effort to get quit of them. —*J. Ruskin*.

5. I had read of the soothing companionship of the forest, the pleasure of the pathless woods; but I thought, as I stumbled along in the dismal actuality, that if ever I got out of it, I would write a letter to the newspapers exposing the whole thing. —*C. D. Warner*.

6. The rocks under water took on the most exquisite shades—purple and malachite and brown; the barnacles clung to them; the long seaweeds in half a dozen varieties, some in vivid colors, swept over them, flowing with the restless tide, like the long locks of a drowned woman's hair. —*C. D. Warner*.

7. Come, pensive nun, devout and pure,
Sober, steadfast, and demure,
All in a robe of darkest grain. —*Milton*.

8. We that are of purer fire,
Imitate the starry quire,
Who in their nightly watchful spheres
Lead in swift round the months and years.
The sounds and seas, with all their finny drove,
Now to the moon in wav'ring morrice move;
And on the tawny sands and shelves,
Trip the pert fairies and the dapper elves. —*Milton*.

THE VERB

DEFINITION. — A **verb** is a word used to say something about some person or thing.

The word that stands for the person or thing about which something is said is a noun or a pronoun in the nominative case, and is called, in analysis, the *subject noun* or the *subject pronoun*. As has already been stated, a phrase or a clause may take the place of a noun. It is often convenient to speak of a subject noun, pronoun, phrase, or clause, when considered apart from modifiers, simply as the *subject* of the verb.

A verb may tell us with regard to that about which something is said that it does something, as, *The sun rises*; or that it is in some state, as, *The sky is blue*; or that it has something done to it, as, *The prize is won*.

An **impersonal verb** has no determinate subject. The subject, not clearly present to the mind of the speaker, is indicated by the neuter pronoun *it*; as,

It rains. It snows. How dark it grows! How fares it with you?

Me lists = it pleases me, and *Methinks* = it seems to me, are impersonal verbs. (See p. 93.)

CLASSES OF VERBS

According to their uses in sentences, verbs are divided into two great classes: **transitive** and **intransitive**.

DEFINITION. — A **transitive verb** is a verb expressing action that is received by some person or thing.

The artist painted a beautiful landscape.

This picture was painted by Millet.

The word *transitive* comes from the Latin *transire*, to pass over. The action is supposed to pass from the agent or actor to the person or thing acted upon. In the first example given above, the thing acted upon is expressed by the word *landscape*, which is called the *object noun*. In the second example the *subject noun*, *picture*, expresses the thing acted upon.

Some verbs appear to take two objects; as, *I told him the news*. Here, *news* is the direct **object** and *him* is the equivalent of an adverbial phrase, *to him*, and may be parsed as the *indirect object*. (See p. 37.)

DEFINITION. — An **intransitive verb** is a verb expressing being or state, or action not received by any person or thing.

Water is a fluid. The babe sleeps. The sun shines.

A verb that is usually transitive may become intransitive; and an intransitive verb, transitive:

1. Some verbs are used both transitively and intransitively; as,

Transitive

Intransitive

The boy flies a kite.

The eagle flies.

The driver walked his horse.

The man walked.

The girl ran a needle into her finger.

The horse ran away.

He speaks many languages.

He speaks slowly.

In all cases, the sense must determine whether the verb is transitive or intransitive.

2. A verb, otherwise transitive, becomes intransitive when the action is done to the agent, and a reflexive pronoun is omitted; as,

Transitive

Intransitive

The sea broke the ship to pieces.

The sea broke (itself) on the rocks.

The cook turns the meat.

The needle turns (itself) to the pole.

The fishermen spread their nets in the sun.

The clouds spread (themselves) over the sky.

3. Some verbs, usually transitive, may be made intransitive by adding predicate adjectives; as,

<i>Transitive</i>	<i>Intransitive</i>
<i>The butcher cuts the meat.</i>	<i>The meat cuts tough.</i>
<i>The boy is eating the cakes.</i>	<i>The cakes eat short and crisp.</i>
<i>She tastes the milk.</i>	<i>The milk tastes sour.</i>

4. A verb usually intransitive may be made transitive by the addition of a preposition, either separately or in composition; as,

<i>Intransitive</i>	<i>Transitive</i>
<i>He laughed.</i>	<i>He laughed at me.</i>
<i>He looked.</i>	<i>He overlooked the work.</i>

5. Some verbs, usually intransitive, become transitive when followed by nouns of like meaning; as,

<i>Intransitive</i>	<i>Transitive</i>
<i>He died.</i>	<i>He died the death of the righteous.</i>
<i>She sleeps.</i>	<i>She sleeps the sleep of the innocent.</i>
<i>The boy ran.</i>	<i>The boy ran a race.</i>

Some verbs appear to be used transitively when such is not the case; as in the sentence, *He ran a mile*. Here *mile* is not the object of *ran*, but an adverbial objective, or part of an adverbial phrase, a preposition being understood: *He ran for a mile*.

Some intransitive verbs may form the predicates of sentences without the help of any other word or words; as,

*The baby **creeps**. The rose **blooms**.*

Some other intransitive verbs can not form the predicates of sentences without the addition of a *predicate complement*. Such verbs are called **incomplete intransitives** or **copulative verbs**.

The complement may be a noun, a pronoun, an adjective, a phrase, or a clause.

He is my brother.

It is I.

The prisoner was guilty.

The milk tastes sour.

Some verbs in the passive voice (see p. 134) are used as incomplete intransitives or copulative verbs ; as,

He was considered honest.

He was elected President.

In the foregoing sentences *honest* is a predicate adjective and *President* is a predicate noun.

DEFINITION. — A **copulative verb** is an intransitive verb that is used to unite a subject with a predicate adjective or with a predicate noun or pronoun.

EXERCISE 52. — *Tell which verbs are transitive and which intransitive ; and mention the object when the verb is transitive.*

1. The eye that sees all things can not see itself.
2. The unfortunate man will never see again.
3. My dog has run away.
4. This man has run the same engine for twenty years.
5. Mary can knit and embroider very well.
6. She knits stockings for the children and embroiders collars for herself.
7. On account of my cold I do not hear well.
8. Could you not hear what the lecturer said ?
9. The bell has been tolling for an hour.
10. The sexton is tolling the bell.

INFLECTIONS

Since the verb is the part of speech used to say something about some person or thing, it is evident that the assertion may be made under various conditions as to the actor and the receiver of the action, the intention of the speaker, the time referred to, the number of persons or things concerned, and the person (grammatical) of the subject.

Verbs are inflected to express these various conditions or relations, which are called respectively **voice**, **mode**, **tense**, **number**, and **person**. These are sometimes spoken of as the *properties* of the verb.

Few of these inflections are true inflections. Most of them are made by the use of helping or *auxiliary* verbs; that is, verbs that drop their own meaning for the time being, and aid in expressing the meaning of the principal verb.

VOICE

DEFINITION. — **Voice** is that form of a transitive verb which shows whether the subject denotes the actor or the receiver of the action.

Only transitive verbs are inflected for voice. They have two voices — the **active** and the **passive**.

DEFINITION. — A transitive verb is in the **active voice** when its subject denotes the doer of the action.

Cæsar defeated Pompey.

Here Cæsar, the subject of the verb *defeated*, denotes the actor; and, consequently, the verb is said to be in the active voice.

DEFINITION. — A transitive verb is in the **passive voice** when its subject denotes the receiver of the action.

Pompey was defeated by Cæsar.

Here the subject, *Pompey*, denotes the receiver of the action; and consequently the verb, *was defeated*, is in the passive voice.

By studying the foregoing examples, it will be seen that the object of the verb in the active voice becomes the subject when the verb is changed to the passive voice.

When the verb in the active voice is followed by a direct and an indirect object, either one may become the subject of the verb in the passive voice. *I told him the news* may be changed either to *The news was told him*, or to *He was told the news*. In all such sentences as the two examples just given, the noun or pronoun following the verb in the passive voice is in the objective case, and is the equivalent of an adverbial phrase.

Verbs usually intransitive, when made transitive by the addition of a preposition, take the passive voice; as,

He was laughed at by James.

In English there are no inflections for the passive voice. It is expressed by prefixing the various parts of the verb *be* to the past participle of the verb. (See p. 170.)

EXERCISE 53. — *Express the sense of the following sentences by using where possible the passive voice instead of the active:*

1. Fear tied his tongue.
2. Fire once destroyed the city of Chicago.
3. Something attempted, something done,
Has earned a night's repose.
4. Summer flowers fringe the dusty road with harmless gold.
5. Attention held them mute.
6. His eloquence had struck them dumb.
7. Thy sharp lightning, in unpracticed hands,
Scorches and burns our once serene domain.
8. Each thought of the woman who loved him the best.
9. Once a dream did weave a shade
O'er my angel-guarded bed.
10. Not a soldier discharged his farewell shot
O'er the grave where our hero we buried.

MODE

DEFINITION. — **Mode**, or **mood**, is a form or use of a verb that indicates the manner in which the action or state is to be regarded.

An action may be regarded as a fact, as a command, or as merely thought of.

Hence we distinguish three modes: 1. *The Indicative Mode*. 2. *The Imperative Mode*. 3. *The Subjunctive Mode*.

DEFINITION. — The **indicative mode** is that form or use of a verb by which it expresses a statement or a supposition as a fact, or asks a question.

*God **scatters** love on every side
Truly among his children all. — J. R. Lowell.*

*Breathes there the man with soul so dead
Who never to himself hath said
This is my own, my native land?*

—Sir Walter Scott.

Though he is wealthy, he is not a gentleman.

DEFINITION. — The **imperative mode** is that form or use of a verb by which it expresses a command, a request, or an exhortation.

Go away.

Give me that book, if you please.

Go thou and do likewise.

As a verb in the imperative mode is always addressed to some one, the subject is the personal pronoun of the second person, generally understood, as in the first two examples given above: *Go* (you) *away*. *Give* (you) *me*.

DEFINITION. — The **subjunctive mode** is that form or use of a verb by which it expresses a statement or a supposition, not as a fact, but as merely *thought of*.

The word *subjunctive* is derived from the Latin *sub*, *under*, and *junctus*, *joined*, and the mode is so called because it is most frequently used in a clause that is joined in a dependent way to a principal clause.

A verb in the subjunctive mode is generally, though not always, introduced by one of the subordinating conjunctions, *if*, *though*, *unless*, *except*, *lest*, *that*, and the like. The conjunction, however, is not a part of the verb, nor is the subjunctive mode always used after one of these conjunctions.

The *subjunctive mode* may express :

1. A future event about which we are uncertain.

*Though he **slay** me, yet will I trust him.
Take heed, lest thou **fall**.*

2. A wish.

*I wish he **were** here.
Thy kingdom **come**.*

3. An intention.

*The sentence is that you **be fined** ten dollars.*

4. A condition regarded as untrue or as uncertain.

***Had** he **been killed**, it would have been better.
Should it **rain**, I shall not come.*

5. A consequence that is untrue or uncertain because a condition is untrue or uncertain.

***Had** he **followed** my advice, he **would** now **be** rich.
Should he **follow** my advice, he **would become** rich.*

Three points should be carefully noted by the student :

1. From the fact that a verb is in a conditional clause, it does not necessarily follow that it is in the subjunctive mode. Whenever the condition is regarded as true, the verb is in the indicative mode ; as,

SUBJUNCTIVE MODE. *If the earth **were** flat, men could not sail around it.*

INDICATIVE MODE. *If the earth **is** round, men can sail around it.*

In the first sentence the earth's flatness is something merely thought of, not assumed as a fact; in the second, the earth's rotundity is assumed as a fact.

SUBJUNCTIVE MODE: *Though the boy's coat were of silk, he would soil it.*

INDICATIVE MODE: *Though the boy's coat was made of silk, he soiled it.*

In the first sentence we speak of a possible, in the second, of an actual, coat.

2. A verb in the subjunctive mode is not always preceded by a conjunction expressing doubt or uncertainty. When the conjunction is absent, however, the verb is either placed before its subject; as,

***Were** I he, I should go;*

or the subject is placed after the first auxiliary, if the verb consists of two or more words; as,

***Had** he **been** prudent, he would now be alive.*

3. The tendency of modern English is to drop the use of the subjunctive mode, and to substitute the indicative.

EXERCISE 54. — *Make four sentences, each containing a verb in the indicative mode.*

Make four sentences, each containing a verb in the imperative mode.

Make five sentences, each containing a verb in the subjunctive mode.

EXERCISE 55. — *Give the mode of each verb printed in italics.*

1. Though he *lost* the battle, he did not lose honor.
2. Though he *lose* his life, he will not lose his honor.
3. If thou *go*, see that thou *offend* not.
4. Though you *fail* at first, *try* again.
5. Though William *is* tall, he is young.
6. If he *were* not so tall, less *would be expected* of him.
7. I do beseech ye, if you *bear* me hard,
Now, whilst your purpled hands *do reek and smoke*,
Fulfill your pleasure. — *Shakespeare*.
8. But *were* I Brutus,
And Brutus Antony, there *were* an Antony
Would ruffle up your spirits.

EXERCISE 56. — *Tell the mode of each verb in the following sentences, and give the reason for your opinion:*

1. Weep no more, woeful shepherds, weep no more,
For Lycidas your sorrow is not dead,
Sunk though he be beneath the wat'ry floor;
So sinks the day star in the ocean bed,
And yet anon repairs his drooping head,
And tricks his beams, and with new-spangled ore
Flames in the forehead of the morning sky. — *Milton*.
2. O, I could weep
My spirit from mine eyes! There is my dagger,
And here my naked breast; within, a heart
Dearer than Plutus' mine, richer than gold:
If that thou be'st a Roman, take it forth;
I, that denied thee gold, will give my heart:
Strike, as thou didst at Cæsar; for I know,
When thou didst hate him worst, thou lov'dst him better
Than ever thou lov'dst Cassius. — *Shakespeare*.

3. "He rushes to the fray," said Rebecca, "as if he were summoned to a banquet. There is more than mere strength; there seems as if the whole soul and spirit of the champion were given to every blow which he deals upon his enemies. God assoilzie him for the sin of bloodshed!"

TENSE

DEFINITION. — **Tense** is a form or use of the verb that indicates the time to which the action or state is referred, and also the completeness or incompleteness of the action or state at that time.

As three divisions of time may be thought of, *time present*, *time past*, and *time future*, so there are three principal *tenses* — the *present tense*, the *past tense*, and the *future tense*.

Present Tense

I walk.

Past Tense

I walked.

Future Tense

I shall walk.

Tense is denoted in two ways:

1. By the form of the verb itself. This occurs only in the simplest form of the present and past tenses.

PRESENT TENSE: *I run, play, see.*

PAST TENSE: *I ran, played, saw.*

2. By the aid of certain forms of other verbs called *auxiliary verbs*. The phrases thus made are called *verb phrases*. The following are some examples of verb phrases:

PRESENT TENSE: *I am walking.*

PAST TENSE: *I was walking.*

FUTURE TENSE: *I shall be walking.*

An action or state may be stated with reference to time present, past, or future, in four ways:

1. As **indefinite**; that is, without regard to whether it is complete or incomplete.

I walk. I walked. I shall walk.

2. As **progressive** or **incomplete**.

I am walking. I was walking. I shall be walking.

3. As **perfect** or **complete**.

I have walked. I had walked. I shall have walked.

4. As **continuous up to** or **before some other time mentioned or implied**.

I have been walking. I had been walking. I shall have been walking.

These variations of tense may be displayed in tabular form, thus :

TENSE	INDEFINITE	PROGRESSIVE OR CONTINUOUS	PERFECT	PERFECT PROGRESSIVE
PRESENT	I walk.	I am walking.	I have walked.	I have been walking.
PAST	I walked.	I was walking.	I had walked.	I had been walking.
FUTURE	I shall walk.	I shall be walking.	I shall have walked.	I shall have been walking.

PRIMARY TENSES

A tense is present, past, or future, with reference to time ; indefinite, progressive, or perfect, with reference to completeness or incompleteness of action. Accordingly, twelve tense forms may be distinguished.

Six of these tenses are usually called **primary tenses**: The **present**, the **past**, the **present perfect**, the **past perfect**, the **future**, the **future perfect**.

The *present indefinite*, called *the present*, is used in various ways:

1. It states what actually takes place.

*I sit beneath the elm's protecting shadow,
Whose graceful form
Shelters from sunshine warm;
While far around me, in the heated meadow,
The busy insects swarm.*
— James Freeman Clark.

2. It indicates what is customary.

*So when a good man dies,
For years beyond our ken
The light he leaves behind him lies
Upon the paths of men. — Longfellow.
The mountains look on Marathon,
And Marathon looks on the sea. — Byron.*

3. It is used for the future when the context shows that future time is referred to, or in the case of events expected immediately; as,

*Duncan comes here to-night. — Shakespeare.
. . . When I am forgotten, as I shall be,
And sleep in dull cold marble, when no mention
Of me more must be heard of. — Shakespeare.*

4. It is sometimes used in describing past events to make the description more vivid; as,

*A cloud of smoke envelops either host,
And, all at once, the combatants are lost. — Dryden.*

5. It is used of an author saying or stating something in his books ; as,

Shakespeare says :

“ *Her voice was ever soft,
Gentle and low ; an excellent thing in woman.* ”

The passive form of the present is shown in the following sentences :

I am taught. I am loved.

The *past indefinite tense*, called *the past*, *I taught*, *I loved*, expresses an action occurring before the present, without reference to duration of time ; as,

I ate a peach yesterday. In the beginning God created the heaven and the earth.

It is also used to express what was customary at a former period ; as,

Much as he (the Indian) loved war, the fair and open fight had no charms for him. — MacMaster.

The *present perfect tense* expresses (1) an action just finished ; (2) an action done in a space of time not yet exhausted ; (3) something whose consequences still remain :

(1) *I have sent the letter ; The messenger has come.* (2) *It has rained all the week* (up to this time) ; *We have seen great events this year.* (3) *I have been a great sinner* (meaning I was so in my youth, and now I bear the consequences).

The form in the passive voice is shown in the following sentence :

I have been taught.

The *past perfect tense* shows that the action was complete before a certain time or before another action was commenced : *I had loved, I had taught.*

*Yesterday at three o'clock I had completed my work.
Before my arrival, he had departed.*

The form in the passive voice is shown in the following :

I had been taught, I had been loved.

The *future indefinite tense*, called the *future*, expresses an action referred as a whole to future time :

I shall teach ; I shall love.

The form in the passive voice is shown in the following :

I shall be taught ; I shall be loved.

The *future perfect tense* expresses an action supposed to be complete at some future time :

I shall have taught ; I shall have loved.

In a few years my son will have completed his college course.

The form in the passive voice is shown in the following :

I shall have been taught ; I shall have been loved.

SECONDARY TENSES

The *progressive forms*, sometimes called **secondary tenses**, represent the action as continuous in present, past, or future time :

	<i>Active</i>	<i>Passive</i>
PRESENT:	I am teaching.	I am being taught.
PRESENT PERFECT:	I have been teaching.	_____
PAST:	I was teaching.	I was being taught.
PAST PERFECT:	I had been teaching.	_____
FUTURE:	I shall or will be teaching.	_____
FUTURE PERFECT:	I shall or will have been teaching.	_____

A verb in the indicative mood has all the tenses.

EXERCISE 57. — *Give the tense of each verb in the following sentences, and explain the difference in meanings between the sentences of each group :*

1. I lived here for a year. I have lived here for a year.
2. I have spent all my money. Yesterday I spent all my money.
3. A previous engagement will prevent my acceptance of your invitation. A previous engagement prevents my acceptance of your invitation.
4. I lost my book when we went to the new house. I had lost my book when we went to the new house.
5. I shall write to you when he comes. I shall have written to you when he comes.
6. She sings as she works. She is singing as she works.

NUMBER AND PERSON

A verb is said to *agree* with its subject in number and person ; that is, it is said to be *singular* or *plural*, and *first*, *second*, or *third person*, according to the number and person of its subject.

Observe the following rules :

1. A plural subject takes a verb in the plural, as, *We **are** successful*; a singular subject takes a verb in the singular, as, *I **am** your brother*.

2. When the subject contains two or more nouns joined by *and*, the verb must be plural; as, *Mary and Jane **are** sisters*.

3. When the subject contains two or more singular nouns joined by *or*, *either* — *or*, or *neither* — *nor*, the verb must be singular; as, *Either John or James **is** the culprit*. *Neither the butcher nor the baker **has** called*.

4. A collective noun, when singular in form, may take a verb in the plural if the speaker is thinking of separate things; as, *A herd of cattle **were** grazing in the field*. If, however, the multitude is thought of as one thing, the verb should be in the singular; as, *The herd **was** sold for \$2000*.

We may say either *The committee **reports***, or *The committee **report***.

In olden times, the verb had several inflections to mark number and person. Now, except in the verb *to be*, there are only two:

1. *Est*, *st*, or *t*, to form the second person singular of the present and past tenses of the indicative mode; as,

PRESENT: *walk**est**, can**st***.

PAST: *spak**est**, call**edst**, was**t***.

2. *Es* or *s*, and the now little used terminations *eth* or *th*, used to form the third person singular present tense of the indicative mode; as,

PRESENT: *calle**th**, do**eth***.

*call**s**, do**es**, search**es***.

In the tenses of the subjunctive mode, the inflection for the third person, singular, is omitted altogether; and the inflection for the second person, singular, is found only in the forms *shouldst*, *wouldst*, and *wert*.

The second person, singular, is now used only in poetry and in solemn or pathetic prose; as,

Happy season of childhood! . . . kind Nature, thou *art* to all a bountiful mother; that *visitest* the poor man's hut with auroral radiance; and for thy nursling *hast provided* a soft swathing of Love and infinite Hope, wherein he waxes and slumbers, danced round by sweetest Dreams!—*Thomas Carlyle, Sartor Resartus*.

A verb in the *imperative mode* is used in but one person, the second.

EXERCISE 58.—*Make sentences containing verbs in the following forms :*

1. First person, singular, present, indicative.
2. First person, plural, perfect, indicative.
3. Third person, singular, present, indicative.
4. Third person, plural, past, indicative.
5. Third person, singular, past perfect, indicative.
6. Second person, singular, present, indicative.
7. Third person, singular, past, indicative.

EXERCISE 59.—*In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences and parse the verbs :*

Observe the flower that Midas has touched.

(A complex imperative sentence)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>You</i> (understood)	pronoun.
VERB	<i>observe</i>	transitive, active, imperative, present, second plural.
OBJECT WORD	<i>flower</i>	noun.
MODIFIERS OF OBJECT WORD	<i>{ the that Midas has touched }</i>	adjective. adjective clause.

(Adjective clause)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>Midas</i>	noun.
VERB	<i>has touched</i>	transitive, active, indicative, present perfect, third, singular.
OBJECT WORD	<i>that</i>	pronoun.

Observe the flower that Midas has touched. It looks as stiff and hard as the products of the goldsmith's skill. If it had the gift of speech, it would tell a mournful tale. It would say, "O Mortals, hearken to me, and from my fate learn wisdom. I was endowed by the gods with beauty, with fragrance, with life. I was courted by the bee and the butterfly, and the birds of the air sang their best songs in my honor. Men called me the queen of flowers. Oh! that I had been content with a lot so happy! If I had known the value of the gifts I have lost, I should never have wished for anything less precious. But in the hand of a statue in the garden was a rose,—a marble rose, whose petals were never stirred by the wind nor bruised by the rain. We had been told that this flower had lain in the hand of the statue year after year, that it would lie there forever, while the frail, living things in the garden would

last but a single summer. I envied the marble rose. I prayed the gods that they would place me too beyond the reach of death. Alas! my wish has been granted, but at the sacrifice of all that makes life dear."

VERBALS

There is a class of words having some of the functions of verbs combined with the functions of other parts of speech. They are called *verbals*. Verbals are not verbs, for they do not assert anything; but they have the form of verbs, and their modifiers and complements are similar to those of verbs.

*This horse likes **to go** fast.*

***Playing** golf is fine sport.*

***Holding** the flag aloft, he marched along.*

There are two classes of verbals :

1. Infinitives.
2. Participles.

INFINITIVES

Grammarians used to regard the infinitive as a verb in the infinitive (from Latin *in*, *not*, and *finis*, *limit*) mode; that is, as a verb not limited as to person and number by its subject. The infinitive mode was defined as that form or use of the verb by which action or state is named after the manner of a noun.

***To see** is **to believe**.*

***We desire** **to be** honored.*

In only one case is the infinitive really a mode — that in which it is preceded by a subject, a noun or pronoun in the objective case; as, *He advised him to proceed.* In all other cases the infinitive is used as a noun, an adjective, or an adverb, and should be classed among verbals.

INFINITIVE AS NOUN: *To hear is to obey.*

INFINITIVE AS ADJECTIVE MODIFIER: *We have furniture to sell.*

INFINITIVE AS ADVERBIAL MODIFIER: *I am glad to go.*

Infinitives may have the same complements and modifiers as the verbs from which they are derived.

To rest while all others work is not easy.

We are commanded to love our enemies.

It is our duty to be faithful.

In the foregoing sentences the infinitive *to rest* is modified by the adverbial clause, *while all others work*; the word *enemies* is the object noun of the infinitive *to love*; and the infinitive *to be* is completed by the adjective *faithful*.

The infinitive with its modifiers and complements is called an *infinitive phrase*. The infinitive or the infinitive phrase may be used for various purposes in a sentence:

1. As a noun phrase forming the subject.

To climb steep hills requires slow pace at first.

— *Shakespeare.*

2. As a noun phrase forming the object of a verb.

I like to walk.

3. As a noun phrase forming the predicate complement.

To see is to believe.

4. As a noun phrase in apposition with a pronoun.

It is easy to make mistakes.

5. As part of a noun phrase used as the object of a verb.

The teacher told her scholars to sing.

In this construction the noun or pronoun that precedes the infinitive is said to be its subject, and is parsed as in the objective case.

6. As an adverbial phrase modifying the meaning of a verb, an adverb, or an adjective.

The sower went forth to sow.

I am glad to hear this.

7. As an adjective phrase.

Water to drink is scarce.

8. As an adjective phrase forming the complement of a verb.

The governor's authority is to be supported.

The infinitive has two forms ; as, *to sit* and *to have sat* ; and, in the case of infinitives formed from transitive verbs, has forms for both the active and the passive voice ; as, *to love*, *to be loved* ; *to have loved*, *to have been loved*.

The preposition *to* is called *the sign of the infinitive*, but it is often omitted, especially after the verbs *may, can, must, bid, dare, feel, hear, see, let, make, need*, etc.

*He **dared** not **attempt** the journey.*

*You **make** me **think** ill of you.*

EXERCISE 60. — *Change the following complex sentences to simple by substituting infinitive phrases for the subordinate clauses :*

COMPLEX: *There is a time when we may sow and a time when we may reap.*

SIMPLE: *There is a time to sow and a time to reap.*

1. I was much gratified when I heard your promise.
2. You will be amused when you read my report.
3. I was greatly encouraged because I heard you say so.
4. This fort was erected that the harbor might be defended.
5. Is there any evidence by which this charge is supported ?
6. That peace may be preserved, I will drop the subject.
7. The new minister was anxious that he might promote reforms.
8. We were sorry that we parted with him.
9. The cargo was thrown over, that the ship might be lightened.
10. The wind was so strong that it drove the vessel ashore.
11. What have we done that we should be treated so ?
12. They will do their utmost that they may prevent his election.
13. The ship is so near the shore that it is in danger.

EXERCISE 61. — *In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences and parse the verbs and the infinitives :*

It is useless to assume airs of superiority.

(A simple declarative sentence)

SUBJECT	<i>it</i>	pronoun.
VERB	<i>is</i>	copulative, indicative, present, third, singular.
PREDICATE COMPLEMENT	<i>useless</i>	adjective.
MODIFIER OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>to assume airs of superiority</i>	noun phrase in apposition with <i>it</i> .

(Noun phrase)

PRINCIPAL PART	<i>to assume</i>	infinitive, transitive, active, present.
OBJECT WORD	<i>airs</i>	noun.
MODIFIER OF OBJECT WORD	<i>of superiority</i>	adjective phrase.

1. To obey is better than to be punished.
2. It is useless to inquire.
3. The mother rejoiced to hear of her son's success.
4. I am sorry to hear it.
5. The colonel ordered the soldiers to march.
6. It is a sin to speak deceitfully.
7. The children had a long lesson to learn.
8. To hesitate is to be lost.
9. To know what is best to do, and how best to do it, is wisdom.
10. I tried to remember what I had read about encounters with bears.

11. To rifle a caravan is a crime, though to steal a continent is a glory.

12. That fellow seems to me to possess but one idea, and that is a wrong one. — *S. Johnson*.

13. Foreigners do not feel easy in America, because there are no peasants and underlings here to be humble to them.

— *Lowell*.

14. I tried to think what is the best way to kill a bear with a gun, when you are not near enough to club him with the stock.

15. The foot is arched longitudinally and transversely, so as to give it elasticity, and thus break the sudden shock when the weight of the body is thrown upon it. — *O. W. Holmes*.

16. Unpracticed he to fawn, or seek for power,
By doctrines fashioned to the varying hour;
Far other aims his heart had learned to prize,
More skilled to raise the wretched than to rise.

— *Goldsmith*.

17. Truth from his lips prevailed with double sway,
And fools, who came to scoff, remained to pray.

PARTICIPLES

Participles, like infinitives, are not verbs, for they do not assert anything; but they have the form of verbs, and their modifiers and complements are similar to those of verbs.

Singing softly, the child sewed the long seam.

Seizing the flag, the soldier rushed forward.

Being a soldier, I must obey.

In the foregoing sentences the participle *singing* is modified by the adverb *softly*; the word *flag* is the object noun of the participle *seizing*; and the noun *soldier* is the complement of the participle *being*.

The word *participle* comes from the Latin *participere*, to share, partake. It is so called because it partakes of the functions of a verb and of a noun or an adjective.

PARTICIPLE AS NOUN: *Going to school is pleasant.*

PARTICIPLE AS ADJECTIVE MODIFIER: *The man, bowing, withdrew.*

The participle with its modifiers and complements is called a *participial phrase*.

A participle or a participial phrase is used :

1. As a noun phrase forming the subject.

Taking photographs is a pleasant occupation.

2. As a noun phrase forming the object of a verb.

I could not prevent his running away.

3. As a noun phrase forming the object of a preposition.

He was reported for whispering in school.

4. As a noun phrase forming the predicate complement.

The cat lies dozing before the fire.

5. As an adjective phrase.

Seeing the dog, he turned away.

The work being easily done, the men were soon released.

The whole phrase, *the work being easily done*, is adverbial, but the participial phrase, *being easily done*, is adjective, modifying the noun *work* (nominative absolute).

A participle used as a noun is called a ***noun participle***. A participle used as an adjective is called an ***adjective participle***.

The participle that is used as a noun is called by some grammarians the *gerund* and by others the *infinitive in ing*. It is almost similar to the infinitive in meaning.

The participle has *three forms* :

1. The **present or imperfect participle** ending in *ing*, which expresses the action or state as being still incomplete or in progress ; as,

Toiling, rejoicing, sorrowing,

Onward through life he goes. — Longfellow.

New Morn, her rosy steps in the eastern clime

Advancing, *strewed the earth with orient pearl.*

— *Milton.*

2. The **past participle**, formed in several ways, which expresses the action or state as completed.

Something accomplished, something done,

Has earned a night's repose. — Longfellow.

Ye mind me of departed joys,

Departed *never to return. — Burns.*

3. The **perfect participle**, which expresses action just completed or still continuing in its effects ; as,

Having packed his trunk, *he was ready to depart.*

Participles derived from transitive verbs have forms for the active and the passive voice.

ACTIVE: *The host, **greeting** the visitor cordially, ushered him into the hall. The host, **having greeted** the visitor cordially, ushered him into the hall.*

PASSIVE: *The visitor, **greeted** cordially by the host, was ushered into the hall. The visitor, **having been greeted** cordially by the host, was ushered into the hall.*

There are some words formed from verbs which are easily mistaken for participles. They are mere nouns or adjectives. Unlike participles, they can neither be modified by adverbs nor completed by nouns, pronouns, or adjectives.

*The **cackling** of geese saved Rome.
We saw several **shooting** stars.*

EXERCISE 62.—*Note when the form in **ing** is a noun participle, when it is an adjective participle, and when it is a noun.*

1. Our united efforts could not prevent his going.
2. Instead of reasoning more forcibly, he talked more loudly.
3. We considered the best methods of raising money; or, more properly speaking, what we could most conveniently sell.
4. Wandering from place to place, she patiently waited her lover.
5. Who has not heard the crying of the children?
6. "Sirrah," replied the spider, "if it were not for breaking an old custom, I should come to teach you better manners."
7. Reading and writing are indispensable in education.
8. He spent hours in correcting and polishing a single couplet.
9. The groaning of prisoners and the clanking of chains were heard.

10. Besides the nets made by spiders to ensnare insects, some species have the power of running out a long thread, which answers the purpose of a balloon in raising them from the ground and carrying them floating a long distance in the air. — *E. S. Morse.*

EXERCISE 63. — *Change the following complex sentences to simple by substituting participial phrases for the subordinate clauses :*

COMPLEX: *The house that my father owns is pleasantly located.*

SIMPLE: *The house owned by my father is pleasantly located.*

1. He poured the wine into the only bottles that remained.
2. I shall console myself with the thought that I have deserved success.
3. As soon as we had received the news, we set out.
4. Yesterday was decided the greatest question which was ever debated in America.
5. After the plant has put out its leaves, it bears flowers.
6. As the little girl turned away, she wept bitterly.
7. After he had conquered the world, Alexander sighed for more worlds to conquer.
8. I was reproved because I had lost the book.
9. I can not help it that he dislikes me.
10. Many persons who have conquered their anger can not conquer their pride.

EXERCISE 64. — *In accordance with the model, analyze the following sentences, and parse the infinitives and the participles :*

Imperial Cæsar, dead and turned to clay,

Might stop a hole to keep the wind away.

(A simple declarative sentence)

SUBJECT WORD	<i>Cæsar</i>	noun.
VERB	<i>might stop</i>	
OBJECT WORD	<i>hole</i>	noun.
MODIFIERS OF SUBJECT WORD	<i>{ imperial</i>	adjective.
	<i>dead</i>	adjective.
	<i>turned to clay</i>	adjective phrase.
CONNECTIVE	<i>and</i>	conjunction.
MODIFIER OF VERB	<i>to keep the wind away</i>	adverbial phrase.
MODIFIER OF OBJECT WORD	<i>a</i>	adjective.

(Adjective phrase)

PRINCIPAL PART	<i>turned</i>	adjective participle, transitive, passive, past.
MODIFIER OF PRINCIPAL PART	<i>to clay</i>	adverbial phrase.

(Adverbial phrase)

PRINCIPAL PART	<i>to keep</i>	infinitive, transitive, active, present.
OBJECT WORD	<i>wind</i>	noun.
MODIFIER OF PRINCIPAL PART	<i>away</i>	adverb.
MODIFIER OF OBJECT WORD	<i>the</i>	adjective.

1. Slow rises worth by poverty depressed.
2. You have condemned and noted Lucius Pella for taking bribes here of the Sardians.
3. The poet's eye, in a fine frenzy rolling,
Doth glance from heaven to earth.
4. The heights by great men gained and kept
Were not attained by sudden flight.
5. Nothing is so infectious as example, and we never do great good or evil without producing the like.
6. Haste and rashness are storms and tempests, breaking and wrecking business; but nimbleness is a full, fair wind, blowing it with speed to haven.
7. It is no more possible for an idle man to keep together a certain stock of knowledge than it is possible to keep together a stock of ice exposed to the meridian sun. Every day destroys a fact, a relation, or an influence; and the only method of preserving the bulk and value of the pile is by constantly adding to it.

VERB PHRASES

We have learned that the verb in the predicate of a sentence often consists of two or more words, which, taken together, have the force of a single verb. All such compound expressions may be called **verb phrases**. Most verb phrases are made up of *auxiliary verbs* and the infinitives or participles of *notional verbs*; as, *have gone, shall go, am going*.

A verb is called a **notional verb** when it retains its full meaning; as, *I write, I take a book*.

A verb is called an **auxiliary verb** when it serves merely to help in expressing the meaning of a notional verb; as, *I have bought a book*.

FORMATION OF TENSES

Only two tenses may be formed without the help of auxiliary verbs; namely, the present and the past.

1. The *present* is usually the simple form of the verb; as, *I run, walk, swim.*

2. The *past* is formed in two ways:

(a) By a change in the body of the word; as *I write, I wrote.* Verbs of this kind are called by some grammarians **strong verbs**; by others, **irregular verbs**.

(b) By adding *d*, *ed*, or *t* to the present; as, *I love, loved; walk, walked; express, expressed or expressedt.* By some grammarians these are called **weak verbs**; by others, **regular verbs**.

The termination *t* may be used instead of *d* or *ed* when the present ends in *s*, or other hissing sound.

3. The *perfect tenses*, except in the progressive form, are formed by means of the present, past, and future of *have*, followed by the past participle; as, *I have written, had written, shall have written.*

4. The *progressive tenses* are formed by the parts of the verb *be*, followed by the imperfect participle; as, *I am writing, was writing, have been writing, shall be writing.*

5. The *future tenses* are formed by means of the auxiliary verbs *shall* and *will*, followed by the infinitive; as, *I shall write, shall have written.*

Care should be taken to use *shall* and *will* correctly.

Shall originally meant to *owe*; as in the words of Chaucer: *That faith I shall (I owe) to God*. Hence the word still involves something of the idea of obligation.

Will involves the idea of wish or intention, and is more appropriate in the first person as expressing the choice, intent, or decision of the speaker:

I will speak = It is my intention to speak.

In using *shall* and *will* we should observe the following:

(a) *Shall* is used with subjects of the first person to express simple futurity.

I shall be glad to go with you. We shall be sorry to have you go.

(b) *Will* is used with subjects of the second and third persons to express simple futurity.

You will find the book on the table. He will be glad to receive it.

(c) *Will* is used with subjects of the first person to express determination or a promise.

We will work with all our might.

(d) *Shall* is used with subjects of the second and third persons to express determination on the part of the *speaker*.

You shall not do it; I will prevent you. John has been so industrious he shall have a reward.

(e) In asking a question we use *shall* or *will* with subjects of the second and third persons, according as we expect *shall* or *will* in the answer.

Shall you be sorry to leave school? I shall. Will you carry this for me? I will with pleasure.

(f) In asking a question we use *shall* with a subject of the first person.

Shall I close the window? Shall we start at once?

6. The tenses of the *subjunctive mode* are formed in the same manner as the tenses of the *indicative*, except the *future*, which takes *would* or *should* as the auxiliary. The future subjunctive expresses an action or state represented in time as dependent or contingent upon some other action or state which must precede it; as,

If he came she would go.

Would and *should* are the past tenses of *will* and *shall*, and are used, when auxiliaries, according to the same rules.

7. The *imperative mode* is used in but one tense, the *present*. It is the simple form of the verb used as a command, a request, or an exhortation; as,

Strike and spare not.

8. The tenses of the *passive voice* are formed by the tenses of the verb *to be*, followed by the past participle of the principal verb; as, *The letter is written, was written, shall be written.*

In addition to the forms of the verb given above, the English language, by means of auxiliary verbs, employs many other forms to express different shades of meaning. The more important of these are the following:

1. The **emphatic form**; as, *I do write, I did write*. This form is composed of the present and past tenses of the auxiliary verb *do* and the infinitive of the principal verb.

2. The **interrogative form**. A verb is made interrogative (a) by placing the subject after it; as, *Was he there? Breathes there a man?* (b) By placing the subject after the first auxiliary; as, *Will you come with me?* (c) By the use of *do*; as, *Do you water the garden?*

3. The **negative form**. A verb is made negative (a) by putting *not* after the verb; as, *He comes not*. (b) By placing *not* after the first auxiliary in a verb phrase; as, *I do not say so. He has not come*.

Other verb phrases are formed by the use of *may* as an auxiliary; as, *Let him rest that he may not become weary*.

The verb *may* is usually a notional verb, followed by an infinitive; as, *You may go now*. The verbs *must* and *can* are always notional verbs; as, *You must go at once. You can do well*.

In analyzing sentences containing any of the forms of the verbs *may* (used as a notional verb), *can*, or

must, the verb and the infinitive may be called a verb phrase; in parsing, however, advanced students should treat the notional verb and the infinitive separately. Verb phrases consisting of auxiliary and notional verbs should be parsed as single verbs. (For the parsing of verb phrases, see pp. 183 and 187.)

The treatment of verb phrases is continued under the heads of *conjugation* and *defective verbs* (pp. 167, 174).

EXERCISE 65. — *Justify or correct the use of shall, will, should, and would in the following sentences :*

1. I fear that we shall lose the train.
2. I think it will rain to-day.
3. I shall be happy to dine with you.
4. Will you dine with me on Thursday? I will, with pleasure.
5. Shall you be fifteen or sixteen to-morrow? I shall be sixteen.
6. Shall you be able to come?
7. I judge that we shall have snow to-morrow.
8. I should be sorry to miss your call.
9. Listen, my children, and you shall hear
Of the midnight ride of Paul Revere.
10. I could teach you
How to choose right, but I am then forsworn;
So will I never be.
11. *Brutus.* Why com'st thou?
Ghost. To tell thee thou shalt see me at Philippi.
Brutus. Well; then I shall see thee again?
Ghost. Ay, at Philippi.
Brutus. Why, I will see thee at Philippi, then.

12. *Licinius.* It is a mind
That shall remain a poison where it is,
Nor poison any further.
Coriolanus. Shall remain !
Hear you this Triton of the minnows ? Mark you
His absolute "shall" ?
13. He said that he should like to go with us.
14. He said that he hoped she would come soon.
15. Will I give you a subscription ?
16. What shall you do with your money ?
17. He will go if I have the power.
18. If you would succeed, you must begin early.

CONJUGATION

By arranging in an orderly way the verb forms that in the various modes and tenses correspond to the different persons and numbers of subject nouns and pronouns, we have what is called **conjugation**. In conjugating a verb it is customary to mention its infinitives and participles.

The present indicative or the infinitive, and the past indicative, of any verb, together with its present and past participles, are called its **principal parts**, since one of these parts is found in each of the various forms of that verb.

A verb that wants any of these principal parts is a **defective verb** ; if any one of these four parts has two different forms, the verb is a **redundant verb**.

CONJUGATION OF AUXILIARY VERBS

SHALL AND WILL

INDICATIVE MODE

<i>Singular</i>		PRESENT TENSE	<i>Plural</i>	
1. I	{ shall, will,		1. We	{ shall, will,
2. Thou	{ shalt, wilt,		2. You	{ shall, will,
3. He	{ shall, will,		3. They	{ shall, will.

<i>Singular</i>		PAST TENSE	<i>Plural</i>	
1. I	{ should, would,		1. We	{ should, would,
2. Thou	{ shouldst, wouldst,		2. You	{ should, would,
3. He	{ should, would,		3. They	{ should, would.

Shall and *will*, followed by the infinitive without *to*, form the future tenses in the indicative mode.

Should and *would*, though originally past in meaning, are now used to form the future tenses of the subjunctive mode, particularly when the verb is not preceded by one of the conjunctions expressing a condition, *if*, *though*, etc.

When *should* and *would* are used to state facts, they are notional verbs in the indicative mode and are followed by a dependent infinitive; as, *I should like to see you. They would go in bathing.*

Will is also used as a notional verb in the sense of *choose*, *determine*. It is then conjugated regularly.

HAVE

	PRESENT	PAST	PRESENT PARTICIPLE	PAST PARTICIPLE
PRINCIPAL PARTS:	Have.	Had.	Having.	Had.

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE		PAST TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I have,	1. We have,	1. I had,	1. We had,
2. Thou hast,	2. You have,	2. Thou hadst,	2. You had,
3. He has, or hath,	3. They have.	3. He had,	3. They had.

SUBJUNCTIVE MODE

(Generally used after *if, that, though, etc.*)

PRESENT TENSE		PAST TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I have,	1. We have,	1. I had,	1. We had,
2. Thou have,	2. You have,	2. Thou had,	2. You had,
3. He have,	3. They have.	3. He had,	3. They had.

IMPERATIVE MODE

INFINITIVES

PRESENT TENSE		PRESENT	PERFECT
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>		
2. Have (thou).	2. Have (you or ye).	To have.	To have had.

	PRESENT	PAST	PERFECT
PARTICIPLES:	Having.	Had.	Having had.

The verb *have* is both notional and auxiliary.

As a notional verb, meaning *possess, hold, keep*, it is found in all the modes and tenses.

As an auxiliary verb, its present tense is used to form the present perfect tenses of other verbs, as, *He has succeeded*; its

past tense, to form the past perfect tenses, as, *He had succeeded*; its future tense, to form the future perfect tenses, as, *He will have succeeded*. When it is used as an auxiliary, the original sense of *possessing* no longer appears.

Hast is a contraction for *havest*; *had*, for *haved*; *has* and *hath*, for *haves* and *haveth*.

BE

	PRESENT	PAST	PRESENT PARTICIPLE	PAST PARTICIPLE
PRINCIPAL PARTS:	Be.	Was.	Being.	Been.

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE		PAST TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I am,	1. We are,	1. I was,	1. We were,
2. Thou art,	2. You are,	2. Thou wast,	2. You were,
3. He is,	3. They are.	3. He was,	3. They were.

PRESENT PERFECT TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I have been,	1. We have been,
2. Thou hast been,	2. You have been,
3. He has been,	3. They have been.

PAST PERFECT TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I had been,	1. We had been,
2. Thou hadst been,	2. You had been,
3. He had been,	3. They had been.

FUTURE TENSE	
<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I shall be,	1. We shall be,
2. Thou wilt be,	2. You will be,
3. He will be,	3. They will be;
or,	
1. I will be,	1. We will be,
2. Thou shalt be,	2. You shall be,
3. He shall be,	3. They shall be.

FUTURE PERFECT TENSE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | |
|-------------------------|-------------------------|
| 1. I shall have been, | 1. We shall have been, |
| 2. Thou wilt have been, | 2. You will have been, |
| 3. He will have been, | 3. They will have been; |

or,

- | | |
|--------------------------|--------------------------|
| 1. I will have been, | 1. We will have been, |
| 2. Thou shalt have been, | 2. You shall have been, |
| 3. He shall have been, | 3. They shall have been. |

SUBJUNCTIVE MODE

(Generally used after *if, that, though, etc.*)

PRESENT TENSE

PAST TENSE

*Singular**Plural**Singular**Plural*

- | | | | |
|-------------|-------------|---------------|---------------|
| 1. I be, | 1. We be, | 1. I were, | 1. We were, |
| 2. Thou be, | 2. You be, | 2. Thou wert, | 2. You were, |
| 3. He be, | 3. They be. | 3. He were, | 3. They were. |

PRESENT PERFECT TENSE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | |
|--------------------|--------------------|
| 1. I have been, | 1. We have been, |
| 2. Thou have been, | 2. You have been, |
| 3. He have been, | 3. They have been. |

PAST PERFECT TENSE

The same in form as in the indicative mode.

FUTURE TENSE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | | | |
|---------|------------------|---------|----------------|
| 1. I | { should } be, | 1. We | { should } be, |
| | { would } be, | | { would } be, |
| 2. Thou | { shouldst } be, | 2. You | { should } be, |
| | { wouldst } be, | | { would } be, |
| 3. He | { should } be, | 3. They | { should } be. |
| | { would } be, | | { would } be. |

FUTURE PERFECT TENSE

<i>Singular</i>		<i>Plural</i>	
1. I	{ should would }	1. We	{ should would }
2. Thou	{ shouldst wouldst }	2. You	{ should would }
3. He	{ should would }	3. They	{ should would }

IMPERATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
2. Be (thou).	2. Be (you or ye).

INFINITIVES

PRESENT

To be.

PERFECT

To have been.

	PRESENT	PAST	PERFECT
PARTICIPLES:	Being.	Been.	Having been.

As an auxiliary the verb *be* is used, in connection with the present participle, in forming the progressive forms of the tenses; and, in connection with the past participle, in forming the tenses of transitive verbs in the passive voice.

EXERCISE 66.— *Write out the conjugation of the verb write, progressive form, by joining the present participle to the various parts of the verb be.*

DO

	PRESENT	PAST	PRESENT PARTICIPLE	PAST PARTICIPLE
PRINCIPAL PARTS:	Do.	Did.	Doing.	Done.

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I do,	1. We do,
2. Thou dost,	2. You do,
3. He does,	3. They do.

PAST TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I did	1. We did,
2. Thou didst,	2. You did,
3. He did,	3. They did.

Do, as a notional verb, is found in all the voices, modes, and tenses.

Do, as an auxiliary verb, has three uses :

1. To form, together with the present infinitive of another verb, equivalents for the present and past tenses. These equivalents are sometimes used for the sake of emphasis, in which case the stress of the voice in speaking is laid upon the auxiliary ; as, *I do see. He did fall. She does succeed.* Frequently, however, they are used merely to improve the sound of the sentence ; as, *Thou dost prefer above all temples the up-right heart and pure.*

2. To form equivalents for the present and past in negative and interrogative sentences ; as, *I do not hear you. Do you hear me ? Did he not tell you ?*

3. To form emphatic imperatives ; as, *Do be still. Do keep quiet. Do have patience.*

In all these expressions *do* is really a transitive verb, and its object is an infinitive ; but it is more convenient to parse the auxiliary and the principal verb together as one verb.

The verb after *do* is often omitted ; as, *I can not walk as fast as you do* (walk).

MAY

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I may,	1. We may,
2. Thou mayst,	2. You may,
3. He may,	3. They may.

PAST TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I might,	1. We might,
2. Thou mightst,	2. You might,
3. He might,	3. They might.

Originally *I may* meant *I am able*. Now it means *I am allowed to*. In this sense *may* is a notional verb. It is followed by an infinitive; as, *The Board may elect their own president and secretary*.

In cases, however, where *may* is in the subjunctive mode, especially after *that* and *lest*, the idea of permission almost disappears, and it becomes an auxiliary, forming an equivalent for the subjunctive mode of the principal verb; as, *Let him eat, that he may not grow faint. Be not idle, lest ye may come to want*.

The present and past tenses of the subjunctive mode are the same as those of the indicative, except that the inflection of the second person singular is omitted.

DEFECTIVE VERBS

Several of the auxiliary verbs are defective (p. 167), as has been shown. Several notional verbs, as *can*, *must*, *ought*, *dare*, *wit*, *need*, *hight*, *dight*, are either defective or have some peculiarity in their conjugation.

CAN

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

PAST TENSE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>	<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I can,	1. We can,	1. I could,	1. We could,
2. Thou canst,	2. You can,	2. Thou couldst,	2. You could,
3. He can,	3. They can.	3. He could,	3. They could.

In the author's judgment, *can* is always a notional verb, and the word following it is an infinitive; but see p. 182.

The *l* in *could* does not properly belong to the verb. It was inserted to make the word agree in form with *would* and *should*.

Originally *can* meant *to know*; and from the idea of knowledge arose the idea of power. The adjective *cunning* was originally the present participle of this verb.

Must is now used only in the present tense, indicative mode. It has no variations of form. It is always notional, and is followed by a dependent infinitive; as, *He must be mistaken*.

Ought has but one change of form; it adds *est* for the second person singular.

Ought, though now generally used in the present tense, is an old form of the past tense of the verb *owe*.

To express past time the dependent infinitive after *ought* must be past; as, *These things ought ye to have done*.

To wit, meaning *to know*, is now used only as an infinitive in the sense of *namely*, *that is to say*. The forms *I wot*, *God wot*, are found in old writers.

For *methinks*, *me lists*, see pp. 93 and 130.

Hight means *was* or *is called*. It has no other forms. "A most singular word," says Skeat, "presenting the sole instance in English of a *passive* verb."

Need, when it means *to be in want of*, is conjugated in the ordinary way. When it conveys the sense of *being under a necessity*, the third person is *He need*, not *He needs*.

The third person, singular, *needs*, must not be confounded with the adverb *needs*; as, *He needs advice*. *He must needs go through Samaria*.

Dight, a past participle, now rarely used, is a shortened form of *dighted*, meaning *prepared, adorned*, as in Milton's line, *The clouds in thousand liveries dight*.

Dare, meaning *to have courage, to venture*, has both *dare* and *dares* in the third person, singular, present tense, of the indicative mode, and a past tense *durst*.

The Duke

Dare no more stretch this finger of mine
Than he *dare* stretch his own. — *Shakespeare*.
I dare do all that may become a man,
Who *dares* do more is none. — *Shakespeare*.

Dare, meaning *to challenge, defy*, has a past tense *dared*, and is conjugated in the regular way.

Quoth is used only in the first and third person, singular, past tense, and means, *said I, said he*. It is now rarely used.

To show in both voices the conjugation of a verb, it will be necessary to select a transitive verb, since both voices are found only in transitive verbs. We give, therefore, the

CONJUGATION OF THE TRANSITIVE VERB *SEE*

	PRESENT	PAST	PRESENT PARTICIPLE	PAST PARTICIPLE
PRINCIPAL PARTS:	See.	Saw.	Seeing.	Seen.

INDICATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

- Singular*
1. I see,
 2. Thou seest,
 3. He sees,

- Plural*
1. We see,
 2. You see,
 3. They see.

PASSIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I am seen,
2. Thou art seen,
3. He is seen,

Plural

1. We are seen,
2. You are seen,
3. They are seen.

PAST TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I saw,
2. Thou sawest,
3. He saw,

Plural

1. We saw,
2. You saw,
3. They saw.

PASSIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I was seen,
2. Thou wast seen,
3. He was seen,

Plural

1. We were seen,
2. You were seen,
3. They were seen.

PRESENT PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I have seen,
2. Thou hast seen,
3. He has seen,

Plural

1. We have seen,
2. You have seen,
3. They have seen.

PASSIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I have been seen,
2. Thou hast been seen,
3. He has been seen,

Plural

1. We have been seen,
2. You have been seen,
3. They have been seen.

PAST PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

Singular

1. I had seen,
2. Thou hadst seen,
3. He had seen,

Plural

1. We had seen,
2. You had seen,
3. They had seen.

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | |
|--------------------------|------------------------|
| 1. I had been seen, | 1. We had been seen, |
| 2. Thou hadst been seen, | 2. You had been seen, |
| 3. He had been seen, | 3. They had been seen. |

FUTURE TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | |
|----------------------------|----------------------------|
| 1. I shall or will see, | 1. We shall or will see, |
| 2. Thou shalt or wilt see, | 2. You shall or will see, |
| 3. He shall or will see, | 3. They shall or will see. |

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | |
|--------------------------------|--------------------------------|
| 1. I shall or will be seen, | 1. We shall or will be seen, |
| 2. Thou shalt or wilt be seen, | 2. You shall or will be seen, |
| 3. He shall or will be seen, | 3. They shall or will be seen. |

FUTURE PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | | | |
|-----------------------|-----------------|-----------------------|-----------------|
| 1. I shall or will | } have
seen, | 1. We shall or will | } have
seen. |
| 2. Thou shalt or wilt | | 2. You shall or will | |
| 3. He shall or will | | 3. They shall or will | |

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

- | | | | |
|-----------------------|-------------------------|-----------------------|-------------------------|
| 1. I shall or will | } have
been
seen, | 1. We shall or will | } have
been
seen. |
| 2. Thou shalt or wilt | | 2. You shall or will | |
| 3. He shall or will | | 3. They shall or will | |

SUBJUNCTIVE MODE

(Generally used after *if*, *lest*, *though*, etc.)

PRESENT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I see,	1. We see,
2. Thou see,	2. You see,
3. He see,	3. They see.

PASSIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I be seen,	1. We be seen,
2. Thou be seen,	2. You be seen,
3. He be seen,	3. They be seen.

PAST TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I saw,	1. We saw,
2. Thou saw,	2. You saw,
3. He saw,	3. They saw.

PASSIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
1. I were seen,	1. We were seen,
2. Thou wert seen,	2. You were seen,
3. He were seen.	3. They were seen.

PRESENT PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
I, thou, he have seen.	We, you, they have seen.

PASSIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
I, thou, he have been seen.	We, you, they have been seen.

PAST PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

I, thou, he had seen.

We, you, they had seen.

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

I, thou, he had been seen.

We, you, they had been seen.

FUTURE TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

1. I should	} see,	1. We	} should	} see.
2. Thou shouldst		2. You		
3. He should		3. They		

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

1. I should	} be seen,	1. We	} should	} be seen.
2. Thou shouldst		2. You		
3. He should		3. They		

FUTURE PERFECT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

1. I should	} have seen,	1. We	} should	} have seen.
2. Thou shouldst		2. You		
3. He should		3. They		

PASSIVE VOICE

*Singular**Plural*

1. I should	} have been seen,	1. We	} should	} have been seen.
2. Thou shouldst		2. You		
3. He should		3. They		

IMPERATIVE MODE

PRESENT TENSE

ACTIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
2. See (thou).	2. See (ye or you).

PASSIVE VOICE

<i>Singular</i>	<i>Plural</i>
2. Be (thou) seen.	2. Be (ye or you) seen.

INFINITIVES

ACTIVE VOICE

PASSIVE VOICE

PRESENT TENSE:	To see.	To be seen.
PRESENT PERFECT TENSE:	To have seen.	To have been seen.

PARTICIPLES

ACTIVE VOICE

PASSIVE VOICE

PRESENT:	Seeing.	Being seen.
PAST:		Seen.
PERFECT:	Having seen.	Having been seen.

EXERCISE 67.— *Write the emphatic form of the present and past tenses, indicative mode, of see.*

Write the interrogative forms of the tenses of the indicative mode.

Write the progressive forms of the tenses, both active and passive voice, wherever possible, in the interrogative and affirmative forms.

Write the tenses of the indicative mode, active and passive voices, as they would be used in negative sentences.

Some authors use the verbs *may*, *can*, and *must*, together with the past tenses of *will* and *shall*, as auxiliaries with which to form for other verbs what is called the **potential mode**. For teachers who prefer to retain this so-called mode, its conjugation for the verb *lie* (to recline) is given below.

POTENTIAL MODE

PRESENT TENSE

Singular

1. I may, can, must lie,
2. Thou mayst, canst, must lie,
3. He may, can, must lie,

Plural

1. We may, can, must lie,
2. You may, can, must lie,
3. They may, can, must lie.

PAST TENSE

Singular

1. I might, could, would, should lie,
2. Thou mightst, couldst, wouldst, shouldst lie,
3. He might, could, would, should lie,

Plural

1. We might, could, would, should lie,
2. You might, could, would, should lie,
3. They might, could, would, should lie.

PRESENT PERFECT TENSE

Singular

1. I may, can, must have lain,
2. Thou mayst, canst, must have lain,
3. He may, can, must have lain,

Plural

1. We may, can, must have lain,
2. You may, can, must have lain,
3. They may, can, must have lain.

PAST PERFECT TENSE

Singular

1. I might, could, would, should have lain,
2. Thou mightst, couldst, wouldst, shouldst have lain,
3. He might, could, would, should have lain,

Plural

1. We might, could, would, should have lain,
2. You might, could, would, should have lain,
3. They might, could, would, should have lain.

The highest authorities on English grammar, such as Mætzner, Whitney, Bain, and Morris, are now agreed in rejecting the so-called potential mode. *I may go* may express a statement of fact, in which case *may* is in the indicative mode, followed by a dependent infinitive; or a condition or supposition, in which case *may* should be parsed as in the subjunctive mode. In the first case *may go* may be regarded as a verb phrase in the indicative mode; in the second, in the subjunctive mode.

It has been stated (p. 162) that verbs are *regular* or *weak*, and *irregular* or *strong*. The formation of the various modes, tenses, numbers, and persons of the regular verb is very simple, but that of the irregular verb is much less so. The difficulty arises from the irregularity of the past tense, indicative mode, and the past participle. If these are known, for any verb, it is easy to inflect the verb throughout. The following list is given for reference. Verbs that are also regular are marked R. Forms little used are printed in italics.

LIST OF IRREGULAR VERBS

<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>	<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>
Abide	abode	abode	Catch	caught	caught
Am, be	was	been	Chide	chid	{ chidden, chid
Arise	arose	arisen	Choose	chose	chosen
Awake	awoke, R.	awaked	Cleave	{ clove, R. cleft (to split) { <i>clave</i>	{ cloven, cleft
Bake	baked	{ baked, baken	Cling	clung	clung
Bear	{ bore, bare	{ born	Clothe	clad, R.	clad, R.
Bear	{ bore, (to carry) { bare	{ borne	Come	came	come
Beat	beat	{ beaten, beat	Cost	cost	cost
Begin	began	begun	Creep	crept	crept
Bend	bent, R.	bent, R.	Crow	crew, R.	crowed
Bereave	bereft, R.	bereft, R.	Cut	cut	cut
Beseech	besought	besought	Dare	durst, R.	dared
Bet	bet, R.	bet, R.	Deal	dealt	dealt
Bid	bid, bade	bidden, bid	Dig	dug, R.	dug, R.
Bind	bound	bound	Do	did	done
Bite	bit	bitten, bit	Draw	drew	drawn
Bleed	bled	bled	Dream	dreamt, R.	dreamt, R.
Bless	blest, R.	blest, R.	Dress	dress, R.	dress, R.
Blow	blew	blown	Drink	drank	{ drank, drunk
Break	{ broke, broke	{ broken	Drive	drove	driven
Breed	bred	bred	Dwell	dwelt, R.	dwelt, R.
Bring	brought	brought	Eat	ate	eaten
Build	built, R.	built, R.	Fall	fell	fallen
Burn	burnt, R.	burnt, R.	Feed	fed	fed
Burst	burst	burst	Feel	felt	felt
Buy	bought	bought	Fight	fought	fought
Can	could	—	Find	found	found
Cast	cast	cast	Flee	fled	fled
			Fling	flung	flung
			Fly	flew	flown

LIST OF IRREGULAR VERBS — *Continued*

<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>	<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>
Forsake	forsook	forsaken	Make	made	made
Freeze	froze	frozen	May	might	—
Get	got	got, gotten	Mean	meant	meant
Gild	gilt, R.	gilt, R.	Meet	met	met
Gird	girt, R.	girt, R.	Mow	mowed	mown, R.
Give	gave	given	Pay	paid	paid
Go	went	gone	Pen	pent, R.	pent, R.
Grave	graved	graven, R.	(to inclose)		
Grind	ground	ground	Put	put	put
Grow	grew	grown	Quit	quit, R.	quit, R.
Hang	hung, R.	hung, R.	Rap	rapt, R.	rapt, R.
Have	had	had	Read	rēad	rēad
Hear	heard	heard	Rend	rent	rent
Heave	hove, R.	hove, R.	Rid	rid	rid
Hew	hewed	hewn, R.	Ride	rode	ridden
Hide	hid	hidden, hid	Ring	{ rang rung }	{ rung rung }
Hit	hit	hit	Rise	rose	risen
Hold	held	{ held, holden }	Rive	rived	riven, R.
Hurt	hurt	hurt	Run	ran	run
Keep	kept	kept	Saw	sawed	sawn, R.
Kneel	knelt, R.	knelt, R.	Say	said	said
Knit	knit, R.	knit, R.	See	saw	seen
Know	knew	known	Seek	sought	sought
Lade	laded	laden, R.	Seethe	seethed	sodden, R.
Lay	laid	laid	Sell	sold	sold
Lead	led	led	Send	sent	sent
Lean	leant, R.	leant, R.	Set	set	set
Leap	leapt, R.	leapt, R.	shake	shook	shaken
Leave	left	left	Shall	should	—
Lend	lent	lent	Shape	shaped	shapen, R.
Let	let	let	Shave	shaved	shaven, R.
Lie (<i>recline</i>)	lay	lain	Shear	sheared	shorn, R.
Light	lit, R.	lit, R.	Shed	shed	shed
Lose	lost	lost	Shine	shone, R.	shone, R.

LIST OF IRREGULAR VERBS — *Continued*

<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>	<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>
Shoe	shod	shod	Stay	{ staid, stayed }	{ staid, stayed }
Shoot	shot	shot	Steal	stole	stolen
Show	showed	shown, R.	Stick	stuck	stuck
Shred	shred, R.	shred, R.	Sting	stung	stung
Shrink	{ shrunk shrank }	{ shrunk shrunken }	Strew	strewed	strewn
Shut	shut	shut	Stride	strode	stridden
Sing	{ sang sung }	{ sung }	Strike	struck	{ struck, stricken }
Sink	{ sank, sunk }	{ sunk }	String	strung	strung
Sit	sat	sat	Strive	strove	striven
Slay	slew	slain	Swear	{ swore sware }	{ sworn }
Sleep	slept	slept	Sweat	sweat, R.	sweat, R.
Slide	slid	{ slidden, slid }	Sweep	swept	swept
Sling	slung	slung	Swell	swelled	swollen, R.
Slink	slunk	slunk	Swim	{ swam swum }	{ swum }
Slit	slit, R.	slit, R.	Swing	swung	swung
Smite	smote	{ smitten, smit }	Take	took	taken
Sow	sowed	sown, R.	Teach	taught	taught
Speak	{ spoke, spake }	{ spoken }	Tear	tore, tare	torn
Speed	sped, R.	sped, R.	Tell	told	told
Spend	spent	spent	Think	thought	thought
Spill	spilt, R.	spilt, R.	Thrive	{ thrived, throve }	{ thriven, R. }
Spin	spun, <i>span</i>	spun	Throw	threw	thrown
Spit	spit, <i>spat</i>	spit	Thrust	thrust	thrust
Split	split	split	Tread	trod	{ trodden, trod }
Spread	spread	spread	Wax	waxed	waxen, R.
Spring	sprang	sprung	Wear	wore	worn
Stand	stood	stood	Weave	wove	woven
Stave	{ staved, stove }	{ staved, stove }	Weep	wept	wept
			Wet	wet, R.	wet, R.

LIST OF IRREGULAR VERBS — *Continued*

<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>	<i>Present</i>	<i>Past</i>	<i>Past Participle</i>
Whet	whet, R.	whet, R.	Work	wrought, R.	wrought, R.
Will	would	—	Wring	wrung	wrung
Win	won	won	Write	wrote	written
Wind	wound, R.	wound, R.			

PARSING THE VERB

The verb is parsed by

1. Telling whether it is regular or irregular.
2. Giving its principal parts.
3. Telling whether it is transitive or intransitive ;
and, if transitive, stating its voice.
4. Stating its mode, tense, number, and person.

EXERCISE 68. — *Parse the verbs and the verbals in the following selections :*

1. You can easily learn this lesson.

MODEL. — *Can* is a defective, intransitive verb, indicative mode, present tense. It is second person, plural number, because its subject *you* is second, plural.

Learn is an infinitive, regular, transitive, active voice, present tense. It is an adverbial modifier of *can*.

2. Is he coming to-day ?

MODEL. — *Is coming* is an irregular, intransitive verb, progressive form, indicative mode, present tense. It is third person, singular number, because its subject *he* is third, singular.

3. But a cunning man was the cobbler ;
He could call the birds from the trees,
Charm the black snake out of the ledges,
And bring back the swarming bees. — *Whittier.*

4. Ailie stepped up on a seat, and laid herself on the table, as her friend the surgeon told her ; arranged herself, gave a rapid look at James, shut her eyes, rested herself on me, and took my hand. The operation was at once begun ; it was necessarily slow ; and chloroform — one of God's best gifts to his suffering children — was then unknown. — *Dr. John Brown.*

5. And if we do but watch the hour,
There never yet was human power
That could evade, if unforgiven,
The patient search and vigil long .
Of him that treasures up a wrong. — *Byron.*

6. A male bird brought to his box a large, fine goose feather, which is a great find for a sparrow, and much coveted. After he had deposited his prize and chattered his gratulations over it, he went away in quest of his mate. His next-door neighbor, a female bird, seeing her chance, quickly slipped in and seized the feather, — and here the wit of the bird came out, for instead of carrying it into her own box, she flew with it to a near tree, and hid it in a fork of the branches, then went home, and when her neighbor returned with his mate, was innocently employed about her own affairs. The proud male, finding his feather gone, came out of his box in a high state of excitement, and, with wrath in his manner and accusation on his tongue, rushed into the cot of the female. Not finding his goods and chattels there as he had expected, he stormed around awhile, abusing everybody in general, and his neighbor in particular, and then went away as if to repair the loss. As soon as he was out of sight, the shrewd thief went and brought the

feather home, and lined her own domicile with it. — *John Burroughs*.

7. I do not know what I may appear to the world, but to myself I seem to have been only like a boy playing on the sea-shore, and diverting myself in now and then finding a smoother pebble, or a prettier shell than ordinary, while the great ocean of truth lay all undiscovered before me. — *Sir Isaac Newton*.

THE ADVERB

DEFINITION. — An **adverb** is a word used to modify the meaning of a verb, an adjective, or another adverb ; as, *I am **very** glad that you have done **so well**.*

CLASSES

According to their functions in the sentence, adverbs are of two classes : 1. **Simple** adverbs ; 2. **Interrogative** adverbs.

A **simple** adverb modifies the meaning of the word with which it is used ; as,

*But we **steadfastly** gazed on the face of the dead,
And we **bitterly** thought of the morrow.* — *Wolf*.

*Though the mills of God grind **slowly**,
Yet they grind **exceeding** small.* — *H. W. Longfellow*.

*Extremes of fortune are true wisdom's test,
And he's of men **most** wise who bears them **best**.*

An interrogative adverb is an adverb used to ask a question ; as,

When shall we three meet again ? — Shakespeare.

*Where are the pure, whom thou wouldst choose to love thee ?
— A. H. Clough.*

Why crisp the waters blue ? — O. W. Holmes.

Adverbs may be classified according to their meanings as follows :

1. **Adverbs of place**, answering to the question (a) *where ?* (b) *whither ?* (c) *whence ?* as, (a) *here, there, anywhere, yonder*, etc. ; (b) *hither, thither, backward*, etc. ; (c) *hence, thence*, etc.

2. **Adverbs of time**, answering to the question *when ?* as, *now, to-day, yesterday, to-morrow, by and by, still, again, then, afterward*, etc.

3. **Adverbs of number** ; as, *once, twice, thrice ; first, secondly, thirdly*.

4. **Adverbs ; of manner** ; as, *how, well, ill, badly, aloud, so, thus*.

5. **Adverbs of degree** ; as, *very, too, almost, quite, much, little, no, more, most, less, least*, and *the* before an adjective in the comparative degree.

6. **Adverbs of cause** ; as, *why, wherefore, whence*.

7. **Adverbs of assertion and denial** ; as, *yes, yea, aye, nay, no, not*.

The classification of adverbs according to meaning is given, not to be learned by rote, but as an aid in parsing.

When *the* is used before an adjective in the comparative degree, as, *the more the merrier*, it is not the definite article, but an adverb. In this use it is derived from an Anglo-Saxon case of the demonstrative *that*, meaning *by so much*.

Yes and *no*, when standing alone in reply to questions, are not really adverbs. They are, in fact, the equivalents of sentences.

Many adverbs are composed of two or more words ; as, *from above*, *one by one*, *now and then*, *ever and anon*, and the like. These may be called **phrase adverbs**.

It can not be impressed too strongly or too frequently on the student, that the function which a word discharges in a sentence determines the part of speech to which it belongs :

1. Words that are ordinarily nouns are sometimes used as adverbs ; as in the expressions,

***Stone* dead. *He* cares not *a cent*.**

2. Words that are ordinarily adjectives sometimes become adverbs ; as,

***He* speaks *loud*. *He* runs *fast*.**

The reason is that in olden times adverbs were formed from adjectives by adding *e* ; as, *bright*, *brighte*. In modern English the *e* has been dropped in these cases, and no other suffix substituted.

3. Words that are usually adverbs occasionally become nouns ; as, ***Now*** (= the present time) *is the accepted time*, ***now*** *is the day of salvation*. *He* came from ***abroad***.

4. Words that are usually adverbs become adjectives: (a) as modifiers; (b) as predicate complements.

(a) *Drink no longer water, but use a little wine, for thy stomach's sake and thine often infirmities.* — *Bible*.

Even Homer sometimes nods.

This example some grammarians would explain by supplying an ellipsis:

Even (so careful a poet as) Homer sometimes nods.

(b) *He is here. The child is away.*

In the last example (b) *here* and *away* are usually parsed as adverbs. But a little consideration will show that the verb *to be*, when it is merely a copula, can not take a modifier. In the examples given above, the verb serves simply to assert locality. Hence, *here* and *away* may be parsed as *adverbs used as predicate adjectives*.

5. The word *as* is used as a relative pronoun, as an adverb, as a conjunction, and as a preposition.

In the sentence *Such as I have I give*, *as* is a relative pronoun.

In the sentence, *He is as clever as his brother*, the first *as* is an adverb of degree; the second *as* is a conjunction.

In the sentence, *As I am your subordinate I will obey you*, *as* (= because) is a conjunction (see p. 202).

In the sentence, *Ruskin is greatest as an art critic*, *as* is a preposition.

Most adverbs of manner and degree admit of comparison:

1. Adverbs ending in *ly* are generally compared by prefixing *more* and *most*; as,

POSITIVE	COMPARATIVE	SUPERLATIVE
<i>keenly</i>	more <i>keenly</i>	most <i>keenly</i>
<i>beautifully</i>	more <i>beautifully</i>	most <i>beautifully</i>

2. Some adverbs are compared by adding the suffixes *er* and *est*; as,

POSITIVE	COMPARATIVE	SUPERLATIVE
<i>fast</i>	<i>faster</i>	<i>fastest</i>
<i>often</i>	<i>oftener</i>	<i>oftenest</i>

3. The following adverbs are either irregular or defective in their comparison:

POSITIVE	COMPARATIVE	SUPERLATIVE
well	better	best
ill	worse	worst
much	more	most
nigh (or near)	nearer	next
forth	further	furthest
far	farther	farthest
late	later	last (or latest)
little	less	least
(rathe)	rather	

Further and *furthest* are now generally used to express progress, advancement; *farther* and *farthest* to express distance in space.

Rather is derived from an old adjective *rathe*, meaning *early*. Milton speaks of the *rathe* primrose, and Tennyson writes, *Till rathe she rose, half-cheated in the thought*.

SUBSTITUTES FOR THE ADVERB

Adverbial phrases or adverbial clauses may take the place of adverbs, generally with the result of making the statement more precise.

For *there*, in the sentence *He was seen there*, we may substitute the phrases, *in the street, at church, on top of the house*, with the result of more exactly defining our meaning.

In *He is not careful enough*, we may substitute a clause for the word *enough*, and say *He is not so careful as he ought to be*.

PARSING

An adverb is parsed by telling :

1. The verb, etc., whose meaning is modified.
2. In what way it modifies, whether as to place, time, manner, degree, etc.
3. Its degree of comparison.

EXERCISE 69. — *Pick out all the adverbs, adverbial phrases, and adverbial clauses in the following selections, and tell what each modifies:*

1. Out of the obliquity of the equator has come forth our civilization. — *Motley*.
2. Gone was the glow from his cheek and the fire from his eye.
3. Loud from its rocky caverns, the deep-voiced neighboring ocean
Speaks, and in accents disconsolate answers the wail of the forest. — *Longfellow*.
4. Before her queenly womanhood,
How dared our hostess utter
The paltry errand of her need
To buy her fresh-churned butter? — *Whittier*.
5. By searching in the grass, the skins of grasshoppers may be occasionally found still clinging to the spears of grass where they were left when the grasshoppers shed them. — *E. S. Morse*.

6. A great part of Holland and Flanders has been reclaimed by draining, and thus rendered not only habitable, but extremely valuable for agricultural purposes.

7. Soon a remarkable fossil, shawled to the chin and bandaged like a mummy, appeared at the door of the after deck-house, and was shot into my arms by the next lurch of the ship.

8. There is nothing so desperately monotonous as the sea; and I no longer wonder at the cruelty of pirates. Fancy an existence in which the coming up of a clumsy finback whale, who says Pooh! to you solemnly as you lean over the taffrail, is an event as exciting as an election on shore! The dampness seems to strike into the wits as into the lucifer matches, so that one may scratch a thought half a dozen times and get nothing but a faint sputter, the forlorn hope of fire, which only goes far enough to leave a sense of suffocation behind it. — *Lowell*.

THE PREPOSITION

DEFINITION. — A **preposition** is a word used to show the relation between a noun or a pronoun and some other word — a verb, an adjective, another noun, or a pronoun.

The noun or its equivalent that depends upon the preposition is in the objective case; as, *before me*; *after us*; *in the garden*.

The preposition is said to **govern** the noun in the objective case, and the noun is said to be the **object** of the preposition.

Generally, the preposition precedes its object. In poetry, and when the object is a relative pronoun, the preposition often follows its object.

*O stream descending to the sea,
 Thy mossy banks **between**,
 The flowerets blow, the grasses grow,
 The leafy trees are green. — A. H. Clough.*

*What are you looking **at**?
 Whom are you speaking **about**?*

The equivalent of a noun may be the object of a preposition. The equivalent may be:

1. A pronoun ; as,

*Cannon in front of **them**. — Tennyson.*

2. A word that is usually an adjective or an adverb used as a noun ; as,

*Step by step lifts bad to **good**. — Emerson.*
*She changes quickly from **grave** to **gay**, from **lively** to **severe**.*

3. A noun participle ; as,

*By **straining** every nerve you may succeed.*

4. A noun phrase ; as,

*None knew thee but **to love thee**,
 None named thee but **to praise**. — Halleck.*

5. A noun clause ; as,

*He was right in **that he refused to go**.*

When a preposition shows the relation of its object to a verb, an adjective, or an adverb, it aids in forming an adverbial phrase or clause ; when it shows the relation of its object to a noun or pronoun, it aids in forming an adjective phrase or clause.

Some prepositions are made up of two or three words ; as, *according to, on account of, by means of*. These may be called **phrase prepositions**.

Some words are used both as prepositions and as adverbs ; as, *since, above, below, down*.

The use of the word must determine the part of speech. If it is used as a modifier, it is an adverb ; if to govern a noun or its equivalent, a preposition.

*Above, below, the rose of snow,
Twin'd with her blushing foe we spread. — Gray.*

Here, *above* and *below* are adverbs modifying the verb *spread*. In *The church rises above the other houses, A cellar was dug below the house*, *above* and *below* are prepositions.

The words *after, since, before, till*, and others are used both as prepositions and as conjunctions ; as, *He arrived before midnight ; Before I arrived, he had gone*. (See p. 202.)

Some words originally present participles are now often used with the force of prepositions ; as, *considering, respecting, regarding, touching*.

Prepositions sometimes become parts of verbs ; as, *He broke into the house*. Sometimes the preposition precedes the verb and is united with it ; as, *under-go, over-take*.

The effect of joining a preposition to a transitive verb is to make its meaning more exact, so that the preposition is used with a modifying or adverbial tendency. The effect upon an intransitive verb is to make it transitive. (See p. 132.)

Our language being nearly destitute of inflections, the relations of words are largely shown by means of prepositions. Great care should be exercised in their selection, so that the exact idea intended shall be conveyed.

Among those that are often misused are the following: *Of, to, for, from, by, with, in, into, at, on, unto, until, off, upon, between, among, without* (for except).

In, on, at, by, generally imply rest. *He lives in the city. He is at the fair. The mat lies by the door. The clock stands on the stairs.*

To, into, unto, toward, towards, from, imply motion with direction. *He went to the city. He came into the house. The man is driving towards the river. He comes from the city every day. They got into the carriage and rode in it.*

Between is used of two objects. *Among* (or *amongst*), *amid* (*amidst*), of a greater number. *There was a generous rivalry between the two boys. Four boys came forward; he divided the peaches among them.*

Referring to places, we say, *In New York* (city or large town), *at Lyons Falls* (hamlet or railway station), *in Europe, in the State of New York, touched at Dover, arrived at Liverpool* (of a vessel on a voyage), *boards at the Astor House, he lives on Greene Avenue, at No. 1076, or at 1076 Greene Avenue, in San Francisco.*

Of is sometimes ambiguous after nouns derived from transitive verbs; as, *The love of our neighbor* may mean our love for him, or his love for us. So in the following: *I was greatly interested in reading about the discovery of Livingstone.* Does this mean Stanley's discovering Livingstone, or a discovery that Livingstone made? *Everybody approved of the choice of the president.* Did the president choose, or did some one choose him?

In all such cases the ambiguity may be avoided by substituting a participial phrase, or a possessive case: *The discovery made by Livingstone*; *The president's choice*.

Beside is now used chiefly with the sense of *by the side of*. *Besides* means *in addition to*. *He sits beside the well*. *Have you any money besides this?*

Upon should rarely be used except with the accompanying sense of height. We may say, *Upon the top of a building*, but *On the ground*, *On a table*. *Upon* is also used in the sense of *after*; as, *Upon hearing the news, we sent you word*.

Off of is extremely inelegant. We should say, *He fell off the roof*, not *off of*.

PARSING

In parsing a preposition it is necessary only to state its object, and the relation which the phrase of which it is a part bears to some other word in the sentence.

EXERCISE 70. — *Pick out all the prepositions in the following selections, name their objects, and tell whether the elements of the sentence they aid in forming are adjective or adverbial phrases and why:*

1. The number of teeth and their form vary greatly in the different groups of animals.

2. Tears are the softening showers which cause the seed of heaven to spring up in the human heart. — *Sir Walter Scott*.

3. Mont Blanc is the monarch of mountains;
 They crowned him long ago
 On a throne of rocks, in a robe of clouds,
 With a diadem of snow. — *Byron*.

4. Ichabod Crane's appetite for the marvelous and his powers of digesting it were equally extraordinary, and had been increased by his residence in the spell-bound region of Sleepy Hollow. — *Washington Irving*.

5. Over the wooded northern ridge,
Between its houses brown,
To the dark tunnel of the bridge
The street comes straggling down. — *Whittier*.

6. Doubtless, to think deeply and clearly in the recess of a cabinet is a fine intellectual demonstration; but to think with equal depth and equal clearness amid bullets is the most complete exercise of the human faculties. — *Disraeli*.

7. Rats!
They fought the dogs and killed the cats,
And bit the babies in the cradles,
And ate the cheese out of the vats,
And licked the soup from the cook's own ladles,
Split open the kegs of salted sprats,
Made nests inside men's Sunday hats,
And even spoiled the women's chats,
By drowning their speaking
With shrieking and squeaking
In fifty different sharps and flats. — *Robert Browning*.

8. It is undeniable that a person seems temporarily to change his nature when he becomes part of an excursion. Whether it is from the elation at the purchase of a day of gayety below the market price, or the escape from personal responsibility under a conductor, or the love of being conspicuous as a part of a sort of organization, the excursionist is not on his ordinary behavior. — *C. D. Warner*.

THE CONJUNCTION

DEFINITION. — A **conjunction** is a word used to connect parts of sentences.

These connected parts may be single words, or they may be phrases or clauses.

CLASSES

Conjunctions are divided, according to their use, into two principal classes: 1. **Coördinating conjunctions**; 2. **Subordinating conjunctions**.

DEFINITION. — A **coördinating conjunction** is a conjunction used to connect words, phrases, or clauses of equal rank.

(a) *Knowledge comes, **but** wisdom lingers, **and** I linger on the shore,*

***And** the individual withers, **and** the world is more and more.*

— *Tennyson.*

(b) *Not only we, that prate*

*Of rights **and** wrongs, have loved the people well,*

***And** loathed to see them overtax'd; but*

*She did move, **and** underwent, **and** overcame. — Tennyson.*

(c) *We grow ourselves*

Divine by overcoming with mere hope

***And** (with) most prosaic patience.*

— *Mrs. Browning.*

(d) *I had been content to perish, falling on the foeman's ground,
When the ranks are roll'd in vapor, **and** the winds are laid
with sound. — Tennyson.*

In (a) the coördinating conjunctions in blackfaced type connect independent clauses. In (b) they connect words having the same grammatical relation. In (c) it connects phrases having the same grammatical relation. In (d) it connects dependent clauses having the same grammatical relation.

The coördinating conjunctions are divided as follows :

(a) *Copulative*, denoting addition ; as, *both, and, also, moreover, further*, etc.

(b) *Disjunctive*, denoting choice or separation ; as, *either, or, neither, nor, else, otherwise*.

(c) *Adversative*, denoting opposition of meaning ; as, *but, still, yet, notwithstanding, however*.

(d) *Illative*, denoting effect or consequence ; as, *therefore, wherefore, hence, whence, consequently, accordingly, thus, so, so that, then, so then*.

DEFINITION.— A **subordinating conjunction** is a conjunction used to connect a subordinate clause with the part of the sentence upon which the clause depends.

Subordinating conjunctions are classified according to the various relations which they indicate :

(a) Time ; as, *as, while, until, before, ere, since, after, as soon as, as long as*.

(b) Reason or cause ; as, *because, for, since, as, whereas, inasmuch as*.

(c) Supposition or condition ; as, *if, provided, supposing, unless, except, otherwise, though, notwithstanding, albeit, whether*.

(d) End or purpose ; as, *that, in order that, lest*.

(e) The conjunction of comparison, *than*. The clause introduced by *than* is often partially omitted; as, *He can read better than I (can read). He is taller than I (am tall).*

It was the time when lilies blow.

You never miss the water till the well runs dry.

He said that he would be there.

In the first sentence, the adjective clause is connected with the noun *time* by means of the subordinating conjunction *when*. In the second sentence, the adverbial clause is connected with the verb *miss* by means of the subordinating conjunction *till*. In the third sentence, the noun clause *that he would be there* is the object of the verb *said*, with which it is connected by means of the subordinating conjunction *that*.

Conjunctions often occur in pairs; as,

Both — and: Both John and James are coming.

Not only — but: He not only reads well but writes well.

Either — or: He regarded him as either a knave or a fool.

Neither — nor: Neither heat nor cold could daunt him.

Whether — or: Whether he go or stay, is a matter of no consequence.

Though — yet: Though all men deny thee, yet will not I.

Or sometimes introduces an alternative name or synonym; as, *The prime minister, or head of the British Cabinet.* The first name is usually followed by a comma.

Nor is sometimes equivalent to *and not*; as, *He suspected that all was not right, nor was he deceived (and he was not).*

PARSING

To parse a conjunction it is necessary to tell what elements of the sentence it connects, and the relation that exists between them. From this it may be determined whether the conjunction is coördinating or subordinating, and what special signification it expresses.

EXERCISE 71.— *Pick out the conjunctions in the following selections, tell what elements of the sentence each connects, and state whether it is coördinating or subordinating.*

If the conjunction is coördinating, state the relation that it denotes.

If subordinating, state whether it introduces a noun clause, an adjective clause, or an adverbial clause, and give the reason for your opinion.

1. Never expect to govern others unless you have learned to govern yourself.

2. A man is shorter when he is walking than when at rest.
— *O. W. Holmes.*

3. What is twice read is commonly better remembered than what is transcribed. — *Johnson.*

4. Dreary are the years, when the eye can look no longer
With delight on nature, or hope on human kind.
— *Bryant.*

5. No man was more foolish when he had not a pen in his hand, nor more wise when he had. — *S. Johnson on Goldsmith.*

6. One is sometimes tempted to wish that the superlative could be abolished, or its use allowed only to old experts.

— *O. W. Holmes.*

7. This is truth the poet sings,
That a sorrow's crown of sorrow is remembering happier things.

— *Tennyson.*

8. If coal and the useful metals are found in any region, manufacturing interests will sooner or later be developed.

9. Every individual has a place to fill in the world, and is important in some respect, whether he chooses to be so or not.

— *Hawthorne.*

10. When I had gone half a mile, my opinion of the character of the pools was unchanged; never were there such places for trout; but the trout were out of their places. — *C. D. Warner.*

11. Neither locks had they to their doors, nor bars to their windows;

But their dwellings were open as day and the hearts of the owners.

— *Longfellow.*

12. Nature has a thousand ways and means of rising above herself; but incomparably the noblest manifestations of her capability of color are in the sunsets among the high clouds.

— *Ruskin.*

13. I remember, I remember,

The house where I was born,

The little window where the sun

Came peeping in at morn. — *Thomas Hood.*

14. On one of those sober and rather melancholy days, in the latter part of autumn, when the shadows of morning and evening almost mingle together, and throw a gloom over the decline of the year, I passed several hours in rambling about Westminster Abbey. There was something congenial to the

season in the mournful magnificence of the old pile; and as I passed its threshold, it seemed like stepping back into regions of antiquity, and losing myself among the shades of former ages.

—*Washington Irving.*

EXERCISE 72.—*Combine each of the following groups of sentences into a simple, a complex, or a compound sentence.*

Tell the means employed to effect the combination.

Analyze the resulting sentence.

1. The Hindoos were astonished at the performance of the plow. They painted it. They set it up. They worshiped it. Thus they turned a tool into an idol.

COMPLEX: *So astonished were the Hindoos at the performance of the plow, that they painted it, set it up, worshiped it, thus turning a tool into an idol.*

COMPOUND: *The Hindoos were astonished at the performance of the plow; hence they painted it, set it up, and worshiped it, thus turning a tool into an idol.*

SIMPLE: *Astonished at the performance of the plow, the Hindoos painted it, set it up, and worshiped it, thus turning a tool into an idol.*

2. Christopher Columbus was the most renowned of all discoverers. He was born in the city of Genoa. Genoa is in Italy.

3. When Columbus was a boy, there was a prince of Portugal. Don Henrique was his name. He is known to us as Prince Henry the Navigator.

4. Columbus sailed from Spain on the 3d of August, 1492. He had three small vessels. Two of them were without decks. He was more than two months on the voyage.

5. Raleigh was one of the most brilliant men at the court of Queen Elizabeth. He was also one of the most ambitious. He certainly was one of the most gifted men of that brilliant time.

6. John Rolfe seems to have been fond of new experiments. He was the same who married Pocahontas. He thought he might grow tobacco in Virginia for the English market. He thought he could do so if the Virginia Indians could grow tobacco for their own use.

7. Manhattan Island was sold to the Dutch by the Indians. On it New York now stands. The price was about twenty-four dollars in trading wares.

8. A maid-servant in Massachusetts was left alone with little children. An Indian tried to enter the house. She drove him away by firing a musket at him and throwing a shovelful of live coals on his head.

9. Tea was not known in England when the first colonies were settled. Coffee was not known in this country when the first colonies were settled. They became known long afterward.

10. The Middle colonies raised wheat. The colonies on Chesapeake Bay raised tobacco. The Southern colonies raised rice and indigo. The soil of New England was not suited to any agricultural staple of great value. The climate of New England was not suited to any agricultural staple of great value.

11. In New York city and in Philadelphia there were a great many slaves. There were not many in the country regions about these cities. The reason was that wheat was the chief crop. It did not require much hard labor.

12. All the French possessions in America, east of the Mississippi, were ceded to England. A district around New Orleans was excepted. This was by the treaty between England and France. It was made in 1763.

13. Patrick Henry took the lead in the agitation in Virginia. He was a brilliant speaker. James Otis was the principal orator in Massachusetts. He was an eloquent Boston lawyer.

14. A government was to be established. It was to be without a throne. It was to be without an aristocracy. It was to be without castes, orders, or privileges. This government was not to be a democracy existing and acting within the walls of a single city. It was to be extended over a vast country. That country is of different climates, interests, and habits.

15. I could see persons dressed in glorious habits, with garlands upon their heads. I could see them passing among the trees. I could see them lying down by the sides of the fountains, or resting on beds of flowers. I could hear a confused harmony of singing birds, falling waters, human voices, and musical instruments.

VI. SYNTAX

DEFINITION. — **Syntax** is that part of grammar which treats of the way in which words are joined in sentences.

Under the head of Syntax should be considered (1) the elements of the sentence ; (2) the classification of sentences according to the manner in which these elements are arranged ; (3) the four leading principles, *Concord*, *Government*, *Modification*, and *Order*, that determine the relations of words in sentences ; (4) elliptical sentences ; (5) punctuation ; and (6) the analysis of sentences into their component elements.

For the convenience of pupils we have already treated the elements of the sentence (pp. 29–45), the classification of sentences (pp. 51–63), and the analysis of sentences (pp. 57–66).

The four principles that regulate the grammatical union of words in sentences are **Concord**, **Government**, **Modification**, and **Order**.

CONCORD

DEFINITION. — **Concord** is the agreement in case, gender, number, mode, or tense of two connected words.

CONCORD OF SUBJECT AND PREDICATE

I. A verb agrees with its subject in number and person; and the subject of a verb, when a noun or a pronoun, is always in the nominative case.

The meaning of the first part of this rule is that a verb must have that grammatical form which shows that it is of the same person and number as its subject; as, *All men admire courage.* *A man admires courage.* *Thou admirest all beautiful things.* *I am to blame.* *They are to blame.*

The following special cases under this general rule require attention :

1. When a noun in the plural is used to denote a whole, a unit of some sort, as the title of a book, a sum of money, etc., the verb may be in the singular; as, *Plutarch's Lives is a good book.* *Five hundred dollars was spent.*

2. When a singular noun is modified by two adjectives, so as to mean two distinct things, the verb is in the plural; as, *Moral and physical education are both necessary.* Here *education* must be regarded as understood after *moral*.

3. A collective noun denoting a group of objects regarded as one whole takes a verb in the singular; but when the noun denotes a group regarded as individuals, it takes a verb in the plural; as, *The government has begun to turn its attention.* — *Sydney Smith.* *The assembly of the wicked have inclosed me.* — *Bible.*

4. *Few, many, most, some, several, the rest,* etc., take a verb in the plural; as, *Few of the men were there.* *Many of the sailors were shipwrecked.* *None* (originally meaning *no one*) would seem to require a singular verb, but it has come to be used in both the singular and the plural; as, *None of our party was (or were) sick.*

5. When the subject consists of two or more nouns connected by the conjunction *and*, the verb is in the plural; as *The evening and the morning were the first day.*

To this rule there are several exceptions:

(1) If the nouns are names for the same person or thing, the verb is in the singular; as, *A laggard in love and a dastard in war was to wed the fair Ellen of brave Lochinvar.* — Scott.

(2) If the nouns are names of things that may be considered as forming one whole, the verb is in the singular; as, *Wherein doth sit the fear and dread of kings.* — Shakespeare. *The wheel and axle was out of repair.*

(3) When the verb is made to agree with the subject next to it, being mentally supplied with the others, two or more nouns or pronouns connected by *and* often take a verb in the singular. This may happen in the following cases:

(a) When it is desired to make one of the subjects emphatic; as, *Both death and I am found eternal.* — Milton. *To rive what Goth and Turk and Time hath spared.* — Byron.

(b) When the subject nouns are preceded by *each*, *every*, or *no*; as, *Each book and each paper was found in its place. Every hour and every minute is important. No help and no hope comes to the drowning man.*

(c) When a verb separates its subjects, it agrees with the first; as, *The leader of the band was slain, and all his men.* If the first noun is plural, the verb is plural; as, *The men were slain and their leader also.*

(d) When a verb is placed before its subject, and the latter is represented by *there*, *such*, etc.; as, *Upon this there was a fearful cry from heaven, and (there were) great claps of thunder.* — Washington Irving. *Such was the intelligence, the gravity, and the self-command of Cromwell's warriors.* — Macaulay. When the pronoun *it* has a forward reference, it has a verb in the singular even when the complement is plural; as, *It is they. It was the governor and his brother who were here.*

6. When the subject consists of two or more singular nouns, or equivalents of nouns, joined by *or*, *either* — *or*, *neither* — *nor*, the verb must be singular.

The reason of this rule is that, with *or*, *either* — *or*, the predicate is affirmed of only *one* of the subjects; as, *Either Jones or Smith **starts** for Europe to-morrow.* With *nor*, or *neither* — *nor*, the predicate is denied of each of the subjects separately; as, *Where neither moth nor rust **doth** corrupt.* — *Bible.* *Nor man nor fiend **hath** fallen so far.* — *Byron.*

Good writers, however, occasionally use a plural verb after nouns connected by *neither* — *nor*, if the predicate is regarded as denied of both together; as, *Nor heaven nor earth **have** been at peace to-night.* — *Shakespeare.* *Neither the king nor either of his two sons **are** permitted to leave the island.*

When two or more subjects connected by *or* or *nor* differ in *person*, the rule is usually given that the verb must agree with the subject next to it; as, *Either you or I **am** to go.* *Either he or you **are** to go.* *Either you or he **is** to go.* It is better to avoid this construction,—either complete the predicate with the first subject, “Either you are to go, or I am,” or change the form of the sentence.

CAUTION 1. Do not use a plural verb after a singular subject modified by an adjective phrase that is introduced by *with*. We should say, *The rebel chief, with all his attendants, **was** (not *were*) captured.*

CAUTION 2. When two subject nouns are connected by the conjunction *as well as*, the verb agrees in *person* and *number* with the first. We say, *The boy, as well as his sister, **deserves** commendation;* meaning, *The boy deserves commendation, as well as his sister* (deserves commendation).

CAUTION 3. Never use a singular verb after *you* or *they*. Do not say, *You **was** there,* or *Was you there?* or *They **was**.*

CAUTION 4. Do not mistake a noun in a modifying phrase for the subject of the verb; as, *The eating of apples **promotes** (not *promote*) health.*

CAUTION 5. When the subject is a relative pronoun, the number and person of the verb are the same as the number and person of the antecedent of the relative. We say, *This is the only one of the books that is worth reading*, because the antecedent of *that* is *one*; but, *This is one of the best books that have appeared this year*, because the antecedent of *that* is *books*.

CAUTION 6. Beware of incorrect contractions of verbs with the adverb *not*. Do not use, *He don't*, *It don't*, for *He does not*, or *He doesn't*, etc. Do not use *You da'sn't*, *He da'sn't*, for *You dare not*, etc. We may say, *I don't*, *We don't*. The use of such expressions as *hadn't ought to* and *didn't ought to* is wholly wrong.

EXERCISE 73. — *Correct the errors in the concord of subject and verb in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change :*

1. It don't seem possible that our country is so young!
2. Every one of the passengers tell the same story.
3. Care thou for me?
4. John don't understand this rule in grammar.
5. Thomas or I were going to call for you.
6. The bones forming an open cage, commonly known as the chest, is scientifically called the *thorax*.
7. In expiration, the diaphragm and the muscles that raise the ribs relaxes.
8. All work and no play make Jack a dull boy.
9. If five yards of muslin costs fifty cents, what does three yards cost?
10. It don't seem possible that it is ten years since I saw you.
11. The jury has disagreed.
12. The crowd are becoming uncontrollable.
13. The collection from the scholars are to be given to a G. A. R. Post.

14. The class have been unruly.
15. The Society of Friends were founded by George Fox.
16. The leader, with several of his followers, were taken prisoner.
17. The pronoun, as well as the noun, are modified by the adjective.
18. The richness of his arms and apparel were conspicuous.
19. The rose is one of the most beautiful flowers that grows.
20. Mary is the only one of the pupils who have analyzed the sentence.
21. You hadn't ought to speak so roughly to the dog.
22. Three thousand dollars were spent on the new house.
23. Every desk and every cupboard were searched in vain.
24. Each of the boys were punished, and the girls also.
25. Either you or I are to blame.
26. Neither of my brothers do anything to make this place amusing.
27. Neither of the sisters were very much deceived.
28. She is a person whom I believe can be trusted.
29. Who can solve the problem ? Me.

CONCORD OF ADJECTIVE AND NOUN

As the demonstrative adjectives *this* and *that* are the only adjectives inflected, the only rule for the concord of adjectives is :

II. *This* and *that* are used with nouns in the singular; *these* and *those*, with nouns in the plural ; as, *This kind of apple. These kinds of apples.*

An apparent exception to this rule occurs in the common expressions, *this twenty years, this many summers* ; but they are defensible on the ground that we are thinking of a period of time, and hence that the idea is singular.

The words *each*, *every*, *either*, and *neither*, when used as adjectives, are usually joined to singular nouns; as, **Every** tree *is known by its fruits*. We may, however, in speaking of a period of time, use such an expression as, **Every** two years.

EXERCISE 74. — *Correct the errors in the concord of adjective and noun in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. These kind of books can be read easily.
2. We never associate with those kind of people.
3. Do you care for these sort of apples?
4. Those species of animals is not easily recognized.
5. Which kind of oranges will you have? Those kind.
6. Which kind of apples will you have? These kind.
7. After the quarrels with the Indians and the Dutch, came the disputes with the English; and this last gave the most trouble of all.

CONCORD OF PRONOUN AND ANTECEDENT

III. A pronoun agrees with its antecedent in gender, number, and person; as, *I have found a coin; it is a silver dollar. The young lady addressed the meeting; she made a fine speech. I have been talking with a man whom I admire greatly. I lost an umbrella, which cost me ten dollars.*

When the antecedent is a noun or a pronoun in the singular, that implies both the masculine and the feminine gender, Dr. Bain states that it is allowable to use a plural pronoun. Among other examples, he quotes the following from standard writers: **Every one** must judge of **their** own feelings. — Byron. *Had the doctor been contented to take my dining tables, as anybody in their senses would have done.* — Miss Austen. *If the fool, or the pig, are of a different opinion, it is because they only know their*

own side of the question. — *J. S. Mill.* Strict compliance with the rule requires the use in such cases of both the masculine and the feminine pronoun; as, *Everybody believes his or her own opinion to be correct.* Good usage, however, at the present day permits the use of the masculine pronoun to represent both males and females.

When the indefinite pronoun *one* has been used in a sentence and the possessive form is needed, it is better to use *one's* than *his*, although *his* is now allowed; as, *In such a scene one might easily forget one's cares.* We invariably use *his*, however, as the possessive of *every one*, *no one*, and *many a one*; as, *In that hour no one could be sure of his friends.*

Great care must be taken in determining the antecedent of a relative pronoun in the nominative case, because the verb of which the pronoun is the subject takes its number and person from the antecedent. Following are some examples of peculiar cases:

1. We should say, *One of the most valuable books that have (not that has) appeared in any language.*
2. When the antecedent of a relative pronoun is a clause, the pronoun is neuter; as, *He lives for others, which (the living for others) is to be commended.*

A relative pronoun is sometimes made to agree in person with a subject pronoun rather than with a predicate noun or pronoun that is the real antecedent; as, *I am a plain blunt man that love my friend.* — *Shakespeare.*

A relative pronoun should not refer to a noun or a pronoun in the possessive case. *The little boy's father that is studying Latin helps him in his lessons* is ambiguous. As it is the son and not the father who is studying Latin, we should say, *The father of the little boy that, etc.*

EXERCISE 75. — *Correct the errors in the concord of pronoun and antecedent, and of subject and verb, in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change :*

1. A good education is that which gives to the body and to the soul all the beauty and all the perfection of which it is capable.

2. It is letters, however, which opens the intelligence to the light of reason.

3. Each of the boys have their own bicycle.

4. Neither Charles nor his brother ate their breakfast this morning.

5. One of the most splendid comets that has ever been seen, appeared in 1744.

6. One of the greatest sovereigns that has ruled over Austria was Maria Theresa.

7. The hen gathered its brood under her wing.

8. The committee handed in their unanimous report.

9. If any one wishes to see me, let them call after three o'clock.

10. Has each scholar handed in their composition ?

11. If one had time, it would be easy to teach himself a foreign language.

12. Each of Farmer Brown's cows has a bell on his neck.

13. Page after page were turned over, but they did not give the required information.

14. Everybody wanted to express their pleasure.

15. Anybody that wants this is welcome to it if they will come and get it.

16. Neither John nor his sister were able to find their books.

17. She is one of those vain persons who is always expecting compliments.

18. God helps them that helps themselves.

19. The big dog's bark that is in our neighbor's yard disturbs our slumbers.

20. John had three boys with him, only one of which I knew.

21. A crow which thought herself musical was flattered by a fox.

CONCORD OF CASES

IV. The subject and the predicate noun or pronoun of a copulative verb, or of a verb in the passive voice, agree in case; as, *We thought it was he. He was elected President.*

The noun or pronoun that is the complement of an infinitive derived from a copulative verb is in the objective case, because the subject is in the objective case; as, *We thought it to be him. They desired him to become their leader.*

An apparent exception to the rule occurs when a noun or a pronoun in the possessive case serves as a complement; as, *The earth is the Lord's. That book is mine.* In the first of these sentences the word *earth* may be regarded as understood after *Lord's*. For the explanation of the second, see p. 96.

EXERCISE 76. — *Correct the errors in the concord of subject and complement in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. I proved it to be he who was to blame for the accident.
2. Who did you take my brother to be?
3. I think it was her who helped me.
4. I think it to be she who helped me.
5. I do not know whether the Macdonalds are Scotch or Irish; but I thought the Scotch family alluded to might be them.
6. The mischievous boys you speak of could not have been us, for we were at home.
7. She is a person who I believe to be worthy.
8. If I were him, I should do as he does.
9. We did not know whom she was.
10. His pinions droop'd, — he could hardly stand, —
His head was as bald as the palm of your hand;
His eye so dim, so wasted each limb,
That, heedless of grammar, they all cried, "That's him!"

V. When a noun or a pronoun explains the meaning of another noun or pronoun, the explaining noun or pronoun agrees in case, or is in apposition, with the noun explained; as:

NOMINATIVE: *This gentleman, the prince's near ally,*

My very friend, hath got his mortal hurt.

POSSESSIVE: *Jack the giant-killer's wonderful exploits.*

OBJECTIVE: *The children love their uncle, Mr. Harris.*

When two nouns in the possessive case are in apposition, the second alone takes the inflection. (See p. 85.)

A noun and a noun clause are sometimes in apposition; as, *The hope that he would succeed gave him courage. I count this thing to be grandly true, that a noble deed is a step toward God.*

A clause is sometimes in apposition with the subject pronoun *it*, when used to introduce the sentence; as, *It was reported that the battle was lost.*

Examples of pronouns in apposition with nouns are: *Ichabod Crane, he of the hooked nose and shambling gait, was the schoolmaster of Sleepy Hollow. He himself will be the judge.*

EXERCISE 77. — *Correct the errors in the concord of nouns and pronouns in apposition in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. To send John away, and for a whole year, too, — he who had never crept from under the parental wing, — was a startling idea.

2. I have received a visit from my teacher, she who teaches mathematics.

3. To my friends in England, they whom I visited last summer, I send cordial greetings.

4. We believed the man to be Henry, he whom we had been seeking.

5. Are you sure that the visitor was my cousin, her that you met yesterday?

6. Why does not your father—him whom all the townsfolk respect—accept this office?

7. Have you seen my friend's Jones's new store?

8. The very next morning us boys started for camp.

CONCORD OF TENSES

VI. When verbs are joined by coördinating conjunctions, they should agree in mode, tense, and form.

*If the man **should refuse** to buy the property himself and **will not allow** others to buy it, he would be a "dog in the manger."* In this sentence *should refuse* is in the subjunctive mode and *will allow* in the indicative. It should be, *If the man **should refuse** . . . and **should not allow**.*

*I am sure that he **has been** there and **did** what was required of him* shows a lack of agreement in tenses. We should say, *I am sure that he **has been** there and **has done** what was required of him; or, **was there** and **did**; or, that he **has been** there and **that he did**.* In the last form the difficulty is obviated by making the conjunction connect two clauses, not two verbs. Hence the caution: When in the same sentence it is necessary to change the tense, repeat the subject.

*He **is coming** and **feels** glad, should be, **He is coming** and **is feeling** glad; or, **He is coming** and he **feels** glad. I do not **approve** of your conduct, and **care** not for your work* should be, *I do not . . . and do not care.*

When two or more auxiliaries are used in reference to one principal verb, care should be taken that the form of the principal verb is suited to each of the auxiliaries.

In the sentence, *This preface will answer for any book that **has**, or **shall be**, published, **has*** does not make sense in con-

nection with *published*. We should say, *that has been, or shall be, published*. This sentence, as corrected, is frequently used by good writers; but it violates the rule, since the verbs are of different tenses. It would be better to repeat the subject and say, *that has been, or that shall be, published*.

In the sentence, *Many will take the same course that I have, have refers to the verb take*, which is absurd. We should say, *have taken*.

EXERCISE 78. — *Correct the errors in concord in modes and tenses in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change :*

1. He is a man who has been industrious, and serves his employer faithfully.
2. He has the past year, and will continue next year, to study Spanish.
3. The pupil was reproved yesterday, and now is penitent.
4. He is sickly, and therefore will not play football.
5. He crouched as if he were a wildcat, and was about to spring on his prey.
6. This poem is the best that he has, or ever will, write.
7. The class was dismissed, and is off to the pond.

Closely allied to the principle of concord of tenses is the principle of *sequence of tenses*, in principal and subordinate clauses. The following are the rules for

SEQUENCE OF TENSES

1. The tense of a verb in a subordinate clause depends upon the tense of the verb in the principal clause.

A present or future tense in the principal clause requires a present or future indicative, or a present subjunctive, in the

subordinate clause; as, *I will go if you desire it. If I can arrange my affairs, I shall go to Europe. If I have the book, I will send it.*

May, can, shall, will, are used in dependent clauses when present and future tenses are used in principal clauses; as *I come, have come, shall come, that you may or can go. I fear, have feared, shall fear, that he may or will go.*

A past tense in the principal clause requires a past tense or a future subjunctive in the subordinate clause; as, *He did this that he might please me. When she worked, he would work.*

Might, could, should, or would are used in dependent clauses when past tenses are used in principal clauses; as, *I came, was coming, had come, that you might see. I feared, was fearing, had feared, that you might, could, should, or would see.*

An apparent exception to the rule occurs in the case of a statement true for all time, which is put in the *present tense* even when the principal verb is in a past tense; as, *It was as true as that any two sides of a triangle are together greater than the third side.*

2. When an infinitive or a participle refers to a time coincident with, or after, that of the verb in the predicate, the present infinitive or the present participle is used; as, *I intended to go* (meaning, *At the time indicated my intention was to go*). *It was their duty to prevent this outrage. He would have found it difficult to do this. He had no intention of doing wrong.*

When an infinitive or a participle refers to a time prior to that indicated by the verb in the predicate, the perfect infinitive or the perfect participle is used; as, *He is reported to have rescued the man from drowning. He is not conscious of having done wrong.*

It is a pleasure to do the work successfully and *It is a pleasure to have done the work successfully* are both correct; but the first sentence means that the pleasure consists in *doing* the work, while the second means that the pleasure consists in *having done* the work.

Ought, must, need, and some other verbs that have no distinctive form for the past tense, take the present or the past infinitive, according to the sense: *He ought to go* (now). *He ought to have gone yesterday*. *He must be weary*. *He must have been weary*. *He need not go away*. *He need not have gone away*.

EXERCISE 79.—*Correct the errors in the use of tenses in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. I had hoped to have met you at church.
2. Where did you say Yellowstone Park was?
3. Is he very lame? I should say he was.
4. What factory was that I passed coming here?
5. The footnote explained that H_2O meant that water was composed of two parts of hydrogen to one of oxygen.
6. It was my desire to have invited my classmates to visit me in the country.
7. I neglected to have mentioned the fact.
8. He expected to have seen you to-morrow.
9. Washington is supposed to have many marvelous escapes from death.
10. The general intended to have examined the ground before the battle, but the advance of the enemy prevented him.
11. The lawyer expected to have won the suit, and was astonished to hear the judge's decision.
12. It has always been a question with me, whether boys or girls were better students of grammar.
13. Every time we resist temptation we have strengthened our wills.
14. He hadn't ought to go.

GOVERNMENT

DEFINITION.— **Government** is the power that a word has to determine the case of a noun or a pronoun; as when a pronoun, following a preposition, takes the objective form; as, *Behind him, before me.*

VII. Transitive verbs and their infinitives and participles govern the objective cases of nouns and pronouns. Prepositions also govern the objective case.

CAUTION 1. When the object is separated by a clause from the governing word, be careful that the object is used in the objective case; as, *Him (not he) that is suspicious of others, we are apt to suspect.*

CAUTION 2. In interrogative sentences, be careful to distinguish between a pronoun used as the object of a transitive verb or a preposition, and a pronoun used as a predicate complement; as, *whom (not who) did you meet? whom (not who) were you walking with? who (not whom) do you think he is?*

CAUTION 3. Be careful to use the objective cases of the personal pronouns after a preposition. *Between you and me (not I).*

CAUTION 4. When the object of a transitive verb is an *infinitive phrase*, consisting of an infinitive preceded by a subject, be sure that the subject is in the objective case; as, *Let him and me (not I) go.*

EXERCISE 80.— *Correct the errors in government in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. Mr. Barnum gave John and I tickets for the circus.
2. They that obey me I will reward.
3. He saw who he wanted.

4. Who do you think I met in Paris?
5. I do not know who to inquire for.
6. Let you and I look at these things.
7. Stay, I will not kill ye.
8. To send me away, and for so long a time, too, — I, who had always been a home body, — was a startling idea.
9. It is in this that the great difference lies between the laborer who moves to Yorkshire and he who moves to Canada.
10. He has given away about half his fortune to no one knows who.

MODIFICATION

Modification is the relation existing between an adjective or an adverb and the element upon which it depends.

VIII. An adjective modifies the meaning of a noun or a pronoun.

The article is repeated before connected nouns when the objects denoted are to be considered separately; as, *A noun or a pronoun may be the subject of a sentence.*

The article is repeated before connected adjectives when the noun is elided after the first; as, *The black and the white dress are mine; but the black and white dress is my sister's.*

As the indefinite article points out one thing of a kind or class, it should not be used with a word denoting a whole kind or class. We should say, *I like this kind of book*, not *this kind of a book*.

When a comparative is used with *than*, the thing compared must always be excluded from the class of things with which it is compared; as, *Rhode Island is smaller than any other state in the Union.*

When a superlative is used, the class that furnishes the objects of comparison, and that is introduced by *of*, should always

include the thing compared ; as, *Rhode Island is the smallest of all the states.*

The mistake is frequently made of using an adverb where a predicate adjective is needed to modify the meaning of the subject. We should say, *She looks pretty*, not *prettily*. We may, however, say, *He feels badly*, because *He feels bad* is ambiguous.

EXERCISE 81. — *In the following sentences correct the errors in the use of adjective modifiers, and give a reason for each change :*

1. The large and small dog belong to me.
2. The horse and mule are for sale.
3. John is taller than any boy in his class.
4. John is the tallest of his brothers.
5. This kind of a song always makes me feel bad.
6. You may read the third and fourth paragraph.
7. He is the man of all others who is least to be trusted.
8. What sort of a time did you have ?

IX. An adverb modifies the meaning of a verb, an adjective, or another adverb.

Two negatives destroy each other, or are equivalent to an affirmative ; as, *I will not offend no more = I will offend more.*

EXERCISE 82. — *In the following sentences correct the errors in the use of adjective and adverbial modifiers, and give a reason for each change :*

1. She hasn't learned her lesson yet, I don't think.
2. I can not scarcely comprehend the enormity of the offense.
3. I can not by no means permit you to do it.
4. Walk slow so that I may overtake you.
5. I have finished, but I have not done it good.

6. Of all other metals iron is the most useful.
7. It was real good of you to come.
8. She is an odd kind of a girl.
9. She looks sweetly to-day.
10. You have done fine.

ORDER OF WORDS

Since, in English, there are few inflections or changes in the form of a word to denote various relations, the order of words is often of importance in determining the sense.

The following principles, laid down by Dr. Bain, lie at the foundation of all the rules governing the arrangement of words in sentences :

1. *What is to be thought of first should be mentioned first.*
2. *Things to be thought of together should be placed in close connection.*

In what may be called the *usual order* of words in a sentence, the subject (including modifiers) precedes the predicate (the verb with its complements and its modifiers); because the subject of a sentence is generally thought of before the predicate.

The following exceptions should be noted :

1. In an interrogative sentence whose subject is not an interrogative pronoun the subject follows the verb or comes between the auxiliary and the principal verb; as, *Are you a pupil ? Will nothing move you ?*
2. When the verb is in the subjunctive mode and the introductory conjunction is omitted, the subject follows the verb or

comes between the auxiliary and the verb; as, *Had he lived till now*, etc. *Were you my son*, etc.

3. After *neither* or *nor*, signifying *and not*, the subject follows the verb; as, *Nor is this much to be regretted*.

4. With the imperative mode, the subject generally follows the verb; as, *Praise ye the Lord*.

5. In introducing a broken quotation, the subject often follows the verb; as, *Said he. Thought I*.

6. After the words *there* and *here* used to introduce a sentence, the subject follows the verb; as, *There was a king in Thule. Here followed a long list of studies*.

7. Deviations from the usual order are frequently made for the sake of emphasis or of sound. The places for emphatic words are the beginning and the end of a sentence. *Great is Diana of the Ephesians. He it is to whom I refer. Honey from out the gnarled hive I'll bring. Under a spreading chestnut tree the village smithy stands. Him the Almighty Power hurled headlong.*

EXERCISE 83. — *In the following sentences point out the departures from the usual order, state the verbs, and give reasons why each inversion is made :*

1. So persecuted they the prophets which were before you.
2. Then burst his mighty heart.
3. From peak to peak, the rattling crags among,
Leaps the live thunder.
4. To confirm his words out fly millions of flaming swords.
5. Down the street with laughter and shout,
Glad in the freedom of school let out,
Come the boys.
6. From the alehouse and the inn
Opening on the narrow street,
Came the loud convivial din,
Singing, and applause of feet.

7. Her wing shall the eagle flap
O'er the false-hearted.
8. Silently, one by one, in the infinite meadows of heaven,
Blossomed the lovely stars, the forget-me-nots of the
angels.
9. To seek thee did I often rove
Through woods and on the green.
10. In the courtyard of the castle, bound with many an iron
band,
Stands the mighty linden planted by Queen Kunigunde's
hand.
11. Pleasant it was, when woods were green,
And winds were soft and low,
To lie amid some sylvan scene,
Where, the long drooping boughs between,
Shadows dark and sunlight sheen
Alternate come and go.
12. Near to the bank of the river . . .
Stood, secluded and still, the house of the herdsman.
13. Into the valley of death rode the six hundred.
14. Some he imprisoned, others he put to death.
15. Full many a gem of purest ray serene
The dark unfathomed caves of ocean bear.
16. There dwelt a miller, hale and bold,
Beside the River Dee.
17. Rare almost as great poets, are consummate men of
business.

X. An adjective modifier should be placed as near as possible to the word whose meaning it modifies.

A single adjective or a series of adjectives precedes the noun whose meaning is modified ; as, *A wise son maketh a glad father.*
Many beautiful, fragrant flowers were blooming.

In poetry, for the sake of the *rime* or the *rhythm* (see pp. 263-264), and also for the sake of emphasis, the adjective is often placed after the noun; as,

*We sat within the farmhouse old
Whose windows looking o'er the bay,
Gave to the sea-breeze, damp and cold,
An easy entrance night and day.*

When the adjective is accompanied by modifiers of its own, it usually follows the noun; as, *A man wise in his own conceit.*

When two numerals modify the meaning of one noun, the ordinal adjective generally stands first, and the cardinal second; as, *The last three chapters of the book. The first two items of the account.*

An adjective participle or a participial phrase is usually placed immediately after the noun whose meaning it modifies; as, *The boy, having learned his lesson, went out to play.*

The participial phrase may, however, come first, when there is no doubt as to the noun to which it belongs; as, *Having crossed the Alps, Caesar came into Italy.*

A prepositional adjective phrase or an adjective clause should immediately follow the word whose meaning is modified; as, *Venus is the star of the morning. I that denied thee gold, will give my heart.*

CAUTION 1. Mistakes are frequently made through placing an adjective beside a noun to which it does not belong; as, *The Moor, seizing a bolster, full of rage and jealousy, smothers her.*

CAUTION 2. Carelessness in the use of a participle or a participial phrase often leaves the participle without a noun or pronoun to modify, which makes not only nonsense but bad grammar. Thus, in the sentence, *Being exceedingly fond of birds, an aviary is always to be found in his grounds*, there is no noun or pronoun whose meaning is modified by the participial phrase *being fond*. The sentence might be corrected by

changing the phrase to a clause, *Since he is exceedingly fond*, etc., or by recasting the principal clause, *He always has an aviary*, etc.

CAUTION 3. Ridiculous blunders are made by the misplacing of adjective phrases and clauses; as, *A piano for sale by a lady about to cross the Channel, in an oak case, with carved legs*.

EXERCISE 84. — *Correct the errors of arrangement in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. A woman was noticed loitering about the place where the child was seen carrying the child.

2. There are boats and lawn tennis and no mosquitoes to amuse the boarders.

3. If we are to believe the story, our hero was the guide, philosopher, and friend of Dr. Andrew Thomson when only a lad of thirteen.

4. Nor, indeed, can those habits be formed with certainty which are to continue during life in a shorter space.

5. A dish has been preserved in the treasury belonging to the cathedral, supposed to be made of emerald, for upward of six hundred years.

6. We have two rooms, sufficiently large to accommodate two hundred pupils, one above the other.

XI. An adverbial modifier should generally be placed as near as possible to the word whose meaning it modifies.

1. An adverb modifying the meaning of an intransitive verb generally follows the verb; as, *He walks rapidly*. A few adverbs, such as *ever*, *never*, *often*, *seldom*, generally precede the verb; as, *We often go to the city, but we seldom stay long, and never remain there overnight*.

2. An adverb modifying the meaning of a transitive verb generally precedes it, on account of the object following; but, in compound tenses, the adverb comes after the first auxiliary if the verb is in the active voice, and next to the principal verb if it is in the passive voice; as, *The troops **bravely** stormed the fortress. Learning has **always** elicited respect. He will **certainly** have finished before you arrive. The problem can be **easily** solved.* When the object of a transitive verb is short, the adverb is sometimes placed after the object; as, *I wrote my composition **yesterday**.* When the meaning of the object is modified by a phrase or a clause, an adverbial modifier is usually placed after the verb; as, *He read **with great care** the book that I gave him.*

3. When an adverb of time and an adverb of manner modify the meaning of the same verb, the adverb of time precedes the verb, and that of manner follows it; as, *We **never** suffer **willingly**.*

4. Adverbial phrases usually follow the same rules as adverbs with regard to position.

5. Adverbial clauses of time, place, or condition may precede or follow the verb in the principal clause; but, as a general rule, they should precede; as, ***When summer comes**, the days are longer. **If you wish it**, I will accompany you.*

6. Adverbial clauses of manner are generally placed before the principal clause, when the correlatives *as — so* are both expressed; but when *so* is omitted, the principal clause comes first; as, ***As the sun breaks through the darkest clouds**, so honor peereth through the meanest habit. Honor peereth through the meanest habit, as the sun breaks through the darkest clouds.*

7. Two or more phrases or clauses modifying the meaning of the same verb may be placed, one before, the other after, the verb; as, ***After a little practice** he will speak **with greater ease**. **If you will allow me**, I shall assist you **when I have finished my lesson**.*

CAUTION 1. Care should be taken to place the word *only* immediately before the word whose meaning it modifies. Also *solely, equally, at least, at any rate*. By the insertion of *only*, the sentence, *I spoke a few words*, may be made to give three different meanings:

- (a) *Only I spoke a few words. I spoke; no one else did.*
- (b) *I only spoke a few words. I spoke; I did nothing else.*
- (c) *I spoke only a few words. My speech was brief.*

At the end of a sentence *only* has a disparaging meaning; as, *He gave a dime only*.

With a noun or a pronoun it is often advisable to use *alone* instead of *only*; as, *He alone saw us*. If *alone* followed *us*, the meaning would be that he saw *us and no others*.

CAUTION 2. The negative adverb *not* may, if wrongly placed, impart to a sentence a meaning quite different from that intended. For *Lady Clare was not happy because she was beloved, but because, etc.*, we should read, *was happy, not because*.

CAUTION 3. The adverbs *ever, never, scarcely ever, etc.*, are often misplaced; as, *We never remember to have seen a more beautiful spot*. We should say, *We can not remember to have ever seen, etc.*

CAUTION 4. Where there are two or more verbs in a sentence, special care should be taken to place adverbial phrases and clauses close to the words whose meanings they modify.

He blew out his brains after bidding his wife good-by with a gun. Read, *After bidding his wife good-by, he blew, etc.*

You may read through the book I bought yesterday in half an hour. Place *in half an hour* before *through*, or *you*.

CAUTION 5. It is common to insert an adverb between *to* and the infinitive; as, *to bravely die*. This construction is contrary to the best usage, and is objectionable because of the identity in sound between *to bravely* and *too bravely*.

EXERCISE 85.— *Correct the errors of arrangement in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change:*

1. Several men died in the ship of fever.
2. The witness was ordered to withdraw in consequence of being intoxicated by order of the court.
3. A clever magistrate would see whether a witness was deliberately lying a great deal better than a stupid jury.
4. So correct is their ear that they can reproduce an air after once hearing it with the most perfect exactness.
5. We complimented them upon discussing matters which were in some countries found irritating in so calm a way.
6. It troubles the brains of children to be suddenly roused in a morning, and to be snatched away from sleep, wherein they are much deeper plunged than men, with haste and violence.
7. The carriage stopped at the small gate which led by a short gravel walk to the house amidst the nods and smiles of the whole party.
8. He always read Lord Byron's writings as soon as they were published with great avidity.
9. They followed the advance of the courageous party step by step through telescopes.
10. The convict ship was bearing him to expiate his crimes against the laws of his country in another hemisphere.
11. I found what a poor superficial creature I was afterward.
12. He was driving away from the church where he had been married in a coach and six.
13. Fights frequently ensue in consequence, but are generally put a stop to before any material damage is done by the interference of friends.
14. Nobler and loftier emotions lit up the hearts of men who had only sacrifices to make with a generous enthusiasm.
15. People ceased to wonder by degrees.

16. One day the sparrow did not perform certain tricks which he had taught it to his satisfaction.

17. Few people learn anything that is worth learning easily.

18. I never remember to have felt an event more deeply than his death.

19. I have only written three lines.

XII. The preposition generally precedes its object ; as, *Have a place for everything.*

The preposition, however, is often separated from a relative pronoun which it governs, and is then thrown to the end of the clause or sentence. Many modern grammarians forbid this construction, but it is common with the best writers ; as,

The world is too well bred to shock authors with a truth which generally their booksellers are the first that inform them of. — Pope.

For I must use the freedom I was born with. — Massinger.

The preposition is sometimes separated from its object in order to connect another preposition with the same noun ; as, *He voted first with, and afterwards against, the majority.* This construction, while not wrong, is to be avoided.

XIII. When two words are used correlatively, each member of the pair should come before the same part of speech. The following are the most important :

Not . . . but.

The wise teacher should not aim to repress, but to encourage, his pupils. Read, aim not to repress.

Not . . . but only.

He did not strive for fame, but only for the right. Read, *He strove not for fame, etc.*

Not only . . . but also.

They did not only choose him secretary, but also president.
Place not only before secretary.

Not only . . . but.

The Roman nobles not only were obliged to learn the Greek language, but to speak it. Not only should come before to learn.

Not merely . . . but.

They will not merely interest children but grown-up people.
Not merely should precede children.

Not more . . . than.

They seem to me necessary not more to the accuracy of the extracts than of the portrait I seek to give of the writer. Not more should follow accuracy.

Both . . . and.

The clergyman both spoke eloquently and sincerely. Read, both eloquently and sincerely.

Either . . . or.

The rules are too vague either for discussion or practical use.
Read, for either discussion, etc.

Neither . . . nor.

Her success is neither the result of system nor of strategy.
Read, neither of system nor, etc.

EXERCISE 86. — *Correct the errors of arrangement in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change :*

1. Homer was not only the maker of a nation, but of a language and a religion.

2. Every composition is fairly liable to criticism both with regard to its design and to its execution.

3. I am neither acquainted with the writer nor his works.

4. He is neither disposed to sanction bloodshed nor deceit.

5. I know not what better description I could give you either of a great captain or a great orator.

6. He not only visited Paris, but Berlin, Vienna, and St. Petersburg.

ELLIPSIS

Ellipsis is the omission from a sentence of some word or words necessary to the grammatical construction.

Ellipsis is permissible only when the omission does not obscure the sense; or, in other words, when the mind of the reader or the hearer easily supplies the omitted word.

The following cases of ellipsis are found:

1. A noun whose meaning is modified by a noun in the possessive case; as, *Who built St. Paul's* (Cathedral)?
2. The subject of a verb in the imperative mode; as, *Lay* (you) *not up for yourselves treasures*.
3. The participle in the absolute construction; as, *His heart and pocket* (being) *light, he sleeps secure*.
4. The relative pronoun used as subject of a verb; as, *'Tis distance* (that) *lends enchantment to the view*.
5. The relative pronoun used as the object of a verb or of a preposition; as, *The anxiety* (that) *I underwent was extreme*. *This is the house* (that) *I live in*.
6. A phrase consisting of a relative pronoun governed by a preposition; as, *This is the way* (by which) *I came*. *He left the day* (on which) *I arrived*. The omitted phrase is generally equivalent to *when* or *where*.
7. A personal or demonstrative pronoun used as the antecedent of a relative pronoun; as, (He) *who steals my purse, steals trash*. *I shall follow* (him or her) *whom I please* (to follow).
8. A subject noun or pronoun; as, (I) *thank you*.
9. A verb; as, *Whose* (is) *this image and superscription?*
10. An infinitive; as, *Will you sing?* *I shall try* (to sing).
11. The subject, or the predicate, or both, in adverbial clauses; as, *The river is smooth where* (it is) *deep*. *He is as tall*

as you (are tall). *He is larger than* (he was large) *a year ago.*
He loves me better than (he loves) *thee.* *He loves me better*
than thou (lovest me).

12. The verb in one of the members of a compound sentence; as, *Though all men forsake thee, yet will not I* (forsake thee).

13. A conditional clause; as, *I should be glad to see you* (if you would come).

14. *That*, introducing a clause; as, *He says* (that) *he will not come.*

15. The object of a verb; as, *I knew him well, and every truant knew* (him).

16. A preposition; as, *He departed* (from) *this life.* *He left* (on) *this morning.*

EXERCISE 87. — *Supply the ellipses in the following sentences, and state the offices performed by the omitted words :*

1. Bring me my books.
2. I was at my brother's yesterday.
3. Who did it? I.
4. She loved me for the dangers I had passed.
5. The property I possess is but small.
6. This done, proceed with your story.
7. This truth is better expressed by Solomon than him.
8. Better be with the dead.
9. He entered, hat in hand, and sat down.
10. It is strange you did not discover it.
11. 'Tis the sunset of life gives me mystical lore.
12. Is this the kind of book you want?
13. No man I know would suit you better.
14. The moment I saw him I recognized him.
15. Off with the traitor's head, and rear it in the place your father stands.

16. Whom he would he chose for his counselors.
17. He was busy while here.
18. I get as much work as I want.
19. They are as cunning as fierce.
20. Though you accept the invitation, I will not.
21. Come what may, I will not submit.
22. I would accept such an offer.
23. He knows the boy as well as I.
24. He knows the boy as well as me.
25. I know no better man than he. •

EXERCISE 88.— *Correct the errors in the following sentences, and give a reason for each change. To detect the errors, examine the concord (1) of subjects and verbs, (2) of adjectives and nouns, (3) of pronouns and antecedents, (4) of subjects and complements, (5) of words in apposition, and (6) of tenses; (7) the sequences of tenses; (8) the government of pronouns; (9) the use of adjective and adverbial modifiers; and the location (10) of adjective modifiers, (11) of adverbial modifiers, and (12) of correlatives.*

1. Among the boys were John with his little brother.
2. I was sure it was him.
3. Whom do you think visited me yesterday?
4. I told him that he had ought to have come himself.
5. One finds it very easy to excuse his own faults.
6. The teacher said that cold always made water visible.
7. Neither Mary nor any one of her companions were to blame.
8. Coming into the room suddenly, not a sound could be heard.
9. He would have given you the book if you wanted it.

10. I have only been there once, but was pleased with everything.

11. Us boys would like you to have seen our camp.

12. I saw a woman that I took to be she.

13. Will I close the window now ?

14. The lecturer spoke to my brother and I after the meeting.

15. Every flower and every leaf are glistening with dew.

16. I was afraid that I should have missed the train.

17. Each of the pupils are responsible for their own conduct.

18. We thought it to be he.

19. The carriage stopped at the small gate which led by a short gravel walk to the house amidst the nods and smiles of the whole party.

20. I can not find no more errors.

21. Come quick or you will miss the train.

22. This is the best work that I ever have, or ever can do.

23. Have you seen my cousin to-day, she who was here yesterday ?

24. Gold is more precious than any metal.

25. It is real warm to-day.

26. The doctor and lawyer are here.

27. The first and last page are interesting.

28. Do you like these sort of people ?

29. We don't like to appear critical, but it don't seem right to let this pass.

RULES FOR CAPITALS

1. **Begin with a capital the first word of every sentence.**

2. **Begin with a capital the first word of every line of poetry.**

3. **Begin with a capital every proper noun and every proper adjective.**

4. **Begin with a capital every name or title of the Deity, and every pronoun referring to the Deity, if this reference would not otherwise be clear.**

O Thou that hearest prayer.

5. Write the pronoun *I* and the interjection *O* with capitals.
6. Begin with capitals the names of the days of the week, the months of the year, and holidays.
7. Begin with a capital every title of honor or respect.
8. Begin with capitals the names of points of the compass when they denote sections of a country.

Gold is found in the great Northwest.

9. Begin with a capital every word that denotes an important epoch or event of history.

The Civil War lasted four years.

10. Begin with a capital the name of anything personified.

Then Peace shall smile upon us, and Plenty abide among us.

11. Begin with a capital the name of every religious denomination.

12. Begin with a capital every *direct* quotation. The first word of an *indirect* quotation should begin with a small letter, unless it requires a capital by the operation of some other rule.

Direct.—He quoted the maxim, "Honesty is the best policy."

Indirect.—He reminded us that honesty is the best policy.

ITALICS, SMALL CAPITALS, Etc.

The letters used in ordinary printing are called Roman, because they were those used in writing the Latin language. If we desire to call particular attention to a word, we may print it in *italic* characters; if to make it very emphatic, in SMALL CAPITALS; and if to make it still more emphatic, in LARGE CAPITALS.

1. Italics may be used for words that we desire to make emphatic, particularly if two or more words are placed in contrast ; as,

Amongst the arts connected with the *elegancies* of social life, in a degree which nobody denies, is the art of conversation ; but in a degree which almost everybody denies, if one may judge by their neglect of its simplest rules, this same art is not less connected with the *uses* of social life.

— *De Quincey, Conversation.*

It is well to be very sparing in the use of *italics*. Their frequent employment is generally the mark of a weak thinker and inexperienced writer.

2. Words borrowed from another language are generally, and the names of newspapers, magazines, and books, sometimes, printed in italics ; as,

I prefer to be owned as sound and solvent, and my word as good as my bond, and to be what can not be skipped, or dissipated, or undermined, to all the *éclat* in the universe.

— *Emerson, Illusions.*

Robinson Crusoe, which is a fairy tale to the child, a book of adventure to the young, is a work on social philosophy to the mature. It is a picture of civilization.

— *Frederic Harrison, The Choice of Books.*

It is also quite usual to write the names of books and periodicals within quotation marks.

In manuscript, *italics* are indicated by a single line drawn underneath a word ; SMALL CAPITALS, by two lines ; LARGE CAPITALS, by three lines.

RULES FOR PUNCTUATION

I. THE COMMA

1. A subject which is, or which contains, a clause, is separated from the predicate by a comma.

That gymnastic training is good for boys, is clear.

2. Words in a series should be separated from one another by commas, unless all the conjunctions are expressed.

Poetry, music, and painting are fine arts.

3. When words connected by a conjunction follow in successive pairs, a comma should be inserted after each pair.

Sink or swim, live or die, survive or perish, I am for the Declaration.

4. A noun, a phrase, or a clause in apposition, unless it is closely connected with the word it modifies, should be set off by commas.

Paul, the Apostle of the Gentiles, preached at Athens.

5. An appositive adjective or adjective phrase is set off from the rest of the sentence by a comma or commas.

General Wolfe, wounded and dying, learned of his great victory.

6. An adverbial phrase preceding the verb and its subject is usually followed by a comma.

Beyond the shadow of the ship, I watched the water snakes.

7. An adverbial phrase coming between the subject and the verb, or between the parts of the predicate, is set off by commas.

The soldier, from force of habit, obeys.

8. The following adverbs, particularly when they begin a sentence, are *usually* set off by commas :

again	first	lastly	moreover	now
besides	secondly	finally	namely	indeed
however	thirdly, etc.	hence	nay	thus

9. The name of a person addressed is set off by a comma.

10. When the same object follows two or more prepositions, a comma is inserted after each preposition.

He was sent by, and he acted for, the people of the village.

11. A relative clause, when it is not restrictive, is separated by a comma from the noun or pronoun whose meaning it modifies.

Restrictive. — I will tell it to the man that is at the gate.

Not restrictive. — I will tell it to my father, who is waiting to hear it.

12. When an adverbial clause precedes the principal clause, the former is followed by a comma.

If he come soon, I shall be glad.

13. When an adverbial clause is introduced within a principal clause, or within a subordinate clause, it is preceded and followed by commas.

The man is, as I suppose, your friend.

14. A quotation is set off from the rest of the sentence by a comma or commas, unless it is formally introduced.

Beware of the man who says, "I am on the eve of a discovery." "Art is long," says Longfellow, "and time is fleeting."

15. The omission of a verb is indicated by a comma.

To err is human ; to forgive, divine.

16. Independent clauses, when they are not themselves subdivided by commas, and are related in meaning, are separated by commas.

On they go, and still more springs come, and the rivers grow larger and larger.

II. THE SEMICOLON

1. The clauses of a compound sentence, when they are themselves subdivided by commas, are separated by semicolons.

Having detained you so long already, I shall not trespass longer on your patience; but, before concluding, I wish to make this statement.

2. When a quotation or an illustration is introduced by *as* or *namely*, a semicolon should be placed before the introductory word, and a comma after it.

An island is a portion of land surrounded by water; as, Australia, Iceland.

III. THE COLON

1. The clauses of a compound sentence, when they are themselves subdivided by semicolons, are separated by colons.

The quality of mercy is not strained; it droppeth as the gentle rain from heaven upon the place beneath: it is twice blessed; it blesseth him that gives and him that takes.

2. A quotation or an enumeration of particulars, when formally introduced, is preceded by a colon.

Emerson says this: "The plague of society is egotists."
The following metals are found in California: gold, silver, etc.

IV. THE PERIOD

1. A period should be placed after every declarative and every imperative sentence.

2. A period should be placed after every abbreviation.

Mr. Hon. Penn. LL.D. A.M.

3. A period is often placed after Roman numerals used as ordinals.

Edward VII. is king of Great Britain and Ireland.

V. THE INTERROGATION POINT

An interrogative word, phrase, or sentence should be followed by an interrogation point.

Where did you see him? In the house? When?

VI. THE EXCLAMATION POINT

An exclamation point should be placed after every exclamatory word, phrase, or sentence.

Stand! The ground's your own, my braves!

VII. OTHER MARKS

The *Dash* [—] is used

1. When a sentence breaks off abruptly.

I don't believe that the train — but I'm mistaken; it's coming now.

2. When there is a sudden change in the subject.

He did not understand — he was very dull — the teacher's explanation.

3. Sometimes before words used to explain the meaning of preceding words.

We were abundantly provided with all kinds of good things — pies, cakes, fruits, etc.

The *Parentheses* [()] are used

To inclose a remark that might be omitted without destroying the sense of the sentence.

Washington (he was the first President) died in the year 1799.

The *Apostrophe* ['] is used

1. To denote the omission of a letter or of letters.

I'll come before you've gone.

2. To denote the possessive case.

The sailor's last resting place was beneath the ocean's waves.

The *Hyphen* [-] is used

1. To join the parts of compound expressions.

The hyphen is seldom used to join the parts of a compound word unless it is an unusual compound, as "the tree-planted lawn." When several words are joined to form a noun, adjective, or other part of speech, they should be connected by hyphens; as, "He spoke of that never-to-be-forgotten incident." All such constructions should be avoided by young writers.

2. To indicate that one or more syllables of a word will be found at the beginning of the next line below.

Observe carefully the following rules for dividing a word of more than one syllable when it comes at the end of a line:

1. Make the division only at the end of a syllable; as, rheto-ric.

2. When a vowel constitutes a syllable in the middle of a word, put it in the first line, thus: *sepa-rate*, not *sep-arate*; *particu-lar*, not *partic-ular*; exceptions are words ending in *-able* or *-ible*, which should carry the vowel into the second line.

3. Do not divide a word so as to carry over a syllable of only two letters to the next line.

4. Do not divide the last word at the bottom of a page.

Quotation Marks [“ ”] are used

To show that a passage was written or spoken by some other person exactly as given.

“Come in,” he said, “and tell us all about your journey.”

A quotation occurring within another quotation should be inclosed within single quotation marks.

He replied, “I thought I heard you say, ‘Come in.’”

The Index [

To call attention to a passage of special importance, or to indicate direction.

 Whatever is worth doing at all is worth doing well.

The Paragraph [¶] is used

To denote the beginning of a new topic.

The Caret [^] is used

To show the omission of letters or words in writing.

u		not
Bea	tiful.	He was
^		^
		at home.

The Asterisk [*], **the Dagger** [†], **the Double Dagger** [‡], **the Section** [§], and **the Parallels** [||], are used

To refer to notes in the margin, or at the bottom of the page.

EXERCISE 89. — *In accordance with the rules given above, punctuate the following sentences and use capitals where they are needed :*

1. that every sentence every paragraph and every whole composition should have oneness or unity is a principle that rhetoric teaches to secure unity in sentences is extremely important yet it is not an easy thing to do the following is a good rule for young writers have for each sentence one main thought and only one express it and then put the period

2. there are two forms of quotation namely the direct and the indirect in the sentence longfellow said art is long and time is fleeting the words of the writer are given exactly as they were written in the sentence brutus said that he would rather be a dog than such a roman we have the words of one person as reported by another

3. the quotation in this paragraph is taken from the writings of shakespeare the greatest of english poets do you see that it furnishes an excellent illustration of climax what a piece of work is man how noble in reason how infinite in faculty in form and moving how express and admirable in action how like an angel in apprehension how like a god

4. good writers avoid pleonasm or the expression of some part of their meaning more than once this construction is however sometimes used in poetry to lend force to the expression as the deck it was their field of fame can you find a similar construction in these lines from the wreck of the hesperus the skipper he stood beside the helm his pipe was in his mouth and he watched how the veering flaw did blow the smoke now west now south

5. truth crushed to earth shall rise again
 the eternal years of god are hers
 but error wounded writhes in pain
 and dies among his worshipers — *bryant*

6. i know not where his islands lift
 their fronded palms in air
 i only know i can not drift
 beyond his love and care — *whittier*

7. the wise will determine from the gravity of the case the irritable from sensibility to oppression the high minded from disdain and indignation at abusive power in unworthy hands the brave and bold from the love of honorable danger in a generous cause but with or without right a revolution will be the very last resource of the thinking and the good

8. know then this truth enough for man to know
 virtue alone is happiness below

9. truth is fair and artless simple and sincere uniform and consistent

10. o sohrab an unquiet heart is thine

11. the table stood before him charged with food a side of roasted sheep and cakes of bread and dark green melons

12. as gen. southard was a soldier in the civil war we have invited him to take part in our fourth of july exercises which will be held in the elm street methodist church next wednesday morning

VII. GENERAL REVIEW

ETYMOLOGY AND SYNTAX

I. The Sentence

1. Classification

Use

Form

2. Analysis

Subject and predicate

Subject

Word

Phrase

Clause

Verb

Complements

Words

Phrases

Clauses

Supplement

Modifiers

Words

Phrases

Clauses

Connectives

Independent elements

II. Word Elements

1. Classification
2. Inflection
3. Syntax

III. Phrase Elements

1. Classification
2. Syntax

IV. Clause Elements

1. Classification
2. Syntax

The outline given above may be used for topical recitations or for a systematic review of the whole subject of English grammar. The student should recite without the help of questions from the teacher. With the help of the Index, he should refer, when necessary, to topics and explanations in the text; and he should illustrate his statements with words, phrases, and sentences taken from the selections given below. The recitation might proceed as follows:

MODEL.—Sentences are classified according to use and according to form. The kinds of sentences classified according to use are: declarative, interrogative, and imperative. A declarative sentence is a sentence used to state or declare something. *Surely, if ever any poet might have equaled himself with legislators on this ground, it was Burns,* is a declarative sentence. An interrogative sentence is a sentence, etc.

1. "Let me make the songs of a people," said Fletcher, "and you shall make its laws." Surely, if ever any poet might have equaled himself with legislators on this ground, it was Burns. His songs are already part of the mother tongue, not of Scotland only, but of Britain, and of the millions that in all ends of the earth speak a British language. In hut and hall, as the heart unfolds itself in many-colored joy and woe of existence, the *name*, the *voice* of that joy and that woe, is the name and voice that Burns has given them. Strictly speaking, perhaps no British man has so deeply affected the thoughts and feelings of so many men, as this solitary and altogether private individual, with means apparently the humblest. — *Carlyle*.

2. Upward went the pilgrims of the Great Carbuncle, now treading upon the tops and thickly interwoven branches of dwarf pines, which, by the growth of centuries, though mossy with age, had barely reached three feet in altitude. Next, they came to masses and fragments of naked rock heaped confusedly together, like a cairn reared by giants in memory of a giant chief. In this bleak realm of upper air nothing breathed, nothing grew; there was no light but was concentrated in their two hearts; they had climbed so high that Nature herself seemed no longer to keep them company. She lingered beneath them, within the verge of the forest trees, and sent a farewell glance after her children as they strayed where her own green footprints had never been. — *Hawthorne*.

3. "O Tiber! father Tiber!

To whom the Romans pray,
A Roman's life, a Roman's arms,
Take thou in charge this day!"
So he spake, and speaking, sheathed
The good sword by his side,
And with his harness on his back
Plunged headlong in the tide. — *Macaulay*.

4. Truth from his lips prevailed with double sway,
And fools who came to scoff, remained to pray.
The service passed, around the pious man,
With steady zeal, each honest rustic ran;
Even children followed, with endearing wile,
And plucked his gown, to share the good man's smile.
His ready smile a parent's warmth exprest,
Their welfare pleased him, and their cares distrest;
To them his heart, his love, his griefs, were given,
But all his serious thoughts had rest in heaven :
As some tall cliff that lifts its awful form,
Swells from the vale, and midway leaves the storm,
Though round its breast the rolling clouds are spread,
Eternal sunshine settles on its head. — *Goldsmith*.

5. As plants convert the minerals into food for animals, so each man converts some raw material in nature to human use. The inventors of fire, electricity, magnetism, iron, lead, glass, linen, silk, cotton; the makers of tools; the inventor of decimal notation; the geometer; the engineer; the musician,— severally make an easy way for all, through unknown and impossible confusions. — *Emerson*.

6. Remember March, the ides of March remember :
Did not great Julius bleed for justice' sake ?
What villain touched his body, that did stab,
And not for justice ? What, shall one of us,
That struck the foremost man of all this world
But for supporting robbers, shall we now
Contaminate our fingers with base bribes,
And sell the mighty space of our large honors
For so much trash as may be grasped thus ?
— *Shakespeare*.

COMMON ERRORS IN SPEECH CLASSIFIED

I. NOUNS.

1. A proper noun begun with a small letter :
*He lives in **boston**.*
2. Incorrect form to express plural number :
*He shot two **deers**.*
3. Incorrect form to express masculine or feminine gender :
*She was a **wizard**.*
4. Incorrect form of the possessive case :
*Two **boy's** heads and two **sheeps'** heads.*
5. Use of the objective case for the possessive :
*I was sorry to hear of **John** doing wrong.*

II. PRONOUNS.

1. Pronoun *I* written with a small letter :
*Where shall **i** go ?*
2. Pronoun *I* placed incorrectly :
***I** and my sister will attend the concert.*
3. Use of compound personal pronoun for simple personal pronoun :
***John** and **myself** will do it.*

4. Incorrect choice of relative pronoun :

*I have a dog **who** barks at night. This is the person **which** did the wrong. This is the house **what** Jack built. Columbus, **that** discovered America, was an Italian.*

5. Lack of concord between pronoun and antecedent :

*Every one of the pupils lost **their** books.*

6. Incorrect case form :

*The book is **yourn**, **hern**, or **hisn**. I recognize **it's** cover.*

7. Use of nominative case for objective :

*Give it to Kate and **I**. I knew it to be **she**.*

8. Use of objective case for nominative :

***Him** and **me** are brothers. **Whom** do you suppose **she** is ? It was **her**.*

9. Use of objective case for possessive :

*There is no chance of **me** being chosen.*

10. Pleonastic use :

*John, **he** tried, and then Mary, **she** tried.*

11. Ambiguous use :

*The man told his son to take **his** coat to the tailor's.*

III. VERBS AND VERBALS.

1. Use of the indicative mode for the subjunctive:

*I wish I **was** you.*

2. Use of the subjunctive mode for the indicative:

*If the cavern **were** of artificial construction, considerable pains had been taken to make it look natural.*

3. Use of incorrect form to express tense:

*I **done** it. He **seen** it. She **come** late yesterday.
I **see** him last week. The boy has **went** home.
My hands **were** froze. He **teached** me all I know. I **ain't** seen it.*

4. Error in sequence of tenses:

*I meant, when first I came, to **have bought** all Paris. He did not know that mercury **was** a metal.*

5. Lack of agreement between verb and subject:

***Was** you glad to see us? Neither he nor she **have** ever been there. It **don't** cost much.*

6. Use of incorrect forms of principal parts of certain verbs; e.g. sit and lie:

*The hen **sets** on the eggs. The dress **sets** well.
The book **lays** on the table. It **laid** there yesterday. It **has laid** there all week.*

7. Incorrect use of *shall*, *will*, *should*, and *would* :

I will be pleased to see you. I would like to see you to-morrow.

8. Use of adjective participle without modified word :

Coming into the room, a great noise was heard.

9. Placing of adverb between *to* and the infinitive :

He tried to thoroughly understand the case.

IV. ADJECTIVES.

1. Omission of article :

The noun and pronoun are inflected.

2. Use of superfluous article :

I do not like this kind of a story.

3. Use of *a* for *an*, and *an* for *a* :

This is an universal custom. I should like a apple.

4. Use of adverb for predicate adjective :

She looks nicely.

5. Lack of concord between certain adjectives and the words they modify :

I do not like these kind of grapes.

6. Incorrect forms of comparison :

*His ways have become **eviler**.*

7. Use of comparative form not accompanied by certain necessary words :

He is shorter than any boy in his class. (Other should be inserted before boy.)

8. Use of superlative form accompanied by certain superfluous words :

This is of all others the most important. (Others is superfluous.)

9. Use of double comparative or superlative forms :

*She is **more kinder** than you.*

10. Incorrect placing of adjective phrases and clauses :

*The mariner shot the bird **with an unfeeling heart**.*

V. ADVERBS.

1. Use of adjective for adverb :

*She sings **real** well.*

2. Incorrect use of double negatives :

*I can **not go no** faster.*

3. Incorrect placing of adverbs and of adverbial phrases and clauses :

*I **only** came yesterday, and I go to-day.*

VI. PREPOSITIONS.

1. Incorrect choice of prepositions :

I walked from the hall in the room. Divide this between the three boys. I was to New York to-day.

2. Omission of preposition :

She is an example of what a person in good health is capable. (Of should be supplied at the end.)

3. Use of a superfluous preposition :

The book in which the story is in is mine.

VII. CONJUNCTIONS.

1. Incorrect choice of conjunctions ; especially like for as, and as for that :

I can not write like you do. I don't know as I can go.

2. Incorrect choice of correlatives :

Neither this or that will do.

3. Use of a superfluous conjunction :

*I have no doubt but that he will come.
This is a fine picture and which all will admire.*

4. Incorrect placing of correlatives :

He is neither disposed to sanction bloodshed nor deceit. (Place neither before bloodshed.)

EXERCISE 90. — *Correct the errors in the following sentences, and give a reason for each correction :*

1. He sent those whom he thought would do the work.
2. He said that heat always caused metals to expand.
3. Neither he nor any one of his friends were there to meet me.
4. Rowing on the lake, a storm came up suddenly.
5. He would have gone if you desired.
6. No braver a man than he ever died for his country.
7. This place is the pleasantest of any other spot in this section of the country.
8. Whom do you think came to see me to-day ?
9. These orders, being illegal, they are generally communicated orally.
10. Anna told her sister that her dress was torn, but she said that she would mend it.
11. We hear that it was Mr. A.'s horse, and not himself, who was hurt to-day.
12. A short time ago a letter appeared in your paper from myself.
13. Those sort of persons always succeed.
14. The dog sprang from the bank in the water.
15. The man of whom I spoke to you about is at the door.
16. I was not to school all last week.
17. The boys who waste their time like John does will suffer like he does.
18. This is a true saying, and which all will accept.
19. We can not excuse him being late.
20. I and the other pupils were dismissed early to-day.
21. He would not listen to no excuse.
22. The boy has grown quite tall, and he now looks real strong.
23. This is the most coolest spot we can find.
24. Will each of the boys bring their papers to me ?

25. This paper is her's.
26. The black and white horse are sold.
27. My friend, Mr. A., is more talented than any man I know.
28. If I was you I would not act so.
29. He give me the book yesterday.
30. My picture was took last week.
31. She tried to learn me my lesson.
32. I intended to have seen you when you called.
33. It don't sound right to me.
34. The example not only seems easy, but also short.
35. The teacher wants you and I to remain.
36. How long have these leaves laid here?
37. Will i see you tomorrow?
38. Among the children were Julia with her little sister Mary.
39. He was able to easily adjust the stand.
40. This is the study what I dislike most.

VIII. PROSODY

Prosody is that part of grammar which treats of the rules that govern verse.

Verse, as distinguished from prose, is the name given to the peculiar structure of language employed in *poetry*.

The word *verse* is derived from the stem *vers* = turn, and is so called because when the writer has written a certain number of syllables he *turns*, as it were, and commences a new line. Originally, the word was applied only to a *line* of poetry. It is now, however, used to designate the general structure of poetry, as well as a group of lines of poetry, and even one of the subdivisions of a chapter in the Bible.

The chief distinction between *verse* and *prose* is that the former is marked by the recurrence, at regular intervals, of syllables that must be accented by the voice in reading. This regular recurrence of accent is called **rhythm**.

The word *rhythm* comes from a Greek word, meaning *measured motion*.

A **foot** is a group of two or three syllables upon one of which the accent, or stress of the voice, falls in reading.

Meter, or measure, is determined by the number and kind of feet in a line. Thus:

I spráng | to the stír|rup, and Jó|ris and hé,
I gál|loped, Dirck gál|loped, we gál|loped all thrée.

— *R. Browning.*

Rhythm is essential to verse. **Rime**, on the other hand, is not essential, but is very generally used as an additional ornament.

Rime is usually spelled *rhyme*, but the older spelling (*rime*), "which is etymologically preferable, is coming into use again."
— *Webster's International Dictionary.*

Rime consists in the similarity of sound in the final syllable or syllables of two or more words. Three things are essential to a perfect *rime*:

1. The vowel sounds of the riming syllables, and, if the vowels are followed by consonants, the consonant sounds, must be the same; as, *try* and *cry*, *light* and *sprite*. Identity of sound, not of letters, is required. *Lose* and *close* do not rime.

2. The consonant sounds preceding the vowels must be different; as, *way* and *lay*, *sour* and *power*.

3. Similarity of accent; as, *sing* and *fling*. *Sing-ing* and *fling* do not rime.

In *single rimes*, one syllable rimes with another; as, *hand* and *band*. In *double rimes*, two syllables rime with two other syllables; as, *crying* and *trying*. In *triple rimes*, three syllables rime with three other syllables. In *double* and *triple rimes*, the first rim-

ing syllables must conform to the rules for single rimes; the other syllables should be identical in sound.

Riming syllables usually occur at the ends of lines; the last syllable of a line may, however, be made to rime with one in the middle of the line; as,

Ho, trumpets, sound a war-note!
Ho, lictors, clear the *way*!
The knights will *ride*, in all their *pride*,
Along the streets to-day. — *Macaulay*.

Lines whose final syllables rime should have the same *indentation*; that is, should be commenced, in writing or printing, at an equal distance from the margin. Thus:

Ring out the old, ring in the new,
Ring, happy bells, across the snow:
The year is going, let him go;
Ring out the false, ring in the true. — *Tennyson*.

A **couplet** is composed of two consecutive lines the final syllables of which rime. A **triplet** is composed of three such lines.

In **blank verse** there is rhythm, but not rime; as,

Of man's first disobedience, and the fruit
Of that forbidden tree, whose mortal taste
Brought Death into the world, and all our woe,
With loss of Eden, till one greater Man
Restore us, and regain the blissful seat,
Sing, heav'nly Muse.

A **stanza** is a regularly recurring group of lines. For examples of stanzas, see Longfellow's "Psalm of Life" and "Village Blacksmith."

To **scan** a line is to mark the feet and tell what kind they are.

KINDS OF FEET

Feet are divided into dissyllabic and trisyllabic.

The dissyllabic feet are the **iambus** and the **trochee**.

In classical poetry a third dissyllabic foot, called the **spondee**, consisting of two long syllables, is used.

An **iambus** is a dissyllabic foot accented on the second syllable; as, *adore*.

Some prefer to use the technical terms of classical poetry and to speak of an unaccented syllable as *short* [marked thus (∪)], and of an accented syllable as *long* [marked thus (—)].

A **trochee** is a dissyllabic foot accented on the first syllable; as, *rosy* (— ∪).

The word comes from the Greek *trochos*, a running, and the foot is so called from the tripping, sprightly movement it imparts to the verse.

The trisyllabic feet are the **anapest**, the **dactyl**, and the **amphibrach**.

The **anapest** is a trisyllabic foot, accented on the third syllable; as, *intercede* (∪ ∪ —).

The **anapest** (*ana* = back, and *paistos* = struck) is so called because it is the reverse of the dactyl.

The **dactyl** is a trisyllabic foot accented on the first syllable; as, *holiness* (— ∪ ∪).

The dactyl (Greek *daktylos*, a finger) is so called, because, like a finger, it has one long joint and two short joints.

The **amphibrach** is a trisyllabic foot, having the accent on the middle syllable; as *coeval* (∪ — ∪).

The amphibrach (*amphi* = on both sides, and *brachys* = short) is so called because there is an unaccented syllable on each side of an accented syllable.

Verses are classified according to the kind of foot and the number of feet occurring in each line. According to the kind of foot, verse may be *iambic*, *trochaic*, *anapestic*, *dactylic*, or *amphibrachic*. According to the number of feet, a verse is *monometer*, if of one foot; *dimeter*, if of two feet; *trimeter*, if of three feet; *tetrameter*, if of four feet; *pentameter*, if of five feet; and *hexameter*, if of six feet.

If a verse has a syllable more than the regular measure, it is called *hypermeter*; if a syllable less, *catalectic*.

DISSYLLABIC VERSE

IAMBIC MEASURES

In *iambic* measures the accents generally fall on the even syllables, the second, fourth, etc.

(a) Lines in IAMBIC MONOMETER are rarely found.

(b) IAMBIC DIMETER

With ráv|ished éars
The món|arch héars. — *Dryden*.

(c) IAMBIC TRIMETER

Alóft | in áw|ful státe
The gód|like hé|ro sát. — *Dryden*.

IAMBIC TRIMETER HYPERMETER

In ró|ses Cú|pid peép|ing
Distúrbed | a beé | a sleép|ing.

(d) IAMBIC TETRAMETER

A pér|fect wó|man, nó|bly plánned
To wárn, | to cóm|fort, ánd | commánd;
And yet a spirit still and bright
With something of an angel light. — *Wordsworth*.

This is the measure in which most of Sir Walter Scott's longer poems are written. He often varies it by introducing triplets, and dimeters or trimeters.

(e) IAMBIC PENTAMETER

Achí|lles' wráth, | to Greéce | the díre|ful spríng
Of wóes | unnúm|bered, heáv'n|ly gód|dess, sing. — *Pope*.

This is what is generally called Heroic Measure. Unrimed iambic pentameters constitute the most common form of blank verse. Milton's "Paradise Lost" and most of Shakespeare's plays are written in *pentameter blank verse*, though many of the lines are either *hypermeter* or *catalectic*.

The *elegiac stanza* is a variety of this measure. It consists of four heroic lines, riming alternately; as,

The curfew tolls the knell of parting day,
 The lowing herd winds slowly o'er the lea,
 The plowman homeward plods his weary way,
 And leaves the world to darkness and to me. — *Gray*.

The *Spenserian stanza*, in which Spenser's "The Faerie Queene" and Byron's "Childe Harold" are written, consists of eight heroic lines, followed by an *Alexandrine*. The riming lines are the first and third; the second, fourth, fifth, and seventh; and the sixth, eighth, and ninth.

(f) IAMBIC HEXAMETER

A needless Alexandrine ends the song,
 Which, like | a wound|ed snake, | drags its | slow length | along.
 — *Pope*.

This measure is what is called *Alexandrine*.

(g) IAMBIC HEPTAMETER

Now gló|ry tó | the Lórd | of hósts, | from whóm | all gló|ries
 áre!
 And glory to our Sovereign Liege, King Henry of Navarre!
 — *Macaulay*.

This measure is often called *Service*, *Ballad*, or *Common Meter*. It is very generally used for hymns and ballads, and is often written in lines of four and three feet alternately, the latter being the only ones that rime; as,

With slow and steady step there came
 A lady through the hall,
 And breathless silence chained the lips
 And touched the hearts of all. — *H. G. Bell*.

TROCHAIC MEASURES

In *trochaic* measures the accents usually fall on the odd syllables ; as, the first, third, etc.

(a) TROCHAIC DIMETER

Rích the | tréasure,
Swéet the | pléasure. — *Dryden*.

(b) TROCHAIC TRIMETER

Whén a|róund thee | lýng,
Aútumn | leáves are | dýing.

TROCHAIC TRIMETER HYPERMETER

Cóme, and | tríp it, | ás you | go,
On the | líght fan|tás tic | toe. — *Milton*.

This is the most commonly used trochaic measure.

(c) TROCHAIC TETRAMETER

Wíth a | fúll but | sóft e|mótion,
Líke the | swéll of | súmmer's | ócean. — *Byron*.

(d) TROCHAIC PENTAMETER

Lów vo|lúptuous | músic | wínding | trémbled. — *Tennyson*.

(e) TROCHAIC HEXAMETER

Holy! Holy! Holy! all the saints adore Thee. — *Heber*.

(f) TROCHAIC HEPTAMETER

Leaffets on the hollow oak still as greenly quiver. — *Lytton*.

TRISYLLABIC VERSE

ANAPESTIC MEASURES

In anapestic measures the accent, as a rule, falls on every third syllable.

(a) ANAPESTIC MONOMETER

As ye sweép
Through the deép. — *Campbell*.

(b) ANAPESTIC DIMETER

In my ráge | shall be seen
The revéngé | of a queen. — *Addison*.

(c) ANAPESTIC TRIMETER

I am món|arch of áll | I survéy. — *Cowper*.

(d) ANAPESTIC TETRAMETER

'Tis the voíce | of the slúg|gard, I héard | him compláin.

In anapestic measures, lines are frequently hypermetrical, and an iambus is sometimes substituted for an anapest, as in the following:

'Tis the lást | rose of súm|mer
Left bloóm|ing a lóne;
All her lóvelly compán|ions
Are fá|ded and góne. — *Moore*.

DACTYLIC MEASURES

In dactylic measures, the accent, as a rule, falls upon the first, fourth, seventh, and tenth syllables.

(a) DACTYLIC MONOMETER

Mérrily,
Cheérily.

(b) DACTYLIC DIMETER

Tóuch her not | scórnfully.
Thínk of her | móurnfully. — *Hood*.

(c) DACTYLIC TRIMETER HYPERMETER

Mérrily, | mérrily, | sháll I live | now
Únder the | blóssom that | hángs on the | bough.
— *Shakespeare*.

(d) DACTYLIC HEXAMETER

This measure, which is borrowed from Greek and Latin poetry, is used by Longfellow in “Evangeline” and “Miles Standish.” It consists of six feet. The last foot is either a spondee or a trochee; and the foot preceding the last is invariably a dactyl. The other four feet are generally dactyls, though a trochee is occasionally introduced; as,

Yé who be|liève in aff|éction that | hópes, and en|dúres and
is | patient,
Yé who be|liève in the | béauty and | stréngth of | wóman's
de|votion.

Another way of scanning dactylic lines is to read the first two syllables as a trochee, and to consider the remainder of the line amphibrachic.

AMPHIBRACHIC MEASURES

In amphibrachic measures the accent, as a rule, falls upon the second, fifth, eighth, and eleventh syllables.

AMPHIBRACHIC TETRAMETER

There cáme to | the beách a | poor éxile | of Erin,
The déw on | his thín robe | was heávy | and chíll.

— *Campbell.*

Another way of scanning this measure is to read the first two syllables as an iambus, and to consider the remainder of the line anapestic.

MIXED METER

Poets frequently vary the structure of their verse by introducing a variety of feet, as in the following:

Thére be | nóne of | beáuty's | dáughters
With a málgic like théé:
And like | músic | ón the | wátters
Is thý | sweet voíce | to mé.

With regard to some poems, such as Coleridge's "Christabel" and Byron's "Siege of Corinth," we can say only that there is a uniform number of accents in each line.

ALLITERATION

Alliteration consists in the repetition of a letter at the beginning of two or more words in close proximity. The effect, when skillfully managed, is pleasing to the ear ; as,

Our sincerest laughter
With some pain is fraught;
Our sweetest songs are those that tell of saddest thought.

Shakespeare burlesques its excessive use in the lines :

Whereat, with blade, with bloody blameful blade,
He bravely broached his boiling bloody breast.

EXERCISE 91. — *Select a poem for examination and determine the following :*

1. The number of lines in a stanza, if the poem is written in stanzas.
2. Where rimes occur and, consequently, what lines should be indented.
3. The number of accented syllables in each line and the number of unaccented syllables before or after each accented syllable.
4. From the data thus secured determine the name of the meter, and be prepared to point out the lines that are hyper-meter or catalectic and any variations from the prevailing foot.

APPENDIX A

HISTORICAL SKETCH OF THE ENGLISH LANGUAGE

Languages are arranged in families according to resemblances in words and in the grammatical forms used to combine words into sentences.

The **English** language belongs to the most important of these families, called the **Indo-European** because it comprises the most important languages that are or have been spoken from India to the western coast of Europe. It is also called the **Aryan**, from an ancient Asiatic race of that name.

The Indo-European family has two great divisions: (a) Asiatic ; (b) European. Under each of these divisions are several distinct groups of languages.

(a) ASIATIC DIVISION

1. The *Indian* languages, including the Sanskrit (a language now no longer spoken), the modern Indian dialects of Hindostan, and the Gypsy dialect.

2. The *Persian* languages, including the Zend (the ancient language of Persia) and modern Persian.

(b) EUROPEAN DIVISION

1. The *Hellenic* languages, including the various dialects of ancient Greek and the various dialects of modern Greek.

2. The *Latin* languages, including ancient Latin and the several *Romance* languages to which the Latin has given rise: (a) Italian; (b) French; (c) Spanish; (d) Portuguese; (e) Romansch or Romanese, spoken in southern Switzerland; (f) Wallachian, spoken in Wallachia and Moldavia.

3. The *Teutonic* languages, comprising: (a) the Low German dialects, spoken originally by the tribes living on the northern shores and lowlands of Germany—now represented by Frisian, Dutch, Flemish, and English; (b) High German, formerly the language of the southeast of Germany, Bavaria, and Austria, now the literary dialect of Germany; (c) Scandinavian, including Icelandic, Norwegian, Swedish, and Danish.

4. The *Celtic* languages, divided into: (a) the *Cymric* branch, including Welsh, Cornish, and Armorican of Brittany; (b) the *Gaelic* branch, comprising the Irish or Erse, the Scottish Gaelic, and the Manx of the Isle of Man.

5. *Slavonic*, including Russian, Lettish, Lithuanian, Polish, etc.

The English language, then, is a member of the Indo-European family; it belongs to the Teutonic group, and it is a Low German dialect. It was brought to America from England. It was brought to England, where it developed into its present form, from northern Germany, about the middle of the fifth century after Christ. Up to that time, the country now called England had been known as Britannia or Britain.

The chief historical events that should be borne in mind in tracing the development of the English language are the following:

The island of Britain was originally peopled by a Celtic race who spoke a Celtic language.

Britain was invaded by a Roman army under Julius Cæsar in 55 B.C. It was afterward conquered by Rome in 43 A.D., and it was held as a Roman province until 426 A.D.

On the retirement of the Romans, the country was invaded by three Low German tribes—Jutes, Saxons, and Angles. These Teutonic invaders took complete possession of the country, driving the native population, except a few who were kept as slaves, to Cornwall, Wales, and Strathclyde, a region bordering the Solway Firth. The Jutes settled in Kent; the Saxons, in the southern part of the island; and the Angles, in the center and north of England and the southern half of Scotland. From the Angles, who were the most numerous, the country was called Angle- or Engla-land, or England, “the land of the Angles.” Toward the close of the ninth century the various Teutonic tribes became united politically under a single king. They spoke several Low German dialects, which are now included under the general term Anglo-Saxon.

About the year 596 the English were converted to Christianity by missionaries from Rome.

Toward the end of the eighth century, the Northmen of Scandinavia (Denmark, Norway, and Sweden), generally called Danes, ravaged the east coast of England. In the ninth century they gained possession of a large part of the east coast, and in the eleventh century Danish sovereigns sat on the throne of England for nearly thirty years.

In 1066 the Normans—Northmen who had settled in France and who had acquired the French language—under Duke William invaded England. The English army under King Harold was defeated at Hastings. William became king and made his followers the nobles, the bishops, and the landlords of the country. French became the language of the law courts, the churches, and the schools, and was generally spoken by the Normans; while the Teutonic folk, though they no longer, except in rare cases, owned the land, stubbornly asserted their rights and clung tenaciously to their own language.

Gradually, the conquering Normans and the conquered Saxons coalesced and became one people. After a struggle of three hundred years the English language won at last and

became the language of the country. In 1349 boys at school began to translate their Latin into English instead of into French. In 1362 English was made the language of the courts of law.

The first fruits of the triumph of the English language were the noble poetry of Geoffrey Chaucer, who has been called the father of English poetry, and John Wycliff's version of the Bible. Chaucer raised the midland dialect, that which had descended from the Angles, to the rank of the literary language of England.

The supremacy of this dialect was confirmed by William Caxton. Setting up the first English printing press at Westminster in 1474, he printed many books in the dialect ennobled by Chaucer. It is interesting to remember that this great benefactor of English speech and of English literature died in the year in which America was discovered.

About the time at which John Smith was establishing the first permanent English colony in America, at Jamestown, Virginia, the English language became established in its main features as we now know it through the influence of two great literary works—the translation of the Bible prepared under the authority of King James I., and the dramas of William Shakespeare.

The spelling of English words was fixed very nearly as we now have it by Samuel Johnson's English Dictionary, published in 1755.

The language brought by the Angles, Saxons, etc., was an *unmixed* language ; that is, it contained few or no words that were not Low German.

English is now a *mixed* or *composite* language, because, while the framework is English, it has absorbed many thousands of foreign words.

The following are the principal foreign elements in English :

I. *The Celtic Element.* — A few Celtic words that have come down to us from the early inhabitants of Britain, or through the Norman French, are still retained ; such as, *breeches, basket, clout, crock, cradle, kiln, mattock, mop, pot.*

II. *The Scandinavian Element.* — The Danes, or Northmen, spoke a language very much akin to the Anglo-Saxon. Hence it is difficult to distinguish words of purely Danish origin. Names of places ending in *by* (town), *fell* (hill), *beck* (stream), *shaw* (wood), *garth* (inclosure), are of Danish origin.

III. *The Latin Element.* — By far the largest foreign element in English is the Latin. Words derived from the Latin were introduced at four distinct periods:

1. *Latin of the First Period.* — The Roman occupation of Britain gave us a few names of places, as *Chester, Gloucester, Dorchester*, from *castra*, a camp, because the Romans had fortified towns at these places ; *Lincoln*, from *colonia*, a colony ; and *Portsmouth*, from *portus*, a harbor. The Latin *strata* became *street*, the Romans being great roadmakers.

2. *Latin of the Second Period.* — The introduction of Christianity brought many terms connected with the Church and its services, as *chalice* (calix), *cloister* (claustrum), *deacon* (diaconus), *clerk* (clericus), etc.

3. *Latin of the Third Period.* — The Norman conquerors spoke the French language. As the French is derived from the Latin, several thousands of Latin words were introduced through this medium. They were religious, philosophical, and poetic terms, used by English writers who translated religious books, poems, and romances from French into English ; law terms ; words pertaining to the chase, to war, and to chivalry.

4. *Latin of the Fourth Period.* — About the beginning of the sixteenth century occurred what is called the revival of learning. More profound study than ever before was given to the literatures of ancient Greece and Rome. From this time down many words have been taken directly from the Latin.

IV. *The Greek Element*.—Philosophical and scientific words are generally derived from the Greek, though the Greek element is only about one eighth as large as the Latin; as, *logic*, *physics*, *philosophy*, *astronomy*, *geography*, *problem*, *diagram*.

V. *Words of Miscellaneous Origin*.—Through commercial and social intercourse with every part of the known world, the English vocabulary has been enriched with words relating to natural productions, works of art, or social institutions. Thus the word *taboo* comes from the Sandwich Islands; the word *tea* is Chinese; and *algebra*, *almanac*, and *alcohol* are Arabic.

Words of classical origin are about twice as numerous as pure English words; but, as the English words are much more frequently used than the classical, the English element greatly preponderates, not only in our talk, but in the pages of our great writers. Words from all sources other than English, Latin, and Greek do not exceed one-twentieth of the entire vocabulary.

The following classes of words are of English, or Low German, origin :

1. Demonstrative adjectives; pronouns; numerals.
2. Auxiliary and defective verbs.
3. Prepositions and conjunctions.
4. Nouns forming their plurals by change of vowel.
5. Verbs forming their past tense by change of vowel.
6. Adjectives forming their degrees of comparison irregularly.
7. Most words of one syllable and many of two syllables.
8. Words relating to common natural objects, to home life, to agriculture, to the simpler feelings of the mind, and to common trades and processes.

On the other hand, most words of three or more syllables, and many words of two syllables, words relating to religion, law, government, and war, to the higher processes of the mind, to art, science, and philosophy, are of Latin origin.

In the following passage from Washington Irving's "Westminster Abbey," the words of foreign origin are printed in italics :

"It was the *tomb* of a *crusader* ; of one of those *military enthusiasts*, who so *strangely* mingled *religion* and *romance*, and whose *exploits* form the *connecting* link between *fact* and *fiction*, between the *history* and the *fairy* tale. There is something *extremely picturesque* in the *tombs* of these *adventurers*, decorated as they are with *rude armorial* bearings and *Gothic sculpture*."

In many cases we find an English and a Romance word used to express the same thing with slightly different shades of meaning ; as, *feeling*, *sentiment* ; *work*, *labor* ; *bloom*, *flower*. In this way, many so-called synonyms have been developed.

Besides the introduction of foreign words, the English language has undergone another great change since the days of pure Anglo-Saxon, namely, in its grammar.

The Anglo-Saxon was a highly inflected language. "Nouns had five cases, and there were different declensions (as in Latin) ; adjectives were declined, and had three genders ; pronouns had more forms, and some had a dual number as well as a singular and plural ; the verbs had more variety in their personal

terminations." All that remains of grammatical inflection in English is of Anglo-Saxon origin; but most of the Anglo-Saxon inflections have been dropped, and their places have been supplied by prepositions and auxiliary verbs. This change had commenced even before the Norman Conquest, particularly in those parts of the country affected by Danish incursions, but it was accelerated by the presence of the Norman-French, possibly because the Saxons and Normans had enough to do in learning the two vocabularies without acquiring a cumbrous system of inflections.

Professor Lounsbury divides the historical development of the English language into four periods:

I. The *Anglo-Saxon* period, from the first coming of Saxons and Angles to the year 1150.

Toward the end of this period inflections began to drop off.

II. The *Early English* period, from 1150 to 1350; sometimes subdivided into semi-Saxon from 1150 to 1250, and Old English from 1250 to 1350.

During this period the language was steadily losing inflections and incorporating French words.

Toward the end of this period three dialects of equal rank were marked:

1. The *Northern* dialect, spoken from the Humber to the Firth of Forth. This developed into lowland Scotch.

2. The *Southern* dialect, spoken south of the Thames.

3. The *Midland* dialect, spoken in the intervening districts.

III. *Middle English*, from 1350 to 1550.

During this period inflections were reduced almost to their

present number; foreign words were freely introduced from the Italian as well as from the Latin and the French; and the *Midland* dialect, because Chaucer, the first great English poet, wrote in it, became the literary language of England.

IV. *Modern English*, from 1550 to the present time.

APPENDIX B

FORMATION OF WORDS

Etymology has been defined as that part of grammar which treats of the classification, inflection, and formation of words. (See p. 9.)

Words are classified according to their **uses** in sentences, as nouns, pronouns, verbs, etc.

Words are classified according to **formation**, as **prime** and **composite**.

DEFINITION. — A **prime word** is a word that expresses a single idea and that can not be analyzed into any simpler elements; as, *I, man, long, go, in, now.*

DEFINITION. — A **composite word** is a word that expresses more than one idea and that can be analyzed into simple elements, as *watchman, careful.*

In a composite word each idea is expressed by a definite part of the word, and these parts are called the **component elements** of the word.

A *composite word* is said to be formed by composition.

The component elements of composite words are of three kinds: (a) prime words, as in *rail-road*,

re-call, *kind-ly*; (b) prefixes, as in *re-call*, *pre-vent*; (c) suffixes, as in *kind-ly*, *leg-ible*; (d) stems, as in *ex-tract*, *in-scribe*, *quadru-ped*.

A **prefix** (*pre* = before, *fix* = fastened) is a significant element occurring at the beginning of a word, and it is used to express a modifying idea; as, *re-call* = to call *back*; *ex-tract* = to draw *out*.

A **suffix** (*suf* or *sub* = under, after, *fix* = fastened) is a significant element at the end of a word, and it is used to express a modifying idea; as, *wood-en*, *hate-ful*.

The peculiar mark of a prefix or suffix is that it can never be used except as a subordinate element in a word.

Some prefixes and suffixes are of Anglo-Saxon origin, some come to us from the Latin, and some from the Greek.

A **stem** is a significant element having in composition all the properties of a word, but it is used only in composition; as, *ex-tend* (*tend* = stretch, *ex* = out).

Stems are so called because they are parts of words found in other languages, chiefly the Latin and the Greek, to which inflections were added, as branches are attached to the stem of a tree. During the last nineteen centuries they have been gradually transplanted into the English language, and may now be studied as constituent parts of our everyday speech. Formerly they were called *roots*, but this term is now restricted to certain forms that are supposed

to be the common ancestors of similar words in most of the European, and three or four of the Asiatic, languages.¹

Each stem, by the addition of prefixes and suffixes, may give rise to many words, often several hundred. The following list of stems should be used for reference :

AG, ACT = do, drive, act; as <i>agent, counteract.</i>	CAPIT = head; as <i>capital</i> .
ALT = high; as <i>altitude, altar.</i>	CARN = flesh; as <i>carnivorous</i> (vor = devour).
ANIM = mind; as <i>unanimous,</i> <i>animosity.</i>	CED, CESS = go, yield; as <i>ac-</i> <i>cede, access.</i>
ANN = year; as <i>annals, biennial.</i>	CELER = swift; as <i>celerity.</i>
APER, APERT = open; as <i>aperi-</i> <i>ent, aperture.</i>	CENT = hundred; as <i>century.</i>
APT = fit, join; as <i>adapt.</i>	CING, CINCT = bind; as <i>sur-</i> <i>circle, cincture, succinct.</i>
ARCH = rule, govern; as <i>anarchy.</i>	CLIN = lean, bend; as <i>decline.</i>
ART = skill; as <i>art.</i>	COMMODO = suitable; as <i>com-</i> <i>modious.</i>
AUD = hear, listen; as <i>audible.</i>	COMMUN = common; as <i>com-</i> <i>munity.</i>
AUR = gold; as <i>auriferous</i> (ferr = carry).	COR, CORD = heart; as <i>accord.</i>
BAS = low; as <i>debase.</i>	CORON = crown; as <i>coronation.</i>
BAT = beat; as <i>battle.</i>	CORPUS, CORPOR = body; as <i>corpuscule, corporal.</i>
BIT = bite; as <i>bite, bitter.</i>	CRED = believe; as <i>credible.</i>
BREV = short; as <i>abbreviate.</i>	CUR = care; as <i>accurate.</i>
CAD, CAS = fall; as <i>cadence, cas-</i> <i>ual, accident.</i>	CURR, CURS = run; as <i>current,</i> <i>cursor.</i>
CANT = sing; as <i>canticle, chant.</i>	CYCL = circle; as <i>bicycle.</i>
CAP, CAPT = take, hold; as <i>cap-</i> <i>able, captive.</i>	

¹ Kennedy's "Stem Dictionary" presents a collection of the most frequently used stems with their meanings and combinations in words.

DAT = give; as <i>date</i> , <i>edition</i> .	GRAD, GRESS = step, go; as <i>gradual</i> , <i>digress</i> .
DENT = tooth; as <i>dentist</i> .	GRAN = grain; as <i>granery</i> .
DI = day; as <i>dial</i> .	GRAPH = write; as <i>autograph</i> .
DICT = speak, say; as <i>contradict</i> .	GRAT = pleasing; as <i>grateful</i> .
DIGN = worthy; as <i>dignity</i> , <i>disdain</i> .	GROSS = fat, thick; as <i>gross</i> .
DOMIN = lord, master; as <i>dominate</i> .	HOR = hour; as <i>horologue</i> .
DORM = sleep; as <i>dormant</i> .	HOSPIT = host, guest; as <i>hospitable</i> .
DUC, DUCT = lead, bring; as <i>induce</i> , <i>conduct</i> .	INTEGR = entire, whole; as <i>integral</i> .
EQU = equal; as <i>equanimity</i> (<i>anim</i> = mind).	JECT = cast; as <i>inject</i> .
FA = speak; as <i>affable</i> .	JUDIC = judge; as <i>judiciary</i> .
FAC = face, form; as <i>efface</i> .	JUNCT = join; as <i>conjunction</i> .
FAC, FACT = make, form, do; as <i>facile</i> , <i>faction</i> .	JUR = swear; as <i>adjure</i> .
FELIC = happy; as <i>felicity</i> .	JUR = law, right; as <i>jurist</i> .
FERR = carry, bear, bring; as <i>fertile</i> , <i>confer</i> .	LAT = carry, bring; as <i>dilate</i> .
FESS = acknowledge; as <i>confess</i> .	LEG = send, bring; as <i>legacy</i> , <i>allege</i> .
FID = faith, trust; as <i>confide</i> .	LEG, LECT = gather, choose; as <i>legion</i> , <i>eclectic</i> .
FIN = end, limit; as <i>final</i> .	LIBER = free; as <i>liberty</i> .
FORM = shape; as <i>conform</i> .	LIN = flax; as <i>linen</i> , <i>lining</i> .
FORT = strong; as <i>fortitude</i> .	LINGU = tongue; as <i>linguist</i> .
FRANG, FRACT = break; as <i>fragile</i> , <i>fraction</i> .	LITER = letter; as <i>literal</i> , <i>literary</i> .
FUND, FUS = pour, melt; as <i>fusible</i> , <i>confound</i> .	LOC = place; as <i>local</i> , <i>dislocate</i> .
GEN, GENER = kind, race; as <i>gender</i> , <i>general</i> .	LOG = word, speech, reason; as <i>catalogue</i> , <i>logic</i> .
GEST = carry, bring; as <i>congestion</i> .	LOQU, LOCUT = speak, talk; as <i>loquacious</i> , <i>circumlocution</i> .
	LUD, LUS = sport, play; as <i>ludicrous</i> , <i>illusion</i> .
	MAGN = great; as <i>magnitude</i> .

MAJOR = greater ; as <i>majority</i> .	NUMER = number ; as <i>numerous</i> .
MAN = hand ; as <i>manual</i> , <i>main-tain</i> .	NUNCI, NOUNCE = tell ; as <i>enun-ciate</i> ; announce.
MAN, MANS = stay, dwell ; as <i>manor</i> , <i>mansion</i> .	OCUL = eye ; as <i>oculist</i> .
MAR = the sea ; as <i>marine</i> .	PAN = bread ; as <i>pantry</i> .
MATER, MATR = mother ; as <i>maternal</i> , <i>matrimony</i> .	PAR = equal ; as <i>disparity</i> .
MEDI = middle, between ; as <i>mediate</i> .	PAR = get ready ; as <i>compare</i> .
MEDIC = physician ; as <i>medicine</i> .	PARL = speak ; as <i>parley</i> .
MENS = measure ; as <i>mensuration</i> .	PARS, PART = part ; as <i>parse</i> , <i>apart</i> .
MENT = mind ; as <i>mental</i> .	PASS = step ; as <i>compass</i> .
MERC = merchandise, trade ; as <i>commerce</i> .	PAST = feed ; as <i>pasture</i> .
MERG = dip, sink ; as <i>submerge</i> .	PAT, PASS = suffer, feel ; as <i>pa-tient</i> , <i>passive</i> .
METER, METR = measure ; as <i>chronometer</i> , <i>symmetry</i> .	PATER, PATR = father ; as <i>pa-ternal</i> , <i>patrician</i> .
MIGR = wander ; as <i>migrate</i> .	PED = foot ; as <i>biped</i> .
MIR = wonder, look ; as <i>ad-mire</i> , <i>mirror</i> .	PELL, PULS = drive ; as <i>compel</i> , <i>expulsion</i> .
MITT, MISS = send ; as <i>admit</i> , <i>commission</i> .	PEN = pain, punishment ; as <i>penal</i> .
MON, MONIT = advise, remind ; as <i>monument</i> , <i>monitor</i> .	PEND, PENS = hang, weigh, pay ; as, <i>pendant</i> , <i>pension</i> .
MORT = death ; as <i>mortal</i> .	PET, PETIT = seek ; as <i>impetus</i> , <i>petition</i> .
MOT = move ; as <i>motor</i> .	PETR = stone, rock ; as <i>petrify</i> .
MULT = many ; as <i>multitude</i> .	PHIL, PHILO = fond ; as <i>philos-ophy</i> (soph = wisdom).
MUN, MUNIT = fortify ; as <i>mu-nition</i> .	PHON = sound ; as <i>phonic</i> .
NAT = born ; as <i>natal</i> .	PHYSI = nature ; as <i>physiology</i> (log = word, reason).
NAV = ship ; as <i>naval</i> .	PICT = paint ; as <i>picture</i> .
NOT = known ; as <i>notice</i> .	PLAC = please ; as <i>placable</i> .
	PLE, PLET = fill ; as <i>comple-ment</i> , <i>complete</i> .

PLEN = full; as <i>plenty</i> .	ROG, ROGAT = ask; as <i>interrogate</i> .
PLIC = fold, bend; as <i>complicate</i> .	RUPT = break; as <i>rupture</i> .
PLUM = feather; as <i>plumage</i> .	SACR = holy; as <i>sacred</i> .
PLUMB = lead; as <i>plumber</i> .	SAL = salt; as <i>saline</i> .
PON = to place, put; as <i>componment</i> .	SAL = leap; as <i>salient</i> .
PORT = carry, bring; <i>porter</i> .	SANCT = holy; as <i>sanction</i> .
PORT = gate; as <i>portal</i> .	SAT, SATIS = enough; as <i>sate, satisfy</i> .
POS = to place, put; as <i>compose</i> .	SCI = know; as <i>science</i> .
POT = drink; as <i>potion</i> .	SCOP = watch, view; as <i>episcopal</i> .
POTENT = powerful; as <i>potentate</i> .	SCRIB, SCRIPT = write; as <i>describe, subscription</i> .
PREHEND, PREHENS = take, grasp; as <i>apprehend, prehensile</i> .	SEC, SECT = cut; as <i>secant, bisect</i> .
PRIM = first; as <i>primary</i> .	SEN = old; as <i>senior</i> .
PUNCT = prick, point; as <i>puncture</i> .	SENT, SENS = feel, think; as <i>sentiment, sensible</i> .
QUADR = square, fourfold; as <i>quadrant</i> .	SEQU, SECUT = follow; as <i>sequel, consecutive</i> .
QUANT = how much; as <i>quantity</i> .	SERV = keep; as <i>conserve</i> .
QUER, QUISIT = seek, ask; as <i>query, inquisition</i> .	SIST = to place, stand; as <i>assist</i> .
QUIET = quiet; as <i>requiem</i> .	SOL = alone; as <i>solitude</i> .
RADI = ray; as <i>radiant</i> .	SON = sound; as <i>consonant</i> .
RAP, RAPT = seize, grasp; as <i>rapacious, rapture</i> .	SORT = lot, kind; as <i>assort</i> .
RAT = think, calculate; as <i>ratio</i> .	SPEC, SPECT = look, appear; as <i>specimen, prospect</i> .
RECT = ruled, straight, right; as <i>rectangle</i> .	SPECI = kind; as <i>species</i> .
REG = rule, govern; as <i>regent</i> .	SPIR = breathe; as <i>aspire</i> .
RID, RIS = laugh; as <i>ridiculous, risible</i> .	STANT = standing; as <i>constant</i> .
RIV = stream; as <i>river, derive</i> .	STELL = star; <i>constellation</i> .
	STRING, STRICT = draw tight, bind; as <i>stringent</i> .

STRU, STRUCT = build; as <i>construct</i> .	UN = one; as <i>unanimous</i> (anim = mind).
SU = follow; as <i>pursue</i> .	UND = wave, flow; as <i>inundate</i> .
SUAD, SUAS = persuade; as <i>dissuade</i> , <i>persuasion</i> .	UT, UTIL = use, useful; as <i>utensil</i> , <i>utilize</i> .
SUM, SUMPT = take; as <i>assume</i> , <i>presumption</i> .	VAD, VAS = go; as <i>evade</i> .
SURG, SURRECT = rise; as <i>insurgent</i> , <i>insurrection</i> .	VAL = be strong; as <i>valid</i> .
TACT = touch; as <i>contact</i> .	VEN, VENT = come; as <i>convene</i> , <i>convention</i> .
TAILL = cut; as <i>tailor</i> .	VERT, VERS = turn; as <i>pervert</i> , <i>version</i> .
TANG = touch; as <i>tangent</i> .	VI, VIA = way, road; as <i>viaduct</i> (duct = lead, bring), <i>devious</i> .
TEG, TECT = cover; as <i>tegument</i> , <i>detect</i> .	VIC = a change, turn; as <i>vicar</i> .
TEMPOR = time; as <i>temporary</i> .	VID, VIS = see, appear; as <i>evident</i> , <i>visible</i> .
TEND, TENT = stretch, reach; as <i>contend</i> , <i>content</i> .	VIV = live; as <i>vivacity</i> .
TEST = witness; as <i>attest</i> .	VOC = call; as <i>vocation</i> .
TORT = twist, wring; as <i>contort</i> .	VOLV, VOLU, VOLUT = roll; as <i>circumvolve</i> , <i>voluble</i> , <i>revolution</i> .
TRACT = draw; as <i>attract</i> .	VOT = vow; as <i>votive</i> .
TRIT = rub; as <i>attrition</i> .	
TRUD, TRUS = thrust; as <i>intrude</i> , <i>abstruse</i> .	

In every composite word one of the elements is called the **base**, because it is the principal part. Its meaning is modified by one or more subordinate elements, which are called **adjuncts**.

The *base* may be a word; as in *rail-road*, *re-call*, or it may be a stem, as in *auto-graph* (self-write), *ex-pand* (spread out).

The *adjunct* may be a word, as in *rail-road*, *tea-*

pot ; or a prefix, as in *re-call*, *ex-pand* ; or a suffix, as *man-ly* (man-like), *leg-ible* (read-able).

When both the *base* and the *adjunct* are words, the composite word is called **compound** ; as, *black-bird*, *rain-bow*, *house-top*, *walking-stick*.

When the compound word is an unusual one, as *deer-stalking*, *loud-bellowing*, the parts are usually connected in writing by a hyphen. In commonly used compounds the hyphen is generally omitted.

In conversation a compound word is generally distinguished by accenting the term that would not be accented were its parts used separately. Thus, *song'-thrush*, *black'-bird* ; not, *song thrush'*, *black bird'*.

When the *base* and the *adjunct* are both stems, the composite word is called a **stem-compound** word ; as, *auto-graph* (self-write), *quadru-ped* (four-foot).

When the *base* is a word and the adjunct is a prefix or a suffix, the composite word is called a **derivative** word ; as *re-call*, *just-ly*.

When the *base* is a stem, and the adjunct is a suffix, the composite word is called a **stem-derivative** word : as, *vis-ible* (capable of being seen), *fac-ile* (ready to do).

Frequently we find both a prefix and a suffix ; as, *im-portance*, *com-posi-tion*.

Sometimes the base is itself a derivative word ; as, *incomplete-ness*.

Following is a list of the principal prefixes and suffixes of Anglo-Saxon (old form of English), Latin, and Greek origin, now in use in the English language :

ENGLISH PREFIXES

Those used to form nouns :

Fore = before ; as, *fore-father*.

Mis = wrong ; as, *mis-deed, mis-chance*.

Un = the opposite of ; as, *un-truth, un-belief*.

Those used to form adjectives :

A = on ; as, *a-live, a-board, a-sleep*.

For = quite, thoroughly ; as, *for-lorn*.

Un = not ; as, *un-true, un-wise*.

Mis = wrong ; as, *mis-shapen*.

Those used to form verbs :

A = out, from, away, often used to intensify the meaning of the verb ; as, *a-rise, a-wake, a-rouse*.

Be = by, and is used in several ways :

1. To intensify the meaning of the verb ; as, *be-daub, be-smear*.

2. To change intransitive verbs to transitive ones ; as, *be-speak, be-think*.

3. To form transitive verbs out of adjectives and nouns ; as, *be-friend, be-night, be-troth*.

For = through, thoroughly, used to intensify the meaning of the verb ; as, *for-bid, for-give, for-get*.

Fore = before ; as *fore-bode, fore-tell*.

Mis = wrongly ; as, *mis-believe, mis-call*.

Un = back ; as, *un-bind, un-do*.

With = back, against ; as, *with-draw, with-stand*.

Those used to form adverbs :

A = on ; as, *a-foot, a-field*.

Be = on ; as, *be-fore, be-sides*.

EXERCISE 92. — *Form derivatives by placing prefixes before the following words, and classify the derivatives as nouns, adjectives, and verbs :*

rest	fair	trust	kind
even	dress	speak	call
castle	believe	hold	rise
fall	stand	numb	give
speak	hap	conduct	cloud

EXERCISE 93. — *What is the force of the prefixes in bedaub, forlorn, forewarn, misshapen, unwise, unroll, forgive.*

LATIN PREFIXES

Latin prefixes frequently vary their forms in composition, the final letter being changed to harmonize in sound with the first syllable of the base. Thus, *ad* becomes *ac* in *accede* ; *al* in *allude* ; *at* in *attract* ; and so on. This process is called **assimilation of sound**.

The following are the more commonly used prefixes of Latin origin :

A, ab, abs = from, away ; as, *a-vert*, *ab-jure*, *abs-ent*.

Ad = to ; as, *ad-here*. By assimilation *ad* takes the forms *a*, *ac*, *af*, *al*, *an*, *ap*, *as*, and *at* ; as, *a-spire*, *ac-cord*, *af-fect*, *al-lude*, *an-nex*, *ap-peal*, *as-sume*, *at-tract*.

Amb, am (from *ambi*) = about ; as, *amb-ition*, *am-putate*.

Ante or anti = before ; as, *ante-date*, *anti-cipate*.

Bis, bi = twice ; as, *bi-sect*.

Circum = around ; as, *circum-navigate*.

Com, con = together; as, *com-mand, con-vivial*. This prefix assumes the forms *col* and *cor* before *l* and *r* and *co* before a vowel; as, *col-lect, cor-rect, com-mit, co-eval, co-worker*.

Contra, contro, or counter = against; as, *contra-dict, contro-vert, counter-act*.

De = down, from, about; as, *de-scend, de-part, de-scribe*.

Demi = half; as, *demi-god*.

Dis, di, dif = apart, in two, denoting difference or negation; as, *dis-sent, di-vision, dif-ficulty*.

Ex, e, or ef = out of, from; as, *ex-alt, e-lect, ef-face*.

Extra = out of, beyond; as, *extra-ordinary*.

In = in, into; as, *in-vade*. This prefix changes by assimilation into *il, im, ir*; as, *il-lustrate, im-merse, ir-ritate*. In its French form, *en*, it is found in *en-chant, en-dure*, etc.

In = not; by assimilation *il, im, ir*; as, *in-cautious, il-legal, im-piety, ir-revocable*.

Inter, intro = between, within, among; as, *inter-pose, intro-duce, enter-prise*.

Male = ill; as, *mal-treat, male-volent*.

Non = not; as, *non-sense*.

Ob = in front of, against; by assimilation, *oc, of, op*; as, *ob-viate, oc-cupy, of-fend, op-pose*.

Pene, pen = almost; as, *pen-insula*.

Per = through; by assimilation, *pel* and *pil*; as, *per-ceive, pel-lucid, pil-grim*.

Post = after; as, *post-pone, post-script*.

Pre = before; as, *pre-dict, pre-cede*.

Preter = past, beyond; as, *preter-ite, preter-natural*.

Pro = forward, before; as, *pro-ceed, pro-gress*. **Pro** is found in the forms *pur* and *por* in *purchase, pursue, portray*.

Pro = instead of; as, *pro-noun*.

Re, red = back, again; as, *re-cede, re-adopt, red-olent*.

Retro = backwards; as, *retro-grade, retro-spect*.

Se, sed = apart, away; as, *se-cede, sed-ition*.

Semi = half; as, *semi-circle*.

Sine = without; as, *sine-cure*.

Sub = under, up from below; by assimilation, before *c, f, g, m, p, r, s*, *suc, suf, sug, sum, sup, sur, sus*; as, *sub-ject, suc-cor, suf-fer, sug-gest, sum-mon, sup-press, sur-prise, sus-tain*.

Subter = under; as, *subter-fuge*.

Super, sur = above, beyond; as, *super-pose, super-natural, sur-name*.

Trans = across; as, *trans-form*.

Ultra = beyond; as, *ultra-liberal*.

Un, uni = one; as, *un-animous, uni-form*.

Vice = instead of; as, *vice-chancellor, vice-roy*.

GREEK PREFIXES

The following are the Greek prefixes in most common use:

A, an = not; as, *an-archy, a-morphous*.

Amphi = on both sides, round about; as, *amphi-bious, amphi-theater*.

Ana = up, back; as, *ana-tomy, ana-lysis*.

Anti = against, opposite to; as, *anti-dote, ant-arctic*.

Apo, ap = away from; as, *apo-state, apo-stle, ap-helion*.

Archi, arche, arch = first, chief; as, *archi-lect, arche-type, arch-bishop*.

Auto, auth = self; as, *auto-crat, auto-nomy, auth-entic*.

Cata, cat = down, over; as, *cata-logue, cat-echism*.

Dia = through, across; as, *dia-meter, dia-gonal*.

Dis, di = twice; as, *dis-syllable, di-phthong*.

Dys = ill; as, *dys-peptic*.

Ec, ex = out of; as, *ec-centric, ex-odus*.

En, el, em = in, on, at; as, *en-comium, el-lipse, em-phasis*.

Epi = upon; as, *epi-taph, epi-demic*.

Eu, ev = well; as, *eu-logy, ev-angelist*.

Hemi = half; as *hemi-sphere*.

Hyper = over, above ; as, *hyper-bole*, *hyper-critical*.

Hypo = under ; as, *hypo-crite*.

Meta, met = after, changed for ; as, *meta-phor*, *met-onymy*.

Mono = alone ; as, *mono-gram*, *mono-poly*.

Pan = all ; as, *pan-acea*, *pan-orama*.

Para, par = beside, against ; as, *para-dox*, *par-enthesis*.

Peri = around ; as, *peri-meter*, *peri-gee*, *peri-helion*.

Poly = many ; as, *poly-gamy*, *poly-gon*, *poly-technic*.

Pro = before ; as, *pro-phet*, *pro-logue*.

Syn, syl, sym, sy = with ; as, *syn-tax*, *syl-lable*, *sym-pathy*, *sy-stem*.

ENGLISH SUFFIXES

The principal English suffixes are the following :

Those forming abstract nouns :

Dom, denoting judgment, authority, dominion ; as, *wis-dom*, *free-dom*, *king-dom*.

Hood, head, denoting state, rank, character ; as, *man-hood*, *god-head*.

Ing, denoting action, state ; as, *read-ing*, *hear-ing*.

Ness, denoting state, quality ; as, *good-ness*, *great-ness*.

Red, denoting mode, fashion ; as, *hat-red*, *kind-red*.

Ship, denoting shape, manner, form ; as, *friend-ship*, *wor-ship* = *worth-ship*.

Th, d, t ; as, *weal-th*, *tru-th* ; *theft*, from *thieve* ; *dee-d*, from *do*.

NOTE. — Many nouns ending in the suffixes mentioned above are used in a concrete, as well as in an abstract, sense.

Those used in forming diminutives :

En ; as, *maid-en*, *kitt-en* (from *cat*), *kitch-en* (from *cook*).

ie ; as, *bird-ie*, *dog-g-ie*, *Ann-ie*.

Ing ; as, *farth-ing* (from *fourth*), *tith-ing* (from *tenth*).

Kin; as, *bump-kin, lamb-kin, nap-kin.*

Ling; as, *dar-ling, duck-ling, gos-ling.*

Ock; as, *bull-ock, hill-ock.*

Miscellaneous :

Er, ar, or, ier, yer, denoting the agent or doer; as, *paint-er, begg-ar, sail-or, cloth-ier, law-yer.*

Ster (formerly a feminine suffix), denoting a female agent; as, *spin-ster*; also an agent of either sex; as, *huck-ster, malt-ster*. It is also used as a term of depreciation; as, *game-ster, young-ster.*

Ard, art, characterizing a person by a peculiarity; as, *cóward, drunk-ard, brag-g-art.*

Le, el, denoting an instrument; as, *gird-le, hand-le, shov-el.*

Ther, marking the agent and used in terms of relationship; as, *fa-ther, daugh-ter, mo-ther.*

Ther is also found in other nouns under the forms *-ther, -der, -ter*; as, *fea-ther, blad-der, laugh-ter.*

Craft, denoting skill, a trade; as, *book-craft, wood-craft.*

Fare, denoting way, course; as, *thorough-fare, wel-fare.*

Ric, denoting power, dominion; as, *bishop-ric.*

Wright, a workman; as, *wheel-wright, play-wright.*

Monger, a dealer; as, *news-monger.*

EXERCISE 94. — *Form nouns from the following words by adding suffixes, and classify the derivatives as abstract, diminutive, and common nouns :*

hard	lie	steel	direct
fellow	swim	meek	great
martyr	law	revel	high
weigh	girl	book	hardy
draw	child	lance	free
leaf	holy	idle	friend
cat	true	dig	sail

EXERCISE 95.— *Point out the force of the suffixes in the following words :*

kindred	goodness	porter	freedom	bullock
Willie	worship	truth	writing	womanhood
hireling	wisdom	shovel	maltster	teacher

EXERCISE 96.— *From what words and by the addition of what suffixes are the following derived :*

deed	seed	farthing	shuttle	spinster
hatred	theft	wealth	gosling	mannikin

Those used in forming adjectives :

Ed, d, the suffix of the past participle, is added to nouns to form adjectives; as, *wing-ed*, *talent-ed*, *bright-eye-d*, *golden-hair-ed*.

En = made of ; as, *wood-en*, *gold-en*.

Fast = fast, firm ; as, *stead-fast*, *shame-faced* = *shame-fast*, which is the old form of the word.

Fold, denoting multiplication ; as, *two-fold*, *mani-fold*.

Ful = full ; as, *hate-ful*, *will-ful*.

Ing, the suffix of the present participle ; as, *pleas-ing*, *annoy-ing*.

Ish = like, when added to nouns ; as, *boy-ish*, *girl-ish* ; when added to adjectives, the suffix means “ somewhat,” “ rather ” ; as, *black-ish*, *green-ish*.

Less = loose from, without ; as, *fear-less*, *shame-less*. This suffix has no connection with the comparative of *little*.

Like = like ; as, *child-like*, *war-like*.

Ly = like ; as, *man-ly*, *sick-ly*. This suffix is a softened form of the preceding.

Some = like, partaking of a certain quality ; as, *glad-some*, *loath-some*. This suffix is found in a corrupt form in *buxom*, *flotsam*, and *jetsam*.

Teen, ty = ten ; as in the numerals.

Th, ordinal ; as, *fif-th*, *six-th*.

Ward = becoming, leading to ; as, *south-ward*, *for-ward*.

Wise = mode, way, manner ; as, *like-wise*, *other-wise*.

Y, ey, = of the nature of ; as, *ic-y*, *clay-ey*.

EXERCISE 97. — *Form adjectives by adding suffixes to the following words, and explain the force of each suffix used :*

fog	hand	nine
dew	grace	wheat
brother	fear	flax
shade	frolic	wool
like	hurt	tear
neighbor	wood	woman
slave	red	house
friend	wealth	hate
will	gold	boy
child	war	man

Those used in forming verbs :

En, imparting the idea of cause, forms transitive verbs from nouns and adjectives ; as, *strength-en*, *black-en*, *fat-t-en*.

Er, r, is added to adjectives and verbs, and imparts to the base word a frequentative and intensive force ; as, *hind-er*, *low-er*, *wand-er* (from *wend*), *glimm-er* (from *gleam*).

Le, l, is added to nouns and verbs, and imparts to the base word the sense of frequency, or diminution ; as, *nest-le*, *thrott-le* (from *throat*), *start-le*, *stradd-le* (from *stride*).

K, frequentative ; as, *tal-k* (from *tell*), *har-k* (from *hear*).

Se, to make, forms transitive verbs from adjectives ; as, *clean-se*.

EXERCISE 98. — *By the addition of suffixes, form verbs from the following words, and explain the force of each suffix :*

clean	sweet	knee
glad	height	muff
straight	red	sniff
nest	fresh	gleam

EXERCISE 99. — *What are the bases and the suffixes of the following words :*

throttle	straddle	wander	glimmer	bluster
heighten	sparkle	blacken	fatten	cleanse
talk	hark	madden	strengthen	frighten

Those used to form adverbs :

Es or **s**, the old suffix of the possessive case ; as in *needs*, *besides*, *thence*, *unawares*.

Ere, denoting place in ; as, *here* (related to *he*), *there* (related to *that*), *where* (related to *who*).

Ly, a softened form of *like* ; as, *only*, *utterly*, *wickedly*.

Ling, **long**, denoting direction ; as in *dark-ling*, *head-long*, *side-long*.

Ther, denoting place to ; as, *hither*, *thither*, *whither*.

Ward, **wards**, denoting direction ; as, *homeward*, *backwards*.

Wise, mode or manner ; as, *likewise*, *otherwise*.

Way, **ways**. In Old English, the accusative (objective case) of nouns was sometimes used with the force of an adverb. Hence the adverbs *al-ways*, *straight-way*. The general use of the possessive suffix *-es* or *-s* to form adverbs is accountable for the forms *always*, *straightways*, *sideways*.

EXERCISE 100.—*Form adverbs from :*

mighty	that	cheery	down
graceful	head	handsome	like
one	silly	home	other

LATIN SUFFIXES

The principal suffixes of Latin origin are the following :

Those used to form nouns :

1. Those forming abstract nouns :

Age = act, condition, collection of ; as, *cour-age*, *hom-age*, *foli-age*.

Ance, **ancy**, **ence**, or **ency** = state or quality of being ; as *abund-ance*, *const-ancy*, *indulg-ence*, *consist-ency*.

Ice = that which ; as, *just-ice*.

Ment = state of being, that which ; as, *excite-ment*, *command-ment*. It is also used to denote *instrument*, as in *docu-ment*, *orna-ment*.

Mony = state of, that which ; as, *acri-mony*, *testi-mony*.

Ion = the act of, state of being ; as, *redempt-ion*, *evas-ion*, *act-ion*.

Tude, denoting condition ; as, *forti-tude*, *grati-tude*.

Ty = state or quality of ; as, *chari-ty*, *cruel-ty*.

Ure or **eur** = state of, that which ; as, *grand-eur*, *creat-ure*.

Y, denoting condition or faculty ; as, *miser-y*, *victor-y*.

2. Those denoting simply a person, or one who performs the action signified by the base :

Ain or **an** = connected with ; as, *artis-an*, *chapl-ain*.

Ant or **ent** = one who ; as, *assist-ant*, *stud-ent*.

Ary, **ier**, **eer**, or **er** = one who ; as, *secret-ary*, *brigad-ier*, *engin-eer*, *marin-er*.

Ate = one who; as, *advoc-ate*, *cur-ate*. In the French form, *ee* or *e*, this suffix denotes the object of an action; as, *legat-ee*, *nom-in-ee*, *employ-e*.

Ist = one who practises or is devoted to; as, *evangel-ist*, *theor-ist*.

Or or **er** = one who; as, *conspirat-or*, *success-or*, *doct-or*, *preach-er*.

Trix, denoting a female agent; as, *execu-trix*.

3. Those forming diminutives:

El or **le**; as, *libel* (from *liber*, a book), *castle* (from *castrum*, a fort).

Cle or **cule**; as, *vesi-cle*, *animal-cule*.

Ule; as, *glob-ule*.

Ette or **let**; as, *ros-ette*, *stream-let*.

4. Those forming collective nouns:

Ry; as, *yeoman-ry*.

Those used in forming adjectives:

Aceous or **acious** = made of, having the quality of; as, *farin-aceous*, *cap-acious*.

Al = belonging to; as *leg-al*, *reg-al*.

An, **ane**, or **ain** = connected with; as, *hum-an*, *hum-ane*, *cert-ain*.

Ar or **er** = belonging to; as, *regul-ar*, *premi-er*.

Ary, **arious** = relating or belonging to; as, *station-ary*, *greg-arious*.

Able or **ible** = that may be done; as, *port-able*, *sens-ible*.

Ant or **ent**, equivalent to the force of the present participle inflection *ing*; as, *discord-ant*, *cur-rent*.

Escent = becoming; as, *putr-escent*.

Esque = partaking of; as, *pictur-esque*.

Ic = belonging to; as, *civ-ic*, *rust-ic*.

Id = having the quality of; as, *acr-id*, *frig-id*.

lle, il, eel, or le = capable of being ; as, *doc-ile, civ-il, gent-eel, ab-le*.

lne = belonging to ; as, *can-ine, sal-ine*.

lve = inclined to ; as, *plaint-ive, abus-ive*.

Ory = fitted or relating to ; as, *admonit-ory*.

Ose or ous = full of ; as, *verb-ose, curi-ous*.

Those used in forming verbs :

Ate = to perform the act of, cause ; as, *navig-ate*.

Fy = to make ; as, *beauti-fy, magni-fy*.

Ish = to make ; as, *fin-ish*.

GREEK SUFFIXES

lc = belonging to ; as, *aromat-ic, graph-ic*.

isk, a diminutive ; as, *aster-isk, obel-isk*.

ize or ise, forming verbs ; as, *anglic-ize, critic-ise*.

st = agent ; as, *bapti-st, botani-st*.

y, making abstract nouns ; as, *philosoph-y, monarch-y*.

As a general rule, all the parts of a derivative word are of like origin. An English prefix or suffix is joined to an English base ; a Latin prefix or suffix, to a Latin base ; a Greek prefix or suffix, to a Greek base.

WORD ANALYSIS

The analysis (*ly, lu* = loosen, and *ana* = back, up) of a word is the resolution of it into its component elements.

In analyzing a word, the following steps should be taken :

1. Give the class name of the composite word to be analyzed.
2. Name and describe the base.
3. Name and describe the adjunct or adjuncts.

MODELS OF WORD ANALYSIS

RAILROAD

CLASS: Compound word.
 BASE: Simple word *road*.
 ADJUNCT: Simple word *rail*.
 MEANING: A *road* upon which
rails are laid.

RECALL

CLASS: Derivative word.
 BASE: Simple word *call*.
 ADJUNCT: Prefix *re* = back.
 MEANING: To *call back*.

AUTOGRAPH

CLASS: A stem-compound word.
 BASE: Stem *graph* = write.
 ADJUNCT: Stem *auto* = self.
 MEANING: A signature or docu-
 ment *written by*
 the person *himself*.

EXPAND

CLASS: A stem-derivative word.
 BASE: Stem *pand* = spread.
 ADJUNCT: Prefix *ex* = out.
 MEANING: To *spread out*.

MODEL OF PROGRESSIVE ANALYSIS

INCOMPLETENESS

CLASS: Derivative word.
 BASE: Derivative word *incomplete*.
 ADJUNCT: Suffix *ness*, signifying *state* or *quality*.
 MEANING: The *state* or *quality* of being *incomplete*.

INCOMPLETE

CLASS: Derivative word.
 BASE: Stem-derivative word *complete*.
 ADJUNCT: Prefix *in* = *not*.
 MEANING: *Not complete*.

COMPLETE

CLASS : Stem-derivative word.

BASE : Stem *plet*, signifying *filled*.

ADJUNCT : Prefix *com*, signifying *together*.

MEANING : *Filled together*, hence *finished*.

In ascertaining the meaning of a word from an analysis of its component elements, it should be remembered that it may be used with several different shades of meaning, and that these may all be traced back to the meanings of the component elements.

EXERCISE 101. — *Analyze each of the following words, use each in a sentence, and from its use tell the part of speech :*

abduct	accept	compensate	inaugurate
abbreviate	accident	competent	indorse
aberration	accommodate	defend	jurisdiction
abject	antipathy	demonstrate	liberate
ablution	apprehend	educate	motion
abnegation	benefactor	encyclopedia	nominate
abnormal	capital	febrifuge	opposite
abominable	captive	fervent	paragraph
abrupt	centigrade	geography	quantity
abscond	centrifugal	hereditary	retard
adulterate	centripetal	humility	soluble

EXERCISE 102. — *Find composite words in addition to those given in which the stems enumerated on pp. 286–290 above are embodied.*

Classify and analyze the composite words in accordance with the models presented on pp. 304–305.

APPENDIX C

EQUIVALENT TERMS

The first term of each of the following sets of terms is the one used in this book ; the others are equivalent terms used in other text-books on grammar. For definitions of terms used in this book, refer to the index.

1. Adjective participle = participle.
2. Coördinating conjunction = coördinate conjunction ; co-ordinative conjunction.
3. Copulative verb = copula ; neuter verb.
4. Correlative conjunctions = corresponsive conjunctions.
5. Declarative sentence = assertive sentence.
6. Future perfect tense = second future tense.
7. Future tense = first future tense ; future imperfect tense.
8. Indirect object = dative objective.
9. Infinitive = root infinitive ; simple infinitive with *to* ; verb in infinitive mode.
10. Modifier = adjunct.
11. Noun participle = infinitive in *ing* ; gerund ; participial infinitive.
12. Noun phrase or clause = substantive phrase or clause.
13. Past participle = perfect participle ; passive participle.
14. Past perfect tense = pluperfect tense.
15. Past tense = imperfect tense ; preterit ; past imperfect tense.
16. Perfect participle = preperfect participle.

17. Predicate = modified predicate; enlarged predicate; complete predicate; entire predicate; logical predicate.

18. Predicate adjective = attribute; attribute complement; attributive complement; subjective complement.

19. Predicate noun or pronoun = attribute; attribute complement; attributive complement; subjective complement.

20. Present perfect tense = perfect tense.

21. Present tense = present imperfect tense.

22. Relative pronoun = conjunctive pronoun.

23. Subject = modified subject; enlarged subject; complete subject; entire subject; logical subject.

24. Subject word = simple subject; subject; grammatical subject.

25. Subordinating conjunction = subordinate conjunction; subordinative conjunction; conjunctive adverb.

26. Supplement of verb = objective complement; objective attribute complement; adjective or noun complement; factitive object or an adjective used factitively; objective predicate or factitive predicate; objective attribute.

27. Verb = predicate; finite verb; simple predicate; predicate verb; grammatical predicate.

INDEX

(The references are to the pages.)

A

A, as a prefix, 292, 293, 295.
 — an, how used, 120.
 before *h*, 120.
 Repetition of, 120, 121.
 Abstract nouns, defined, 69.
 formed from adjectives, verbs,
 common nouns, 69, 70.
 have no plural, 77.
 Accent in verse, 263.
 Active voice, 134.
 Forms of tenses in, 141-146.
 Adjectives, 16, 17, 118-129.
 defined, 17, 118.
 as predicate complements, 36, 118.
 as modifiers, 39.
 Words, phrases, and clauses used
 as, 40, 46, 128.
 Abstract nouns formed from, 69.
 Classes of, 118.
 Demonstrative, 118, 119.
 as attributive and appositive modi-
 fiers, 118.
 Phrase adjectives, *many a*, *a little*,
 119.
 Comparison of, 123-127.
 Concord of adjective and noun,
 214.
 Position of, in sentence, 229.
 Adjunct of a composite word, 290.
 See *Word Analysis*, 303.
 Adverbial objective, 86.
 Adverbs, 18-20, 189-195.
 defined, 19.
 as modifier, 19, 189.
 Phrases and clauses used for, 42-
 44, 193.

Adverbs, noun or pronoun as ad-
 verbial modifier, "The book cost
a dollar," 86.
 Classes of, 190.
 Comparison of, 192.
 composed of two or more words,
 193.
 Position of, in sentence, 231.
 Agreement, of a verb with its sub-
 ject, 146, 210.
 of a pronoun with its antecedent,
 215, 218.
 of subject and predicate com-
 plement, 218.
 of nouns in apposition, 219.
 Alexandrine measure, 269.
 Alliteration, defined, use of, 273.
 Amphibrach, foot in verse, 267.
 Amphibrachic verse, 272-273.
 Analysis, explained, 51.
 defined, 51.
 of sentences, 57-67.
 of simple sentences, 57.
 of complex sentences, 61.
 of compound sentences, 65.
 of words, 303-305.
 Anapest, foot in verse, 266.
 Anapestic verse, 271.
 Another, distinguished from *the*
 other, 115.
 Antecedent, defined, 91.
 omitted, 106.
 may be phrase or clause, 109.
 Concord of pronoun and, 215-219.
 Any, Meaning of, 114.
 Apposition, Noun in the same case
 by, 86.
 Appositive modifier, 118.

Article, *an, the*, 119-123.
As, relative pronoun, 107.
 Uses of, 190, 192.
 subordinating conjunction, 202.
 Assimilation of sound, 293.
 Attribute, another name for predicate complement, 307.
 Attributive modifier, 118.
 Aught, 114.
 Author, not authoress, 82. See
 Gender, 78-82.
 Auxiliary verbs, 161.
 Conjugation of, 168.

B

Base, of a composite word, 290.
 may be a word, 290, 291.
 may be a stem, 290, 291.
 Be, verb, Conjugation of, 170-172.
 Principal parts, 170, 184.
 as a prefix, 292.
 Blank verse, 265.
 Both — and, 203.
 Position of, 236.
 But, as a preposition, 48.
 coördinating conjunction, 202.
 Improper use of, 218.
 that, Wrong use of, 48.
 By, Proper use of, 198.

C

Can, a notional verb, meaning, 175.
 Conjugation of, 175.
 Principal parts, 184.
 Capitals, Rules for, 240-241.
 Small and large, 241.
 Case, 82-87.
 defined, 83.
 Nominative, 84.
 Possessive, 84.
 Objective, 86.
 Concord of cases, 218-219.
 Catalectic, in verse, 267.
 Clause, modifier, 40.
 defined, 45.
 Independent and subordinate, 46.
 Adjective, 46.
 Adverbial, 46.
 Noun, 47.

Clause, Mode and tense of verbs
 in subordinate, 220-223.
 Position of, 231-234.
 Ellipsis of, 238.
 Punctuation of, 243, 245.
 Collective noun, defined, 69.
 Concord of verb with, 147, 210.
 Colon, 245.
 Comma, 243.
 Common noun, defined, 68.
 Comparative degree, 123-127.
 Double, 126.
 Thing compared excluded from
 class, 127.
 Comparison of adjectives, 123-127.
 positive degree, 123.
 comparative degree, 123-127.
 superlative degree, 123-127.
 Rules for forming, 124.
 of adverbs, 192.
 Complement, of a verb, 35-37.
 defined, 36.
 Predicate, 36.
 in the nominative case, 82.
 in the objective case, 86.
 of a transitive verb and of an in-
 transitive verb, 130-133.
 of a passive verb, 133.
 Complex sentences, 58-63.
 Analysis of, 58-63.
 Definition of, 59.
 changed to simple sentences, 153,
 159.
 Punctuation of, 244.
 Composite word, defined, 284.
 Adjunct of, 290.
 analyzed, 303.
 Compound, subject, predicate, and
 object, in simple sentences, 54.
 sentence, Definition of, 63.
 sentences formed from simple, 63.
 sentences, Nature of clauses in, 63.
 sentences, Analysis of, 65.
 sentences, Punctuation of, 245.
 nouns, Plurals of, 77.
 nouns, Possessive cases of, 85.
 words, 291.
 words, Accent of, 291.
 words, analyzed, 303.
 Concord, 209-223.
 defined, 209.

Concord, of subject and predicate, 210-214.
 of adjective and noun, 214.
 of pronoun and antecedent, 215, 218.
 of cases, 218, 219.
 of tenses, 220.
 Conjugation, of the verb, 167-183.
 of transitive verb *see*, 176-183.
 Conjunctions, 23-26, 201-208.
 defined, 24, 201.
 Classes of, 201.
 Coördinating and subordinating, distinguished, 201-203.
 Connectives may be conjunctions and relative pronouns, 59-60.
 Coördinating conjunctions, 201-202.
 Copulative verb, 133.
 Couplet (in verse), 265.

D

Dactyl, foot in verse, 267.
 Dactylic verse, 271-273.
 Dare, verb, irregularities in conjugation, 176.
 Principal parts, 184.
 Dash, Use of, 246.
 Dative case, remnant of Anglo-Saxon inflection, 93.
 Declarative sentence, 29-30.
 Declension, of nouns, 87.
 of personal pronoun of first person, 93.
 of personal pronoun of second person, 94.
 of personal pronoun of third person, 95.
 of *who* and *which*, 100, 101, 103.
 of *whosoever*, 107.
 Defective verbs, 167, 174.
 notional verbs, 174.
 Degree, Clause of, elliptical, 46.
 Demonstrative pronouns, 112.
 Use of, 112.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 adjectives, 118-119.
 Derivative word, defined, 291.
 analyzed, 303.
 Dight, past participle, 176.
 Dimeter verse, 267.

Diminutives, how formed, 302.
 Direct object, 37.
 Distributive pronouns, 115.
 Do, Conjugation of, as a notional verb, 172-173.
 uses as an auxiliary verb, 173.
 Principal parts, 184.
Don't, 213.
 Double, comparative, 126.
 negative, 226.
 rimes, 264.

E

Each, distinguished from *every*, 115.
 joined to singular noun, 215.
 other, 115.
 Either, indefinite pronoun, 115, 116.
 Concord of, 215.
 — or, 203, 212.
 Elder — eldest, distinguished from *older*, 126.
 Elements of a sentence, 29-50.
 classified, 49.
 Ellipsis, defined, 237.
 Cases of, 237-240.
 Emphatic, form of the verb, 165.
 use of pronoun, 97.
 English, prefixes, 292-293.
 suffixes, 296-299.
 Etymology, defined, derivation of word, 9.
 Systematic treatment of, 67-208.
 Every, indefinite pronoun, 115.
 other, 115.
 Exclamatory sentence, 30.
 Punctuation of, 246.

F

False syntax, Examples of, 213-250.
 Farther, Comparison of, 126.
 Meaning of, 193.
 Foot, in verse, defined, 266.
 Kinds of feet, 266.
 For, subordinating conjunction, 202.
 as a prefix, 292.
 Further, Comparison of, 126.
 Meaning of, 193.
 Future, indefinite tense, 145.
 perfect tense, 145.

G

- Gender, defined, 78.
 Three kinds of, 78.
 Common, 79.
 in nouns, how indicated, 80.
 Gerund, defined, 157.
 Government, 224.
 defined, 224.
 Errors in, 224.
 Grammar, defined, 7.
 Divisions of, 7-11.
 Greek, nouns, 74.
 prefixes, 295-296.
 suffixes, 303.

H

- Have, Conjugation of, 169.
 Meaning as a notional verb and
 uses as an auxiliary, 169.
 Principal parts, 185.
 He, pronoun, 95.
 Her, pronoun, 95.
 Here, adverb of place, 190.
 used to introduce a sentence,
 228.
 Heroic measure, 268.
 Hers, possessive form, 96.
 Hexameter verse, 269.
 Dactylic, 272.
 Hight, a passive verb, 175.
 Hypermeter, in verse, 269.
 Hyphen, 247.

I

- I, personal pronoun, 92.
 Iambic verse, 267-269.
 Iambus, foot in verse, 266.
 If, subordinating conjunction, 202.
 Imperative, sentence, 29-30.
 mode, defined, 137.
 subject follows the verb, 228.
 Impersonal verb, 130.
 In, Proper use of, 198.
 Incomplete intransitive verbs, 132.
 Indefinite pronoun, 113.
 Uses of, 113-116.
 as antecedent of personal pronoun,
 216.

- Indention of verse, 265.
 Independent words or phrases, 44-46.
 Indicative mode, defined, 136.
 distinguished from subjunctive,
 138-139.
 Indirect object, 37.
 Infinitive, 150-155.
 defined, 150.
 Uses of, 151-152.
 has two forms, 152.
 noun phrases, 152.
 adjective phrases, 152.
 adverbial phrases, 152.
 Use of *to* explained, 153.
 takes the form required by the
 tense of the principal verb, 222.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 Inflection defined, 8.
 Interjection, 26-28.
 defined, 27.
 Punctuation after, 246.
 Interrogative, sentence, 29-30.
 Punctuation of, 246.
 pronouns, 99.
 and relative pronouns distin-
 guished, 108.
 Into, Proper use of, 198.
 Intransitive verbs, defined, 131.
 become transitive, 131.
 may form predicates, 132.
 incomplete verbs, 132.
 Irregular (or *weak*) verbs, 183.
 List of, 184-186.
 It, inflection, 95.
 Italics, how used, 242.
 Its, History of, 95.

L

- Language defined, 7.
 Latin, plurals of nouns, 74.
 prefixes, 293-295.
 suffixes, 301-303.
 Lay, irregular verb, 185.
 Least, Comparison of, 125.
 Less, Comparison of, 125.
 Lest, subordinating conjunction, 202.
 Let, irregular verb, 185.
 Lie (to recline), irregular verb, 185.
 conjugated in potential mode,
 182-183.

Like, not a conjunction, 260.
 Lists, impersonal verb, 130.
 Little, Comparison of, 125.

M

Many, adjective, 119.
 "Full *many* a flower," 119.
 Comparison of, 126.
 May, Meaning of, uses, conjugation, 174.
 Principal parts, 185.
 Mesdames, plural of Mrs., 75.
 Messieurs, plural of Mr., 75.
 Meter (in verse), 264.
 Service, ballad, or common meter, 269.
 Mixed meter, 273.
 Methinks, 93, 130.
 Mine, Use of, 96.
 Parsing of, 96.
 Mode, 136-141.
 defined, 136.
 Three modes, 136. See *Indicative*, etc., 136.
 Potential, 182-183.
 Modification, defined, 225.
 Adjective modifiers, 225.
 Adverbial modifiers, 226.
 Modifier, explained and defined, 19.
 Adjective, 39-42.
 Adverbial, 42-44.
 Appositive, attributive, and predicate, 118.
 Monometer verse, 267.
 Must, defective verb, 175.
 Myself, pronoun, 92.
 Reflexive and emphatic use of, 97.

N

Naught, 114.
 Need, verb, 175.
 Needs, adverb, 175.
 Negative, Double, 226.
 Neither, indefinite pronoun, 115.
 — nor, 203.
 Concord of nouns connected by, 212.
 Position of subject after, 228.
 Position of, 236.

Never, Error in use of, 232.
 No, not an adverb, 191.
 other, 115.
 Nominative, case of nouns, 84.
 by address, 84.
 absolute, 84.
 absolute, as adverbial modifier, 156.
 Do not use the nominative case for the objective, 224.
 None, Derivation and use of, 114, 210.
 Nor, conjunction, 203.
 equivalent to *and not*, 203.
 Concord of nouns connected by, 212.
 Position of subject after, 228.
 Position of, 236.
 Not, adverb, 190.
 Error in use of, 233.
 only, 203.
 Position of, 235-236.
 Notional verb, 161.
 Noun, 11, 67-91.
 defined, 11, 67.
 Subject, 34.
 Predicate, 36, 82, 133.
 Classes of nouns, 68.
 Proper, 68.
 Common, 68.
 Collective, 69.
 Abstract, 69.
 Inflection of, 71-88.
 Parsing, 89.
 Substitutes for, 89.
 in apposition, 86, 219.
 as adverbial modifier, 86.
 used to explain another, 86, 219.
 Concord of noun and verb, 211-214; of adjective and noun, 214; of noun and pronoun, 215-218.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 Now, adverb, 190.
 used as a noun, 191.
 Number of nouns, defined, 72.
 Singular, 72.
 Plural, 72.
 Plural, how formed, 72-78.
 Agreeing in, 146, 210-220.
 Inflections of verbs to denote number, 147.

O

- Object, of a transitive verb, 36, 47, 54, 82, 130, 131.
 of preposition, 21, 86.
 Direct, indirect, 37, 131.
 Noun or pronoun in objective case, 86.
 Ellipsis of, 238.
 Objective, case, 86.
 Adverbial, 86.
 Older — oldest, compared with *elder*, 126.
 One, Use of, 113.
 another, 115.
 Only, adverb, Proper use of, 233.
 Or, conjunction, 203.
 Either — or, singular verb follows subject connected by, 212.
 Position of, 236.
 Order of words, 227–238.
 Usual, 227.
 Rules of, 227.
 Exercises in, 228–236.
 Orthography, defined, 8.
 Other, as an adjective, 115.
 as a pronoun, 115.
 Ought, 175.
 Hadn't ought to, didn't ought to, 213.
 Ours, Use of, and parsing, 96.

P

- Parenthesis, Use of, 247.
 Parsing, of the noun, 89.
 personal pronoun, 97.
 interrogative and relative pronoun, 110.
 the adjective, 128.
 the verb, 187.
 the adverb, 194.
 the preposition, 199.
 the conjunction, 204.
 Participles, 155–161.
 of transitive verbs govern the objective case, 155.
 defined, 156.
 Noun, 156.
 Adjective, 156.
 Three forms, 157.
 Participles, distinguished from common nouns, 158.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 Parts of speech, 8, 11–28, 67–208.
 Words classified according to their use in a sentence, 191.
 Passive voice, Definition of, 135.
 Object of verb in active voice becomes subject, when verb is changed to passive, 135.
 Tenses in, 141–142.
 Tenses in, formed by aid of verb *be*, 135, 164.
 Conjugation of verb in, 176–183.
 Some verbs in, require complement, 132.
 Supplement of verb in active voice becomes predicate complement of verb in passive voice, 132.
 Past tense (Past indefinite), 144.
 Past perfect tense, 145.
 Pentameter verse, 267.
 Perfect tense, Present, 144.
 Past 145.
 Period, 248.
 Person, of a noun, 88.
 defined, 88.
 and number, of a verb, 146–150.
 Personal pronouns, 92–99.
 Parsing of, 97.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 Phrase, defined, 40, 45.
 Noun, 45; substitute for noun, 89; as subject of sentence, 151, 156; as object, 152, 156.
 Adjective, 40; as substitute for adjective, 148; as predicate complement, 38, 152; as modifier, 40, 128.
 Adverbial, 42–43; as substitute for adverb, 193; as modifier, 42–43.
 Position of adjective phrase, 230.
 Position of adverbial phrase, 231–234.
 Plural, See *Number*.
 of nouns imported from foreign languages, 74.
 Poetry written in verse, 263.
 Positive degree, 123.
 Possessive case of nouns, inflection and uses, 84–86.

Possessive case, Noun in apposition after, 85.
 Uses and parsing of possessive forms of personal pronouns, 96.
 as adjective modifier, 128.
 before a noun participle, 256.
 Potential mode, 182-183.
 Predicate, 31-39.
 must be, or contain, a verb, 12.
 defined, 32.
 Concord of subject and, 210-214.
 omitted, 238.
 complement, 35-39.
 Prefixes, Meaning and use of, 285.
 English, 292.
 Latin, 293-295.
 Greek, 295-296.
 Preposition, 20-21, 195-200, 224, 235, 238.
 defined, 21.
 The object of, 21.
 Position of, 195, 235.
 made up of two or three words, 197.
 joined to a verb, 197.
 Proper use of, 198.
 governs the objective case, 224.
 Ellipsis of, 238.
 Present indefinite tense, 143.
 Present perfect tense, 144.
 Prime word, 284.
 Principal elements of a sentence, 49-50.
 Pronoun, 14-15, 91-117.
 defined, 15, 91.
 Classes and inflections, 91-117.
 Personal, 92-99.
 Interrogative, 99-102.
 Relative, 102-111.
 Adjective, 111-117.
 Demonstrative, 112.
 Indefinite, 113-117.
 Concord of pronoun and its antecedent, 215, 218.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 Proper noun, 68.
 Prosody, defined, 263.
 Systematic treatment of, 263-274.
 Punctuation, 243-250.

Q

Quality, Adjectives of, 118.
 Quantity, Adjectives of, 118-119.
 Quotation, Direct and indirect, 241, 244, 248.
 Marks of, 248.
 Quoth, verb, Use of, 176.

R

Rather, comparative of *rathe*, 193.
 Redundant verb, 167.
 Reflexive use of pronoun, 97.
 Regular verbs, 183.
 Relative pronoun, 102-111.
 how first used, 103.
 declined, 103.
 as used in restrictive and coordinate clauses, 104.
 and interrogative pronouns distinguished, 108.
 How to parse, 110.
 Concord of verb with, 215.
 Concord with antecedent, 215-216.
 Ellipsis of, 237.
 clause, Punctuation of, 244.
 Rhythm in verse, 263.
 Rime, defined, 264.
 Three things necessary to, 264.

S

Scan (to scan in poetry), 266.
 See, transitive verb, conjugated, 176-183.
 Sentence, used in three ways, 29.
 Declarative, 29-30.
 Interrogative, 29-30.
 Imperative, 29-30.
 Exclamatory, 30.
 consists of two parts, 31.
 Analysis of, 51, 57, 61, 65.
 Construction of, 51-66.
 Simple, 52-58.
 Complex, 58-63.
 Compound, 63-66.
 Punctuation of, 243-250.
 Shall, distinguished from *will*, 163.
 Conjugation of, 168.
 Principal parts, 185.

Simple sentences, Elements of, 52-58.

Analysis of, 57.

Single rimes, 264.

Singular number of nouns, 72.

See *Number*, 71-78.

So, used for *such*, 116.

Some, as pronoun, as adjective, 114.
takes a plural verb, 210.

Stanza (in verse), 266.

Elegiac, 268.

Spenserian, 269.

Stems, parts of words found in
other languages, 285.

Stem-compound, 291.

Stem-derivative, 291.

See *Word Analysis*, 303.

Strong verbs, 183.

Subject, 31-35.

defined, 32.

Different forms of, 34.

Difference between the grammatical and the entire, or logical, 207.

Concord of subject and predicate, 210-214.

Subjective complement, another
name for predicate complement, 307.

Subjunctive mode, 136-141.

defined, 137.

introduced by *if*, *though*, *unless*,
except, *lest*, *that*, 137.

What the subjunctive expresses, 137.

distinguished from indicative, 138-139.

Subordinate clauses, 46.

Subordinating conjunctions, 202.

Such, as adjective, as pronoun, 116.

Suffixes, Meaning and use of, 285.

English, 296-301.

Latin, 301-303.

Greek, 303.

Superlative degree, 123-127.

Thing compared included in class, 127.

Supplement of a verb, 37.

Syntax, 209-250.

defined, 209.

Synthesis, explained, 51-52.

defined, 52.

T

Tenses, 141-146.

defined, 141.

Three principal, 141.

Table of tense forms, 142.

Primary, how used, 142-145.

Secondary, 145-146.

of infinitive and participles, 152, 157.

of the indicative mode, 162.

of the subjunctive mode, 164.

of the imperative mode, 164.

of the passive voice, 164.

Concord of, 220.

Tetrameter verse, 267.

Than, after comparative degree, 127.

conjunction, Use of, 233.

That, relative pronoun, when preferred to *who* and *which*, 104.

demonstrative pronoun, 112.

demonstrative adjective, 119.

used with nouns in the singular, 214.

subordinating conjunction, 202.

introduces a noun clause, 47.

Ellipsis of, 237.

The article, Use of, 119-123.

as an adverb, 191.

Theirs, Use of, and parsing, 96.

There, adverb, used to introduce a sentence, 228.

Thine, Use of, 96.

This, demonstrative pronoun, 112.

demonstrative adjective, 119.

used with nouns in the singular, 214.

Thou, Use of, 94.

Though, subordinating conjunction, 203.

— yet, 203.

To, preposition, Use of, 153.

To wit, Use of, 175.

Transitive verbs, defined, 130.

have voice, 134.

when in active voice can not make complete predicate, 130.

govern the objective case, 224.

Trimeter verse, 267.

Trochee, foot in verse, 266.

V

- Verb, 12, 13, 129, 189.
 Complements of, 35-37.
 Supplement of, 37.
 Personal and impersonal, 130.
 Transitive and intransitive, 130.
 Active and passive voice of, 134.
 Modes of, 136-141.
 Tenses of, 141-146.
 Verbals, 150-161.
 Number and person, 146-150.
 Notional, 161.
 Auxiliary, 161, 168-183.
 Conjugation of, 167-183.
 Defective, 174.
 Regular and irregular, 183.
 Strong and weak, 183.
 List of irregular, 184-186.
 Concord of, 210-214.
 in subordinate clauses, 221.
 Ellipsis of, 237-238.
 Verse, defined, 263.
 Blank, 265.
 classified, 267.
 Dissyllabic, 266-270.
 Trisyllabic, 266, 271-273.
 Voice, 134.
 Active, 134.
 Passive, 134-135.

W

- We, pronoun, 92.
 Special uses of, 93.
 Weak verbs, 183.

- What, as interrogative pronoun, 100-101.
 to introduce exclamation, 101.
 equivalent to *that which*, 106.
 to introduce a noun clause, 106.
 as an adjective, 107.
 Whether, as pronoun, 101.
 subordinating conjunction, 203.
 — or, 203.
 Which, as interrogative pronoun, 100.
 as relative pronoun, 102-103.
 Inflection of, 103.
 distinguished from *who* and *that*, 104.
 Old use of, 106.
 as an adjective, 106.
 Who, interrogative pronoun, 100.
 as relative pronoun, 102-103.
 declined, 103.
 Uses of, 103-104.
 Whose, Use of, 105.
 Whosoever, declined, 107.
 Words, 7.
 classified according to use, 8.
 classified according to formation, 284.
 analyzed, 303.

Y

- Ye, Use of, 94.
 Yes, not an adverb, 191.
 Yet, 202.
 You, pronoun, 92.
 with plural verb, 212.
 Yours, Use of, and parsing, 96.

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